

Pol 330 Nationalism & Ethnicity

Numbered Transcript

POLS 330 • Dr. Eric Kaufmann

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Lecture 1: The Making of Identity

At a glance — Kaufmann opens on nationalism and ethnicity, outlining key concepts and the making of identity.

- 1.1 Welcome, everybody, to this course about Nationalism and Ethnicity. What I want to begin with is outlining key concepts and terms, and this is actually going to be very important in the course, because terms like nation, ethnic group, state—people throw them around, and they very often mix up what they mean. As academics studying nationalism and ethnicity, we want to try and be as precise as we can in differentiating these terms. What do we mean by terms like nationalism and ethnicity?
- 1.2 I want to begin with the term ethnic group. The shorthand for what ethnicity is: ethnicity is really about communities based on common ancestry or belief in common ancestry. Ancestry is the key to understanding what an ethnic group is. But let's get into a more comprehensive definition of what ethnicity is.
- 1.3 There are, according to Anthony Smith, who's provided a useful definition, a number of elements that constitute an ethnic group. The first is to have a collective, proper name—Jewish, Vietnamese, Welsh, Samoan—these are all names of groups that differentiate them from other groups. "We are the Samoans." That's a proper name. So a collective, proper name.
- 1.4 The second, and I think quite critical one, is a myth or belief in shared descent or common ancestry. So, believing that, "We, Greeks, are descended from the ancient Greeks." "We Jews are descended from Abraham and the 12 tribes." That is a belief in common ancestry. Is it true or not, genetically? Actually, less important. And we know, in fact, that certain myths—so the Hungarians tracing their ancestry to Central Asia, the Turks tracing their ancestry to Central Asia. Actually, the DNA component from Central Asia is relatively small in both of those groups. But the myth of common ancestry is what counts for defining an ethnic group.
- 1.5 It doesn't necessarily, again, mean you have to have actual common ancestry. Shared historical memories—when we were great, when we suffered a heroic defeat, when we beat our enemies, our heroes. Shared historical memories are a component of ethnicity. Now we move on to—
- 1.6 Whereas historical memories and ancestry myths tie groups back in time, in history, there are then elements of common culture that differentiate groups in the here and now. What is the difference between a Serb, a Croat, and a Bosnian Muslim? You need to look at one or more elements of common culture. A group must have religion or language or physical appearance or some combination of those. Those are the most typical cultural elements that differentiate groups in space, let's say.
- 1.7 How do you know who is French, who is English? Well, language. How do you know who is a Croat and who is a Serb when the language is pretty similar and the skin color

is pretty similar? Well, it's religion: Orthodox, Catholic. In that case, it's religion. In the case of the Southern United States, you have two groups that are Protestant English-speaking. One's black in physical appearance, one's white in physical appearance. So physical appearance then becomes the differentiator in that situation.

- 1.8 It doesn't have to be all of them. It can be one of them or another of them. In the Baltic region, for example, you have groups that are not particularly different by religion. They're not different by skin color, but they're very different in terms of their language. So language, religion, physical appearance are the most common differentiator between ethnic groups. These are ways in which groups can tell each other apart.
- 1.9 But how important are particular differentiating features like religion, like language, for a group? It is arguable that sometimes these differences can fade over time, and they can change over time. Sometimes a group, like the French-Canadians, define themselves more on the lines of Catholicism. That became less important. Language—French—became more important over time. So these cultural markers that mark one group out from the other can change over time.
- 1.10 Finally, we come to an association with a specific homeland. So if you think about the promised land of Israel for the Jews, for example, or the Armenian homeland, this is often fuzzy. The boundaries are fuzzy. They're defined in different ways. In the Bible, for example, the definition of the Holy Land can shift over time. It's fuzzy, it's not concrete. When we get to talking about nation, we're actually going to talk about something a bit more concrete. And with state, that territory is going to be very concrete. An association, a group, has to have an association with some specific homeland, perhaps the homeland from which they migrated, perhaps the homeland which they associate as their particular current home.
- 1.11 And then finally, we get to the last element, which is a sense of solidarity for significant sectors of the population. It can't just be 10 people in a room saying, "We are Estonian," in the 19th century or the 18th century. It has to actually have spread—that consciousness has to have spread within a significant number of members of the group for that to become an ethnic identity.
- 1.12 A lot of this becomes important as we look at the history of the emergence of ethnic groups and nations. At what point did the consciousness spread widely enough that we can speak about the English as an ethnic group in the ninth century, in the 13th century, etc.
- 1.13 Nation then—we've talked about ethnicity, which is based on subjective belief in common ancestry. The subjectivity is key there for ethnicity. Yes, there are objective visible markers—religion, race, and language—but it's the subjective that actually matters, arguably more. Nation. What is the difference between a nation and an ethnic group? Many debates, by the way, are held over these, and I don't want to suggest that

these are uncontested debates. But let's look at some of Anthony Smith's definitions of what the nation is.

- 1.14** The first thing to say is nation is a territorial community. The Jewish diaspora is not a nation. Israel is a nation. Why? Israel has that territorial reference. So in terms of the comprehensive definition of the nation, the first is, like an ethnic group, you have a name—Great Britain, the United States of America, Argentina, Rwanda—this is a proper name that distinguishes it from other proper names. Occupation of a historic territory with ethnicity—actually, you could be a far-flung Parsi diaspora, that's fine, or a far-flung Jewish diaspora, but with a nation, you actually have to occupy your historic territory. So it is actually a territorialized community. That's why I draw the distinction between the Jews as a diaspora and Israel as a nation. So occupation of a historic territory.
- 1.15** There has to be a certain degree of integration of your economy, your infrastructure, and your culture. You can't just be a set of isolated villages and regions that speak different dialects and have no knowledge of each other. To some degree, Papua New Guinea, with its 1,000 languages and mountain valleys, you wouldn't call this a nation. Until you get enough integration and communication that breaks down the barriers enough that these isolated regions and villages and tribes actually come to see themselves as part of a common whole based around territory.
- 1.16** So I've emphasized territory, integrated territorial economy, communications, but there's another element, which is that nations are, by definition, political. That is, if you are content to be the Cajuns or the Balinese, let's take another example, the island of Bali, it's territorially defined. It has a history. But unless there is a political project of some kind, even some political autonomy short of independence, let's say, "We Balinese want power over our—we want a set of rights from the Indonesian government over language, over running our own affairs," something political. If there is nothing political— and arguably there isn't with Bali; there may be some nascent movement, but it's pretty weak—if there's nothing political, not even a political ambition, then you would just call that a territorialized ethnic group that is not a nation, that has not made the transition to thinking of itself as a nation. So that's another element: political ambition.
- 1.17** Common political myths, traditions, memories—having a political tradition. Corsica had a constitution, had a political tradition, and that's why Corsica has some claim to being a nation within France. Common political myths and memories.
- 1.18** And then finally, a mass public culture by which Smith is really referring to, usually some official language. Not always—Switzerland does not have one official language—but some common culture, typically conveyed by a literate public that reads newspapers or at least watches television or something that can actually knit together into some common culture this nation.

- 1.19** So that's the idea of a nation. Some of the elements of nationhood, including this idea of an integration of different villages and regions into something that's a whole and a common culture, suggest an entity that can only really exist in the modern period.
- 1.20** And this is a big debate as to whether nations can only be found in the modern period when modern capitalism and technology and bureaucratization can break down the barriers between isolated communities and knit them together into a common economy and common culture. But there are big debates as to whether, in fact, that was achieved also in the ancient world and in the medieval world, and not just in the modern world.
- 1.21** The key difference there, again, ethnicity is about subjective belief in common ancestry. A nation is a territorial political community. What is nationalism? It's not automatic that just because you know the definition of nation that you can instantly read into that the definition of nationalism.
- 1.22** Nationalism really has two distinct meanings. One is a concrete movement—Scottish nationalism, Chinese nationalism, Russian nationalism—that's a concrete social and political movement in time, in history, and in space. So these particular nationalist movements can be seeking different things. They might be seeking, like the Scots, to separate from the United Kingdom. So it could be seeking autonomy, politically, independence on behalf of a social group whose leaders believe it to be a nation.
- 1.23** But there could be other aims of nationalism—reunification. Arab nationalism: "We want to reunify all the Arab peoples under one political roof." All the Italian-speaking peoples or people who speak Italian dialects under one roof called Italy. Or all the German dialects into one roof called Germany. That is a unification type of nationalism, as opposed to a separatist type of nationalism.
- 1.24** You may also have nationalisms, and this is becoming more relevant in the West today, that are about some form of cultural revival or protection. It might be about, "Oh, our language is being adulterated with too many loan words from French, and so we need to stress the Anglo-Saxon words and have some linguistic revival." Maybe, "Our religion has gone into decline." "Our Welsh language is declining, and so we need to revive Welsh in Wales." Equally, immigration and ethnic change: "We need to have immigration restriction in order to preserve an ethnic composition in the nation." That is a form of nationalism based around obtaining an identity goal. So identity, unity, and autonomy are the elements of nationalist movements.
- 1.25** Nationalism can be a movement, a concrete political and social movement, but it is also, arguably, an ideology, an -ism, like other -isms, like liberalism and socialism. What is the -ism of nationalism as an idea, as a philosophy? Well, it doesn't have a core text like *Das Kapital* for Marxism. There's no actual core text you can read to get, "This is the Nationalist Ideology." You have to piece it together by looking at actual nationalist movements and looking at the ideas and synthesizing what this ideology is.

- 1.26 Actually, when we do that, we're actually blending the ideas of the French Enlightenment— well, not just the French, but the ideas of the Enlightenment, Jean Jacques Rousseau, Benjamin Constant, and others, with the ideas of the German Counter-Enlightenment: Herder, Fichte, Hegel, and others. There are going to be elements borrowed from both of these traditions.
- 1.27 The first proposition, then, in the ideology of nationalism is that the world is divided into nations, each with its own particular character. Now, that character, again, could be linguistic, could be religious, could be political. The nation is the proper source of political power, not the monarch, not the foreign ruler. So it's the people, the nation that should be bearing power. That's coming from that Enlightenment French revolutionary tradition, which we're going to talk about more as the course proceeds. So the people should bear sovereignty rather than a dynast or monarch.
- 1.28 Everyone should owe primary loyalty to their nation rather than to their region, city, state, ethnic group, and so on, or empire. People should owe primary loyalty to the nation. Every nation should seek full autonomy—and this is coming partly from that German romantic tradition of Johann Gottfried von Herder, that each nation has its own particular genius, and to fully realize itself, it should seek autonomy. And that, finally, there is a sense of world order coming out of this philosophy based on the idea of free and independent nations.
- 1.29 Now, without endorsing or not endorsing this, we can see that there are issues around the self-determination of peoples. If we allowed all of 6,000 of the world's language groups to form their own nation-state, that could lead to chaos. On the other hand, clearly, there's a question around: Is secession a good thing or not?
- 1.30 If a group really wants to leave, if the Scots, if the Quebecois want to leave Canada, should they be allowed to do so? Is the liberal answer to say, "Yes, they should be because they really want to, and they don't belong there?" But then, within Quebec, should the Indigenous two-thirds of Northern Quebec secede from Quebec? And then within that— you see? So there is a question as to what the limit is to the principle of self-determination of peoples, which is part of international law, but is limited by ideas of national sovereignty within the United Nations.
- 1.31 With nationalism, we're talking either about a concrete social and political movement, that is, nationalist movements, or we're talking about nationalism as an ideology, and they are separate. But of course, one influences the other. So a lot of nationalist movements have been influenced by ideas of nationalism, particularly from the Enlightenment and the German Romantics.
- 1.32 Then we come to the state. We've talked about an ethnic group: a community based on subjective belief in common ancestry. A nation: a territorial community with common memories and political ambitions. And then state. Not every nation is a state. Quebec, Scotland are nations; they don't have their own state. But other nations, the United

States is a nation and a state at the same time. France is a nation and a state at the same time. But there are substate nations.

- 1.33 What is a state? A state is actually a purely political unit. To use Max Weber's classic definition, "It is a political unit which has a monopoly on the use of force in a particular territory." That is, it controls pacification through the police, and has a military to defend the political unit from outside aggression. So, a political unit which maintains a monopoly on the use of force in a particular territory.
- 1.34 It has generally, especially in the contemporary period, states have very clearly delineated borders that are typically lines on a map with clear coordinates that you can draw. It is very sharply defined. Whereas you compare that to the land of Israel in the Bible—a much more hazy proposition. That's the difference, really, between the ethnic association with a particular homeland and the state with its very cartographic, precise definitions. That's an important distinction.
- 1.35 A state is obviously a political unit. It has institutions of government like legislatures and heads of state. We have a very clear distinction then between a state, which is a political territorial unit, and ethnicity, which is a cultural and subjectively defined identity.
- 1.36 Nation, in some ways, borrows elements from the state and from the ethnic group. From the state, it's the political side, the territorial. From the ethnic group, it is the consciousness of history, of memory, and to some degree of ancestry, although that's not necessary for national identity. But the cultural side is stronger with ethnicity.
- 1.37 As we go through the course, what we'll find is there's this constant dialectic between the cultural and the political. The cultural, which is often, not always, but often more related to ethnicity, and the political, which is more related to the state and state imperatives, because the state has its own interests. The ethnic group has its own interests. These things are not always aligned.
- 1.38 Even today, for example, if we think of nations in the West, the state may think, "We need to have high immigration in order to pay pensions, in order to increase our power on the world stage." That may be the state imperative, the political imperative. The ethnic group may say, "No, that is actually going to weaken our congruence with our particular homeland, and therefore that's something we want to resist." Both of these forces are at work when it comes to the nation: state and ethnic group. In a way, the nation represents an uneasy overlap between elements of these two.
- 1.39 In terms of ethnic groups of nations, which is really the central focus of this course, there are two rough elements to bear in mind. One is an element that links ethnic groups back in time to their ancestors and forward in time to their progenitor. That's what we might call the core or the myth-symbol complex, the assemblage of myths and symbols.

- 1.40 So the ancient Greeks, the Byzantine Greeks, the modern Greek independence movement— these are all elements of the Greek myth symbol complex, which goes back in time and may fuse together elements which really were quite different. I mean, the Orthodox period, the Byzantine period, was about the Orthodox religion. The classical Greek period really was a secular pagan period.
- 1.41 Arguably, these things are very different, and there was not a shared continuity of identity. But actually, these things today, when Greeks look back with pride at those periods, they seamlessly fuse together into one gestalt, a myth symbol complex, tying a group back to its ancestors in time.
- 1.42 The other element is a more contemporary element, which is in day-to-day interactions today, how the groups tell each other apart. It's going to be symbols. It's going to be cultural markers. I mentioned language, religion, physical appearance. Equally, there could be symbolic markers. It may be, in Northern Ireland, for example, that the Protestant color is orange and the Catholic color is green.
- 1.43 The average Ulster Protestant or Northern Irish Catholic may not really necessarily understand why their color is green and the other team's color is orange. There are historical reasons for that. Even if the history behind why this marker became salient and important has been lost to many members, they know that those colors are their colors and the other colors are the other person's. So cultural markers and boundaries operating in the present.
- 1.44 There's a whole debate over how changeable these markers are. Could it be that in Northern Ireland in 100 years, no one will know that green was the Catholic color and orange was the Protestant color, and they'll be instead using other symbols to demarcate themselves? Possibly.
- 1.45 So there's the question of whether boundary markers can shift and change over time. But that's just to say the boundary marker is really about how groups delineate each other in space today, and the myth symbol complex is about how groups relate to each other and their ancestors in the past, the stories they tell about themselves, the narratives that they talk about of suffering, of heroism, of victory, and so forth.
- 1.46 What I want to wrap up with now, and we'll come back to this throughout the course, is this dialectic between the cultural and the political. The more ethnic, the more state-based. The more bottom-up, the more top-down. Those things are not all coterminous, but in fact, that's the way nationalism is talked about, theoretically, and also the kinds of forces that affect it in real life.
- 1.47 If we look at the history of any part of the world, like Europe, and we look at a map— let's say we go to the map of Europe in the year 530 AD, and we can see that there are entities called the Byzantine Empire, Visigothic Kingdom. Well, what's a Visigoth? Is the Visigoth a nation? Is it an ethnic group? Well, actually, it's a confederation of different tribes. Did they think of themselves as Visigoths? How much of an identity of Visigoth

was there at the time in Spain in the year 539? That is a question we could ask. Byzantine Empire—somebody living in present-day Turkey in the Byzantine Empire, to what extent did they think of themselves as Byzantine? What an identity was that? Political? National, was it?

- 1.48** When we're talking about ethnicity and national identity, we're talking very much about consciousness, subjective identity. That's very difficult necessarily to pull out of history because we didn't have anthropologists going around interviewing villages in sixth-century Europe about how they thought of themselves. Now, we do have chroniclers and elites who wrote about "we the Scots" and "we the French," so you did have chroniclers and elites who were writing about these units.
- 1.49** But when, for example, a group referred to "we the English," did they mean the English as a people? Do they just mean a particular empire or religion or kingdom? The debate here is really over when group consciousness emerges, what is the form of that group consciousness at different points in history?
- 1.50** By the time we get to, for example, let's take 1271 as an arbitrary time period, we have now an entity called Poland, an entity called France, an entity called Hungary, something that looks more contemporary. But we might ask, "To what extent the people in Poland in 1271 did they think of themselves as Polish? To what extent did they think of themselves as descending from common ancestors, having a common culture vis-a-vis other groups like Hungarians?"
- 1.51** These are all the kinds of debates that historians, sociologists, political scientists will have about the emergence of ethnicity and the emergence of nationhood and what forces are leading to the emergence of these entities, and also what forces are motivating behavior. Is it just a small group of elites who run France, who run Hungary, who run England, and they have their state concerns or their religious concerns?
- 1.52** Or is it, in fact, they're a populace that has a shared sense of identity, and that shared sense of identity includes some notion of politics and some notion that "we, English, are not French, and we must resist them if they invade us. We must resist their culture if it comes across," and "if the elites in Russia are all speaking French, that this is a tragedy and we must all speak Russian, not French." That's, again, a question of consciousness and of nationalism.
- 1.53** As we go through the course, we again want to keep thinking about that dialectic between politics and elites, on the one hand connected to the state, and ethnicity and culture to some degree connected to the demos or the wider population, on the other hand, and what is the relationship between this. We can see these forces even in the present day. The tension between elite and populace, between more political and more cultural or ethnic notions of what the nation is. It's playing out across the world in different ways. Thank you.

Lecture 2: Ethnic Identity

At a glance — Ethnic identity and how it forms and functions.

- 2.1 Welcome back, everybody. The way this first part of the course will operate is I'm going to try and toggle back and forth between more ethnic themes, more bottom-up cultural themes, and then more political top-down status themes.
- 2.2 We're going to start with ethnicity, and we're going to take a long historical perspective on the origin of ethnic groups. That may seem strange for some of you. A lot of people think of ethnicity as natural—I know what I am. I'm a Yoruba, I'm a Vietnamese, I'm an Englishman, and so forth. But actually, what I would like to try and explain here is, in fact, this is a historical process. The emergence of ethnic groups and identities is a process that occurred through history and has political elements to it as well.
- 2.3 Last time we talked about the definition of an ethnic group. These are communities based around subjective belief in common ancestry. They have a number of features, including particular cultural markers that differentiate one group from another, myths of common ancestry, shared historical memories, and so on. We also looked at the question of links in time through myths and symbols, and also differences across space in interactions based on cultural markers.
- 2.4 One of the questions then emerges: How did ethnic groups form? There's actually here another interplay between elite, experts, and travelers and administrators and rulers on the one hand, and actual peoples on the other who are interacting with these administrators and rulers. This is sometimes the way in which ethnic consciousness emerges.
- 2.5 There's a difference between culture and ethnicity. Culture is not ethnicity. For example, if we look at a map of pre-contact North America, we can see there are a number of different languages spoken: Algonquian, Iroquoian, Sioux, Athabaskan, and so on, Eskimo-Aleut, Mayan. These are areas, typically geographical areas, where these Indigenous languages were spoken. So that's about culture, and we can make a nice little map of the culture zones of North America.
- 2.6 But one of the questions we might ask is: Was there an Algonquian ethnic consciousness, an Iroquoian, a Sioux, a Salish ethnic consciousness? I think that the general agreement would be no, that in almost all cases, these are linguistic zones, but you did not have a common identity across the entire vast Athabaskan linguistic zone.
- 2.7 What you had were different bands and tribes that spoke related languages that can be grouped together by anthropologists and linguists into a large family. There certainly were cultural differences between the Athabaskan zone, the Iroquoian zone, and the Algonquian zone. But that does not make these language areas ethnic groups with their own consciousness.

- 2.8** There's the objective that we can see, which is the difference in language structure. We can see something culturally that doesn't mean there's the subjective identity. Culture is not identity, but there's a relationship between the two. How does that happen over time? Similarly, when we think about tribes that are related to those languages, it's also not a simple picture.
- 2.9** For example, if you take the Coast Salish—I'm from British Columbia; I'm from the Vancouver area. The native group that inhabited the Pacific Northwest, the West Coast, was called the Coast Salish. But that is a language group. It refers to a cultural or ethnographic designation. A professional linguist or ethnographer might draw a line and say, "Okay, this is where the people who speak the Salish languages live." That does not mean that there was a Coast Salish identity and ethnicity. It just means that you had a number of different groups that had their own smaller identities and bands and tribes that shared something culturally in common. They spoke related languages, so their languages would have been intelligible to each other.
- 2.10** But now, if we come to the late 19th century, going into the 20th century, we start to see the emergence of an Indian or First Nations or Inuit Eskimo consciousness. Well, how does that occur? How do we get to the consciousness of being an American Indian? That didn't exist at the time of Columbus, certainly. Even the more limited Coast Salish, Algonquian, Iroquoian—that didn't exist as a consciousness.
- 2.11** How did these culture zones in areas acquire a consciousness? In some cases, they never acquired a consciousness. But that is one of the questions we'll be wanting to ask. How do you aggregate up from small bands where everybody knows each other and it's 100 people, a few hundred people, how do you aggregate up into ethnic groups with millions of people or even billions, if we think of the Han Chinese? How do you actually get up to that scale?
- 2.12** Part of the storyline here is going to be about the scaling up of identity. So bands of 50 to 100 had an identity as being members of that particular, maybe the Sechelt, band on the West Coast. That was a band that had a consciousness. But the Coast Salish, this larger culture area, did not have an identity.
- 2.13** Actually, there are some who would say, "A face-to-face group is not what we mean when we talk about ethnicity." We have to talk about a group that can only imagine all the members of the group. If you are Vietnamese or Welsh or English, you're not going to know every English individual. This is an imagined community; it is not an actual face-to-face community. So, how we get to these imagined communities is one of the questions when we think about the origin of ethnic groups.
- 2.14** If we take the case of Africa, for example, what's interesting in Africa here is that you actually will get this layering of, you can be a Yoruba, and then within that, that sits within being a Southern Christian Nigerian, which sits within being a Nigerian, which

sits within being sub-Saharan African or Bantu. So you have these different layers of identity from the tribal, from the very small, up to something much larger.

- 2.15** One of the questions is: Which is the relevant layer for you? Is it relevant that you are a Scotch-Irish, Appalachian, Southern white Protestant, or that you are a Southerner, or that you are a white American? Or similarly, is it relevant that you are Irish American or white American? Which is the scale that is actually salient and politically relevant?
- 2.16** In Africa, if we take Nigeria, typically now, it's the case that the difference between the Christian south and the Muslim north is going to be politically relevant. But there are certainly cases within the Christian south where Igbo and Yoruba will be politically relevant groups. Even within that, you might have smaller groups like the Ijaw who occupy an area that has a lot of oil. Then you might have a movement based on one of these very low-level layers. This is why we have this onion-like nature of ethnicity in some places, such as Africa.
- 2.17** This, perhaps, is less obvious if you take a place like England. There are regional divisions between people from Cumbria and Yorkshire and Cornwall. We'll leave Cornwall out of it for a minute, but let's say the Southwest. But these are just regional differences; they aren't subethnic differences in the way that in Africa, you might actually get proper ethnic differences within Southern Christian, Nigerian. So this layering, an onion-like nature of ethnicity, is one aspect of ethnicity.
- 2.18** And there's a whole other element to this, which intersects with modernization as well. More modernized regions often don't have this same onion-like character to ethnicity because the modernization tends to break down tribal differences. People move around, and so those smaller-level groups disappear. And if you think about 6,000 languages in the world, most of them are disappearing. Many of them are disappearing.
- 2.19** Why are they disappearing? Well, because people move to the cities or they're educated in a national language, and they lose contact with their ancestral language. So there is this process of aggregation into larger groups. In Africa, African countries are getting less diverse every year because those small languages are dying and small groups are amalgamating into larger groups, possibly as they come into the cities and become assimilated into the dominant culture.
- 2.20** For example, in Senegal, Wolof is the dominant group. You have a lot of people who assimilate and become Wolof. In Kenya, the Kikuyu are the dominant group. You have Kikuyuization. That's the prestigious dominant group which people assimilate into. You're getting an aggregation going on of ethnicity. This process of assimilation can actually reduce diversity.
- 2.21** We can think of something similar happening in Europe. I've talked about language culture areas versus identities. If we look at the map of Europe, we can say, "There are language areas." There's the Germanic family of languages in Scandinavia, Germany, and the British Isles that are part of that. You have the Latin languages in Spain, France,

Italy, Romania, and then you have the Slavic languages, and then you have a set of other languages which are distinct, like the Finns and Hungarians.

2.22 Clearly, there is no one identity of being a Latin language speaker. The Latin language area, the Germanic language area, the Slavic language area did not become national or ethnic identities. Because there are also other divisions within Europe. There was a division between Orthodox, which is more in the East, Catholic, and Protestant. So you have this religious difference, and you have this linguistic difference. These are cultural. These are observable. Any scientist, anthropologist, linguist, or colonial administrator or ruler could travel around Europe and see where these differences were. But that does not mean that they form the basis necessarily of unified identities. So how do we get from culture to identity? How do we get from these externally observable cultural differentiae to subjective identity?

2.23 Now, that doesn't mean that these observable external cultural differentiae and markers like language, religion, physical appearance, it doesn't mean—if we just stick with language and religion for the moment—that doesn't mean that those external markers don't matter at all. They clearly do matter. Catholicism is important for French identity in a certain way, and Protestantism for British identity in a certain way, even though they don't matter the way they used to; there is still a marker there, and similarly with language and language family.

2.24 So, when it comes to ethnogenesis, the formation of ethnic groups in time, how does this occur? It occurs in two ways. One is a process I mentioned, integration: smaller units amalgamating into bigger units, going from those 50 to 500 small bands into millions of people, that scaling-up process. We see that happening in Africa right now through urbanization and through various forms of modernization, breaking down parochialisms of regions, of isolated villages, acquiring a common language, common culture. That breaking down creates the possibility for scaling up. People may come to realize, "Oh, actually, I'm Yoruba. I'm not just a member of this small, isolated group." People learn that they are part of tribes.

2.25 If you move to a city, for example, groups that speak languages that can understand each other tend to amalgamate into larger units—in Africa, I'm thinking of. This is part of the idea of forming a larger consciousness. When they go back to their home villages, they export that consciousness of being part of something larger. That is the beginning of the scaling-up process, of integration.

2.26 Then you sometimes get deliberate political movements that seek to tell people in the countryside, "You aren't just a member of this village; you are an Italian," or "You're not a Sicilian; you're an Italian." Sometimes there's deliberate political movements. Sometimes it happens perhaps more organically as people move around for work. So you get this spreading of consciousness.

- 2.27** How does subjective consciousness spread? It spreads as myths of origin and ancestry and history are disseminated within a population that changes their consciousness. That actually makes them into ethnics, if you like, as opposed to just members of this or that village. You get a certain standardization of language, and so then everybody isn't speaking mutually incomprehensible dialects, which was often the case in France and Italy, in places where there were very big differences of dialect as you went from place to place. There's a vestige of that now in terms of accent, but it used to be the case that the languages themselves were actually—the dialects were actually quite distinct, even if they were related.
- 2.28** I mentioned that there was this dialectic between the political and the cultural. Similarly, when we see the formation of ethnic groups and nations, they can occur in two ways. One is a more territorial and political process in which one tribe conquers another tribe, conquers another tribe, absorbs these people in. These people learn that they are part of a new entity.
- 2.29** So the Zulus conquering neighboring groups, assimilating them into the Zulus and into what it meant to be Zulu—that's a political territorial process, and that can become the basis for ethnicity. The Zulus today are descended from the Zulu Empire that Shaka formed in the early 19th century, and that was very much a territorial political principle based on conquest and assimilating many new peoples into a new identity.
- 2.30** Equally, however, you can get a more genealogical route in which you get a tribal confederation of Arabs, Scots, and Swiss into a larger entity based on shared kinship. You get a kinship tribe emerging as related groups band together, often to resist the threat from other empires or kinship groups. That scaling up can happen along lines of tribe, along lines of relatedness, lineages, clans and lineages coming together to form a larger entity, a more genealogical process, as opposed to, I mentioned the Zulus—that more political territorial process.
- 2.31** In terms of thinking about the origins of ethnic groups, we have contact between groups which awakened a consciousness. Especially if you're on the border, if you are on the border between Slavic speaking and Germanic speaking, between Latin languages and Germanic languages, you become aware that there's a difference there, and you start to acquire a consciousness at the borderlands.
- 2.32** Or, for example, Protestant, Catholic, Orthodox, Muslim, so on—if you're on a religious boundary, the boundary between Christendom and Islam, Armenia, for example, if you go into Central Asia, you'll find this boundary, or Spain, North Africa, that's another boundary between Islam and Christendom. That can be the spark that sets off a process of identity formation. So contact between groups and also elites, communicating consciousness, myths down the social scale, out to the provinces—that's another way in which ethnogenesis occurs.

- 2.33** The codification of myths and culture. Perhaps if an elite starts to write down, "This is our ancestry, this is who we're descended from," it could be a complete myth, could have nothing to do with reality, but if it then becomes, "This is the chronicle of the Polish people, of the Estonian people, and so on," then that can help to root an identity.
- 2.34** You have these processes of integration and differentiation, which I'll talk about. Smaller groups fusing together, smaller villages, tribes, amalgamating into tribal confederations into larger units, which go from being face-to-face communities to imagined, virtual—not virtual, imagined communities where you don't know everybody who is a member of your group. Then we're into the realm of ethnic identity and out of the realm of tribe.
- 2.35** But then sometimes you can get fission, not just amalgamation, but sometimes breaking away. You have the Angles, the Saxons, and the Jutes coming from present-day Denmark and Germany to what is present-day England—that was a breakaway from the Germanic stock. Similarly, the Dutch are a breakaway from the Germanic stock. Actually, a fission, a breakaway. The Afrikaners are a breakaway from the Dutch. The Anglo-Americans are a breakaway from the English. They form a new group: Anglo-American or Dutch are a new group from the Germanic stock. And likewise, the Anglo-Saxons are both a breakaway from the Germanic and Scandinavian, but they're also a fusion of Anglo-Saxon, Jute and then later elements coming together in a mix. So there's breaking away and mixing, helping to create new groups.
- 2.36** This then gets us to the question of, let's look at history and the rise of ethnic groups. In fact, when we think about nations and nationalism—the Poles, for example. The Poles do not date the origin of Poland to the founding of the modern Polish state. The Germans do not date the origin of the founding of Germany necessarily to 1871, the founding of the modern German nation; they would go back much further. That is, there's a sense in which it's the founding of the German ethnic group that matters or the Polish ethnic group that matters, not just the founding of the modern German state or modern Polish state.
- 2.37** According to one school of thought, and we're going to be talking about a debate between competing intellectual schools of thought, one of which says that actually, ethnicity is more deeply rooted. It goes back further in time, and it has more to do with culture and memory. And then you have another school that says that, actually, ethnicity is changing all the time, it is very much at the whim of political elites, and it is more modern in origin.
- 2.38** The school that says things are more deeply rooted is called the ethnosymbolist school, associated with writers like Anthony Smith, who was my doctoral supervisor, John Armstrong, Adrian Hastings, a number of writers who would argue, in fact, that ethnicity is deeply rooted in human history. It's not just a creation of the modern period and modern political elites.

- 2.39** Smith outlines two main forms of premodern ethnic groups. In making the case against the modernists who would say, "No, ethnicity is something that's more created by the modern state," Smith would say, "No, we can see two types of premodern ethnic group," one of which is labeled demotic, which is more popular, bottom-up as a process, and the second type, which is more aristocratic, starts with a political elite and is disseminated into a population. In terms of lateral aristocratic, two examples might be the Turks, where you have the Ottoman elite disseminating its myth of origin into a wider strata of the population, or the English, perhaps, as another example, particularly after the Norman Conquest.
- 2.40** I should say something, too, which is that we can even today see the legacy of the founding date of ethnic groups. That is, when do we see in history the first mention of a group referring to itself with its proper name? The Greeks and the Jews would be the oldest groups. If we take written records of groups referring to themselves—and that's the ballpark in this particular study that I conducted quite a few years ago—you have the ancient Greeks that referred to Hellas and ancient Israel. But other older groups include the Chinese, the Han Chinese, the Georgians, the Javanese in Indonesia, the Persians of Iran. These would all date from prior to the birth of Christ.
- 2.41** You then have a number of groups that were formed in the early, what we might call the Dark Ages or the medieval period: Armenians, French, Arabs, and so on, Japanese. In a lot of these groups that are formed in this early period, the countries that they currently inhabit are relatively ethnically homogenous, or they are more homogenous.
- 2.42** So Japan or Greece or China is more homogenous than places where the largest ethnic group in a country formed more recently, the extreme example being Papua New Guinea or Cameroon, or South Africa as well, where the Xhosa and the Zulu are relatively recent arrivals on the historical scene. So there is a connection between the age of the largest ethnic group in a country and the diversity of a particular group. This also shows, however, that ethnic groups have been forming continuously—if you take the ethnosymbolist argument—have been forming throughout history, but very few groups survive from the period before Christ. There are very few Chinas and Greeces and Jews and Persians.
- 2.43** I talked about two types of premodern ethnic groups, one being the lateral aristocratic, where you have a political elite in an empire or a kingdom that has a consciousness of its ancestry that creates a history and begins to perhaps disseminate that history to a wider strata. Again, that's a big debate, and there's a debate between those who say they didn't disseminate it to a wider strata because they didn't need the population. They just kept it elite and within an elite. That's the aristocratic type.
- 2.44** We also have more demotic or vertical types of ethnic groups, and these include a number of different entities. So tribal confederation, amalgamating smaller clans and lineages into something larger. The tribal confederation is a root to the formation of ethnicity. Some examples we might think of: the Kurds, the Arabs, the Irish, the Zulu,

where you're amalgamating into a larger confederation. That is one route to the formation of ethnicity in the premodern era.

- 2.45** Sometimes this happens through warfare as well. The warrior bands that sacked ancient Rome, the Visigoths, for example, and the Huns and the Vandals were amalgamations of tens of thousands of individuals. The Mongols, amalgamations of tens of thousands of individuals. This is now getting up beyond the scale of the 50 to 500 scale, up into the tens of thousands. You cannot know everybody who is in the Visigoths. So that is an example of the emergence of ethnicity going back well before the modern period.
- 2.46** Other examples which Anthony Smith cites include frontier ethnies, so where you have a frontier between Christendom and Islam, let's say. The Spanish would be an example, the Armenians, an example, the Berbers— examples of groups that were on that frontier that formed an identity. That's one example. You often see in some of these frontier zones, like the present-day Levant, which is Syria, Lebanon, present-day Israel—this is an area where you see lots of different ethnic groups and groups that have formed over time. Why? Because there were trade routes.
- 2.47** Another is the Silk Road. Afghanistan was on the trade route from the east to the west. Prior to the voyages of discovery of the European powers, the Silk Road was very important. Afghanistan is a place also where we see lots of different ethnic groups. So, groups that were on the frontier or on trade routes, you would see ethnic groups forming in the premodern period.
- 2.48** We can go back to the ancient world as well and talk about an identity existing that is larger than the city-state. If you think of Greece and Persia as the ancient world, yes, people were primarily Spartan and Athenian, but they also recognized that they were part of something called Hellas, which is, broadly speaking, they were part of the Greek world. So they had a Greek identity. Even if their primary identity was the city-state one, which was subethnic, they did have the ethnic identity, and they recognized the difference between Hellas and what they call Barbaroi or ethnos. The term ethnic or ethnos comes from ancient Greece and refers to, essentially, a barbarian, somebody from outside.
- 2.49** One of the things we'll see is that the names given by dominant civilizations to outsiders are often taken up by those outsiders, who then called—there's a relationship between a name like Viet for Vietnamese. Viet was outside the Chinese Empire, and then it became a name taken on by the Vietnamese. Welsh, Vlach— you can see actually a relationship between these words Viet, Vlach, Welsh, referring to something that is outside a dominant civilization, but that name then becomes taken up by the group itself. That is common.
- 2.50** Diasporas—this is another example of where Smith would argue, "No, we did see examples of ethnicity in the premodern period. These trading diasporas, Lebanese

traders, the Jews, the Armenians, Parsis, who originate as a Zoroastrian Persian group, but then move to India and form a diaspora. They still exist today, although they are declining because of low birth rates, actually. You have a number of these different diaspora ethnic groups.

- 2.51 You also have religious sects. You can have something that starts out as a religion, like the Druze, who've been in the news recently in present-day Syria. So the Druze are an example, or the Copts of Egypt. The Druze start off as a religious breakaway, but then they no longer accept converts, and you can only be Druze by being born into it. And then it becomes an ethnic group because they're then related.
- 2.52 And then there are groups like the Mormons, who, on the one hand, are proselytizing and taking new members, but on the other hand, there's a core Mormon group who are descendant from largely Anglo-Americans who moved to Utah. So there is an ethnic dimension to Mormonism as well as a religious dimension. They're in this zone.
- 2.53 Then you have some groups that, particularly in that area of Syria, are religious sects, Aramaic-speaking Christian groups that then sometimes turn into ethnic groups. If they're no longer accepting converts, they become related to each other or develop a myth of being related to each other, then they become an ethnic group.
- 2.54 So that line between being a religious sect that still defines itself on the basis of religious doctrine, accepts new converts—that's a religious sect. Once it becomes closed, doesn't accept converts, starts to become related to each other, starts to develop a consciousness of common ancestry, then it's now an ethnic group. The Sikhs are another example of that, who began as a breakaway, but then became a closed ethnic group. So these are all ways in which we can see the emergence of ethnicity in the premodern period.
- 2.55 If we then look at the post-colonial world and look at: How did ethnicity form in sub-Saharan Africa, in Southeast Asia? In some cases, say in Africa, you already had well-developed precolonial kingdoms: the Ashanti, the Zulus, the Thais in Southeast Asia. They already had a consciousness that could form the basis of ethnicity. They had a distinct, larger zone. They weren't just a small village or a small tribe. They actually attained a certain scale of civilization and symbols, myths, memories, which could form the basis of ethnicity.
- 2.56 But in other cases, such as the Yoruba, really there was no identity there called Yoruba before the colonizing powers arrived. It really was about missionaries and travelers who would say, "Aha, this is where people who speak these related languages live. We'll draw that line on a map." Actually, in the process of colonial administration, and also missionaries who would go to these areas and say, "You guys, you're all Yoruba, and we're going to translate the Bible into Yoruba, and this is the standard language called Yoruba—"

- 2.57** Of course, these members of these different groups would never have seen a standardized dictionary, a standardized language of Yoruba. But once that then was created, it then helped to create this Yoruba consciousness. This is where modernist theories of nationalism would say that actually, there was a lot of invention and scope to create new identities, and that the colonial administrators and missionaries and anthropologists really were the ones who invented these identities by traveling around and noticing certain cultural commonalities between linguistic groups. But actually, it may have started out as the observations of a traveler or a missionary, but it then becomes taken up by the people themselves, and they develop a consciousness of being Yoruba, for example.
- 2.58** So in some cases, these are relatively new ethnic groups that are formed because in certain societies that are more tribal, where you haven't had a lot of modernization, there aren't many roads, there isn't literacy, there isn't newspapers, and therefore there's no basis for creating a wider consciousness.
- 2.59** There wasn't, let's say, an empire. An empire is one way you could create that wider consciousness. But without those kingdoms and empires to aggregate into larger units, just people living in villages, that's going to take another process. One process might be colonial administration or missionary activity or anthropological observation. It could be the beginning of this scaling up of consciousness.
- 2.60** We also, by the way, see labor movement. The Zambian Copper Belt, where you had people coming in from many different parts of Zambia, coming into the Copper Belt. That is where you then get people who speak related languages, banding together, forming a larger consciousness, exporting that back to their villages. That's another process of the scaling up or ethnogenesis.
- 2.61** You also sometimes get deliberate political movements or romantic anticolonial movements where elites really make an effort to try and perpetuate or disseminate a consciousness to a population. There's room here for both organic processes of migration for labor to cities, which is one way in which you get this aggregation of identity, or on the other hand, of deliberate, call it, nationalist or at least identitarian movements from romantic intellectuals who have been typically—who have received a Western education or learned from missionaries and are now applying that knowledge in a deliberate identity movement.
- 2.62** What is the motivation behind wanting to create Yoruba or identity? Is that a power grab? That would be one interpretation. The modernist, more instrumentalist interpretation was that these Western-educated natives wanted power, wanted to create a political unit that they could control. That's more cynical—well, not necessarily cynical, but it is more an interpretation that is based on the desire for wealth, power, and prestige amongst small numbers of elite intellectuals.

- 2.63 Another interpretation is that no, actually, these identities made sense in a way because you did have these dialects which were related in some ways, and these intellectuals observed that they were related. So there's a cultural commonality that underpinned the emergence of this ethnicity. So it made sense in some way to aggregate groups into a particular unit, Hausa or Yoruba or so on.
- 2.64 If we think of the British Isles, we'll take the case of the British Isles to see how all of these premodern processes work. Again, this is from the perspective of the ethnosymbolist school, which I'll talk about more in the next lecture, as opposed to the modernist school. The ethnosymbolist school places more emphasis on history and culture, perhaps less emphasis on the deliberate actions of power-seeking or wealth-seeking elites. The ethnosymbolist school, which would say ethnic identity, could form in the premodern period.
- 2.65 We look at Britain, for example—and I'll move very quickly through this. If you talk about Celtic Britain, these were small-scale tribal bands. Britain only had maybe 50,000 people. It was really a small population. Or maybe it was somewhat larger than that, but it wasn't the densely populated place it is today. You had these isolated small-scale communities that didn't think of themselves as, certainly, as Celtic Britons.
- 2.66 Now, Rome comes in, the Romans invade the British Isles. They bring Christianity. They start to draw maps and organize the natives into tribes and tribal regions. They designate provinces and towns. If you look at a map of Britain in the fifth century, prior to the Anglo-Saxon conquest, you have a number of different regions, undoubtedly speaking different dialects of Brittonic Celtic languages. But no one would suggest that there was an identity of being British in the fifth century.
- 2.67 Now you have the invasion by the Anglo-Saxons in the fifth century. But even then, you have the creation of separate kingdoms. I mean, the Angles and the Saxons and the Jutes, these are separate groups that are, to some degree, fusing together. King Egbert then brings all of England under his rule at one point. So you have a certain degree of fusion, first of all, Angles, Saxons, and Jutes, but also certain Celts that are being absorbed through intermarriage or through cultural assimilation into this emerging English—well, should we call it ethnicity or should we just call it a small elite that thinks of itself as ruling all of England? This is a question mark. How much of an English consciousness was there in the fifth century?
- 2.68 One could argue that the process of integration is starting to occur, the process of amalgamation, from smaller units into larger units, as this English kingdom is emerging, this Anglo-Saxon kingdom in the seventh century. Perhaps we're seeing the expansion of that territory of Mercia and the emergence of an English identity. By the time we get to King Alfred, the Great of Wessex—this is a king that is trying to unite England against the invading Scandinavians—and that idea of people's meetings, so the English and the Scandinavians, invasion and contact with other groups is also a spur to ethnogenesis.

- 2.69** To what extent was there an English identity in the ninth century of King Alfred? Or, according to the modernist, is this a retrospective reconstruction of how people thought by 18th and 19th century romantic intellectuals in England who were trying to project their identity backward into the past when people back then didn't think of themselves as English the way people in the 18th and 19th century did? That's the debate. Is it invention or is it continuity? Was there ethnicity in early medieval Britain?
- 2.70** Well, those who say yes would say, "Look at the Venerable Bede writing in the eighth century already, referring to Anglia, which is the same as England. So clearly Bede had a consciousness of Anglia and its peoples. Now, is that just a small elite describing peoples who have no sense of who they are, only a sense of being members of this or that village? Or was there actually some wider English consciousness? The term Cymry, referring to Wales, was also coined and used already by the eighth century. The Scots were resisting the Norse, resisting the Anglo-Saxons, Scottish kings—does that mean there was evidence of a Scottish identity forming in the early medieval period? So that's a question that we could ask.
- 2.71** One possibility is, in fact, that maybe a very tiny elite of people who could read and write, and perhaps the rulers had the identity, but nobody else did. If it is only, again, a small number of people, is that enough for us to call—because you had chroniclers who talked about the Scoti and the line of the Scottish kings, descended from Ireland and had created that chronicle, is that enough to say that the Scots had a myth of origin, therefore we can talk about the Scots as an ethnic group already in the medieval period? Or is that just a particular royal house tracing its ancestry, which has very little to do with the Scottish population as a whole?
- 2.72** If we think about the British Isles, then we have a number of processes of ethnogenesis. We have a fission process, and you have this wider Gaelic, Celtic-speaking world from which there are the Welsh, the Cornish, the Manx on the Isle of Man. These are separate breakaways from that parent stock. The Scots, arguably, are a breakaway from the Gaeles of Ireland. This was the Scoti who'd migrated from Ireland, and this was the origin of the Scottish dynasty, the Anglo-Saxons from the greater Germanic world. Those are processes of migration, which is really a process of breaking away.
- 2.73** But equally, we have processes of amalgamation and fusion. Again, I mentioned the Angles, the Saxons, the Jutes, and then later the Normans, intermarrying together, assimilating into this common culture. The Scots, again, assimilated the early Picts; the Gaelic-speaking Scots, the more Welsh Brittonic-speaking Wests of Scotland peoples, all the Anglo-Saxons mixed together in Scotland. And that, too, is a fusion.
- 2.74** So we have that process of breaking away, that process of assimilation of fusion, and then this process of contact between the English and the Scots and their contact, making them realize how they're different, or the Welsh and the English, making them realize how they are different.

- 2.75** In terms of Smith's schema of premodern ethnic groups, what varieties of ethnic group do we see in the British Isles? We see tribal confederation, for example, the Irish and the Welsh, for example, emerging as confederations of smaller groups into larger groups, sometimes to resist invasions from, say, the English, the Scandinavians, the Danes.
- 2.76** We also have more lateral aristocratic elite-led processes rather than those more demotic bottom-up tribal confederation processes. It's not to say tribal confederation didn't involve elites; it did. So these aren't perfectly neat distinctions. Often you can have multiple processes occurring. But the lateral aristocratic tends to be more linked to dynastic elites who are literate, who then make some deliberate attempt to spread their identity into a wider strata of the native population. Maybe because they want to tax a population, or they want them as soldiers in war— that could be the motivation to try and convince the people to be patriots of a particular kingdom or society.
- 2.77** There are also diasporas in the British Isles, the Scotch-Irish who moved from Scotland to Northern Ireland in the main, the Eastern part of Northern Ireland, present day County Antrim in particular, and then later moved to the backcountry of The Southern United States, Kentucky, Tennessee, Pennsylvania. So the Scotch-Irish would be an example of a group of Scots who became a diaspora in Ireland, were changed somewhat by that context, and then migrated in the late 17th century to the United States. That's one example. The Anglo-Irish would be another diaspora who come from England, settle in what is now the Republic of Ireland, form an elite there, but gradually become assimilated into being Irish, basically.
- 2.78** These are varieties of premodern ethnic group that one could argue had already taken form in the British Isles. But others, modernist scholars, would say, "Those actually weren't examples of ethnicity because the ethnic consciousness did not really exist. Or if it existed, it only existed in the minds of a few romantic dreamers and didn't animate whole populations, didn't motivate people into politics."
- 2.79** Going through different periods, for example, in the medieval period, we can see that feudalism and the establishment of kingdoms, rather than just tribal chieftaincies, the establishment of these kingdoms actually helps to aggregate people into larger units.
- 2.80** So Llewellyn the Great in Wales and his state set up on feudal lines in the mid-13th century with a consciousness of being Welsh as distinct from English or Scottish. Malcolm III in the Scottish Kingdom in 1057, the feudal state emerging in the 12th century. And of course, Norman England, the Domesday Book, the Shire system, Shire courts, all of these, and eventually the translation of the Bible into English. These are all ways in which we're getting the emergence of a unified consciousness because it's that identity and the subjective consciousness that we're really interested in. When does that form? How does that spread?

- 2.81** Coming now then to the theoretical debate. This is typically a debate that historians engage in. But what we'll see is that, in fact, this question of when—when did the ethnic group form, when did the nation form—is actually relevant also for the present day. Because the when question is very much tied to the why question.
- 2.82** If you are of the belief that no ethnicity is newly created by power seeking elites or by wealth-seeking bourgeoisian intellectuals, then you're of the view that the state, power, and instrumental wealth-seeking and self-interest is what drives the creation of these identities. Whereas if you're of the view that no, these identities are more deeply rooted, they're not as easily manipulated or invented or changed, then you are going to believe that actually myth's memories, effective attachments to symbols, matter for people over time, and you're more likely to be an ethnosymbolist.
- 2.83** So the ethnosymbolist argument is that if we take the British Isles, we do see evidence of ethnicity in the Middle Ages. We have separate linguistic cultures in England, Wales, and Scotland. We have named populations that refer to each other and to themselves. Welsh talking about themselves as being Welsh, English talking about themselves as being England, Scotland the same. So groups that were speaking about themselves. That was recorded in historical chronicles, and we can see that in different relics.
- 2.84** So there was in elite writings evidence of ethnicity in the Middle Ages. You had battles fought between the Scots and the English Kingdoms. You had myths of origin. I mentioned the myth of the Scottish going back to migration from Ireland. A sense of communal consciousness, at least in those elite writings, that's all we have. We don't have social surveys. We don't have anthropology, where we can get a sense of what the average person thought. We have to infer that. Nobody knows.
- 2.85** Modernists will say, "No, people were in their villages. They had no consciousness of being English or Welsh or whatnot. That was just a few elites imagining things sitting around a table." That is the modernist interpretation. The ethnosymbolist interpretation would be, "No, actually, there was a very real consciousness, even if it hadn't spread fully throughout the entire population. So it does make sense to talk about ethnicity in the Middle Ages."
- 2.86** An ethnosymbolist would also point perhaps to folk tales, for example, or evidence from monasteries that was opened up only in the 18th and 19th centuries, that would say, "No, you did have folk tales that preserved a memory of events." Because one of the debates is really whether people had a sense of history. Because that idea of a myth of common ancestry, a sense of history and heroism, that's part of what ethnicity is.
- 2.87** One of the arguments of modernists is that people in the premodern period did not have historical memory. They did not have a memory of events because they weren't literate, they didn't learn history, they didn't have this sense of themselves in a particular place connected to others in a large, wide area going back in time. Whereas

the ethnosymbolist would say, "No, there were these widely circulated folk tales around figures like King Arthur, William Wallace, et cetera."

- 2.88** However, the modernist would contest that ethnosymbolist interpretation that there was ethnicity in Britain in the premodern period, that is, prior to 1789, which is usually the date for the French Revolution, which is often cited as the beginning of the modern period. The modernist would say that we didn't really see an English consciousness emerging in England until the late 1700s or in Wales until the early 1800s with the Welsh revival movement. These were intellectuals that were deliberately seeking to construct and create an identity, so they used materials like folk tales, and they constructed this imagined past for people and disseminated that, but that wasn't actually already an existing identity. So this was created in the modern post-1789 era.
- 2.89** Claiming ancient lineage, harking back to ancient and medieval events, but actually, there's no organic connection between the way people thought about themselves in Robert the Bruce's Scotland and in the Scotland of the early 1800s. There was no common continuous consciousness; there was just a retrospective created consciousness by intellectuals. That is the modernist argument. The idea is that ethnicity and nationhood are only creations of the modern period, and they're often created by people with a political agenda who are seeking to create this consciousness, or sometimes an economic agenda.
- 2.90** The question of ethnicity in the British Isles, but elsewhere, is one of revival or invention. Is ethnicity invented, constantly changing, subject to the whims of political elites? Were romantic intellectuals reviving a sense of Welshness? So the Welsh Eisteddfodau—I don't know if I pronounced that right, but this notion of creating a Welsh past, linking it to the bards, was this simply an exercise in Welsh nationalism, or was there, in fact, an organic link to previous practices and consciousness in Wales?
- 2.91** Was this the invention of new traditions? Was this the invention of tradition—to quote Eric Hobsbawm and Terence Ranger—or was this actually a revival of pre-existing traditions? Was there a premodern Welsh, Scottish, and English consciousness? Maybe it attenuated somewhat, and it was revised, or was there something that was created out of whole cloth? To what extent were people down the social scale aware of this identity, or was it just a small number of elites? These are some of the questions that, particularly, historians of nationalism ask. With that, I will end. Thank you.
- 2.92** Does anyone have a question on the history and the origins of ethnic groups in the world? There's a lot there, I admit, but happy to take your questions.
- 2.93** Do you think the internet will have an impact on this in the future, on ethnic groups and how people identify?
- 2.94** That gets into the question of globalization and what it means for ethnic groups and nations. One view is that globalization is going to lead to homogenization. Another view, which I think increasingly is better supported by research, is that globalization—

because it leads to contact and awareness—sharpens identity, sharpens nationalism, allows people within a diaspora to share images, news, and therefore leads to ethnic identity being more viable.

- 2.95** If I were to say, I think globalization and the internet probably strengthen ethnicity and nationalism more than weaken it. That is broadly where I am. I think it's not to say that in some cases, the internet could have a homogenizing effect. This is a big debate in general: How much contact and industrialization, people moving to cities, how much does this lead to a sharpening of identity? How much does it lead to an erosion of identity? The truth is, it's both.
- 2.96** Perhaps if we could draw a generalization, it would be that cultural differences may erode, but identity differences tend to sharpen. As the Welsh and the Irish and other groups were losing their cultural distinctiveness from the English, the Welsh national identity, the Irish national identity movements, became stronger. Maybe with globalization, there is a certain amount of cultural homogenization, but that then makes people—to some degree, can lead to sharper identity movements. Identity is not culture.
- 2.97** That's one of the themes here. Cultures can be growing more similar, while identities can be growing apart and sharper. I think that's probably the process I would expect with globalization.
- 2.98** We learned a lot today about ethnic groups. I'm interested in what are the oldest ethnic groups, if we look back, and what makes them so old. What is the trick to surviving? Is it staying the same or adapting? What is your point on that?
- 2.99** To some degree, if you take the ethnosymbolist view, you would say that even the oldest civilizations like Sumer would have had a consciousness, at least amongst the elite. Once you have written records, you then have history, and therefore you can transmit that history down the generations. For an ethnosymbolist, it's the emergence of written records and civilizations. That would be the oldest ethnic group; who knows, it might be Sumerian.
- 2.100** The oldest surviving ethnic group, again, a debate, but assuming, if we take the ethnosymbolist position, we might say that the Jews, the Greeks, the Persians, these would be the oldest. The Chinese, perhaps, but probably the Persians would be older. These would be the oldest ethnic groups. What's the trick to survival?
- 2.101** Well, going to the work of Smith's *Ethnic Origins of Nations*, he would suggest that it's very important that you have a group of intellectuals. So you may be in power, you may have a Jewish kingdom, you may be invaded by the Romans and dispersed. If you have a group of religious intellectuals who can reproduce the identity regardless of whether you have power or you are just one group within an empire or you're under somebody's thumb. Now, it helps to have a separate religion. But as long as the form of

the culture, and particularly the religion, can be maintained over time, that helps you to survive.

- 2.102** Of course, very few of the ancient groups survive. You look at the groups that didn't survive: Hyksos, the Assyrians—despite a group that does call itself Assyrian today, but that is very, very arguably not a continuity with the ancient Assyrians. So Smith would say that the ancient Assyrians, their culture was not that distinct from others around them. The religion was not that distinct from others around them. All they really had was the kingdom and the power that went with that kingdom. When the kingdom fell and it was sacked, there wasn't much in the way of an elite with a distinct culture, with a distinct identity that could maintain those cultural forms and maintain that identity under occupation.
- 2.103** Now, there's a whole different—again, we're talking about the ancient world, where you had very little literacy, and you didn't have photography and statues. You did have statues, but you didn't necessarily have a lot of the technology that would allow groups to survive. So I think for Smith, his argument was you need to have that distinct culture and that literate class that was really vested in the identity for it to continue.
- 2.104** You spoke about smaller groups being assimilated through contacts and scaling up. Is scaling up always good? Is it crucial to the success of the society, or is it possible to be fractured and still be successful?
- 2.105** I think if we're thinking about the development and advance of civilization, increasing sophistication, specialization, then scale is important, and scale is also important for power. So, especially back in the medieval period or the ancient period, size matters. If you were able to bring more people to the battlefield, you probably won.
- 2.106** So, how do you get size and scale in a society? I think that's quite important. If you tried to have a tribal confederation, but it broke apart due to squabbling, then that probably made you easy prey for somebody else who managed to get it together. There is this evolutionary process through which the groups that did manage to hit upon whatever it was—a common religion, an inspiring message that could unite the tribes into what eventually becomes a kingdom— then would be more successful in this dog-eat-dog world, which was a Hobbesian war of all against all, a state of nature where these groups were fighting against each other and the bigger ones were surviving.
- 2.107** Out of that evolutionary process, generally speaking, we don't find in the world today, tribes of 50 to 500 people that have survived against modernization. They are all absorbed into some political unit. I guess the short answer is scale matters.
- 2.108** We learned it's important for an ethnic group to have intellectuals and to be bound together by a religion. What does it mean nowadays, where we have globalization, the intellectuals may be leaving the country, migrating somewhere else as experts, and people being atheists and so on? What does it have for an impact for the ethnic groups?

- 2.109** If we talk about the modern period, I've been talking a lot about ancient and medieval. In the modern period, identity—the question is: What carries identity? Now, in the ancient world, the medieval world, the literate people were the religious figures. They were the ones, therefore, who were crucial to the propagation of identity.
- 2.110** Nowadays, everybody's literate, or most people are anyway. So you could imagine that groups of intellectuals, even online, could do the cultural work of preserving an identity. It doesn't require necessarily religion. You could have secular processes that could reproduce that identity, especially if people were very invested in it. So I don't think that having a separate religion is a sine qua non of preserving identity anymore.
- 2.111** You have to have some cultural marker. I mean, recall the definition of ethnicity is partly involved. You have to know how you're different from somebody else. Now, it may be a very superficial difference between Scots and English— same language, basically. The accent is different. That's probably the only way you can tell. Surnames, perhaps, if we're talking about ethnic Scots. Perhaps more Presbyterian, less Anglican, but none of these things are hard and fast. So it has to be intellectuals.
- 2.112** I think intellectuals and elites are key to the propagation of ethnicity. It's difficult to say that you can go entirely without an elite which has the consciousness, which is developing the narrative, the myths, and codifying symbols, propagating symbols. What we'll see when it comes to nationalism is that there's a lot of effort with cultural nationalism to awaken consciousness, to propagate symbols, to make sure that collective memories don't die out.

Lecture 3: Origins of Nations

At a glance — The origins of nations and the main theories of their emergence.

- 3.1 Welcome, everybody. In this lecture, we're going to be trying to lay down some conceptual foundations, the key theories you need to understand in order to make sense of the motivations and also the appearance of nations and ethnic groups.
- 3.2 Theories of nationalism and ethnicity—I think they are very strongly related to each other. What are we talking about when we're talking about theories of nationalism? There are two key questions. One is: When did nations emerge historically? That's a question historians are very interested in. When does ethnic consciousness, when does national consciousness appear?
- 3.3 Then a second question, which perhaps political scientists and sociologists and other social scientists are interested in—why. What is the motivation for ethnic groups to exist and nations? What's the motivation behind nationalism? If we think about developments in the West, is the rise of national populism, for example, is that because you have elites that are manipulating people and brainwashing people and stoking things up? Is it elite-led? Or do people have a set of attachments which have been passed down through generations, and that is the way they look at the world? They have attachments, and they are responding organically as a public to events or to processes like immigration. More bottom-up. So, motivation and also the historical appearance of ethnic groups or nations.
- 3.4 If we think about competing theories, one of the questions that theorists divide on is the question of motivation and the question of historical appearance. When did ethnic groups or nations emerge in world history? One strand involves what I might call instrumentalist or modernist. Those aren't exactly the same thing. We could get into the distinctions. But basically, there's a view that says that it's really elites that matter in human history, and particularly elites as motivated by the acquisition of wealth, power, and prestige. That is really the driver of human history.
- 3.5 It's the driver then for the emergence of nations and ethnic groups because in world history, there were times when, in fact, the main unit of politics was not the nation-state. The United Nations, with its almost 200 nation-states with a nice seat at the table and a line on the map, that wasn't really the way politics was organized. You had empires and city-states, or you had smaller tribes. That was really the way politics was. But we moved to a world of nation-states. Why?
- 3.6 Well, it has to do with elites and the ruling class, along with various modernizing processes like the rise of industrial capitalism or the rise of bureaucratization. So this is elite competition, which is the source of the formation of groups. Maybe within the Austro-Hungarian Empire or within an empire, elites in the provinces felt second fiddle to elites at the center, and so they, for political reasons, decided to be a big fish in a

small pond by breaking away from the empire. They were motivated by having their own fief that they could control, where they could be number one in power and extract the wealth if there were resources of various kinds, whether those be salt, diamonds, or precious metals or whatever.

- 3.7 The origin of ethnic groups, according to this instrumentalist or modernist worldview, is very much after we get the rise of modern processes like industrial capitalism, bureaucratization, literacy, and modern communications. That is after the French Revolution of 1789, when we start to see the emergence of these imagined communities where people imagine the members of their shared ethnic group, which can number in the millions.
- 3.8 It's not people they know face-to-face. You're shifting from the face-to-face type of social organization to the imagined type of social organization, which gets you to the ethnic group and nation. That can only happen in a modern context. That is the instrumentalist and modernist worldview.
- 3.9 Against that, we have a smaller school, the ethnosymbolist school, which puts more emphasis on culture as a motivating force in human history. It is not all about power-seeking elites. It is also about people seeking meaning and belonging, and those are more cultural motives. It's not simply about elites, the ruling class, the bourgeois, but also about romantic intellectuals, perhaps religious leaders who are motivated by culture, by attachment to myths, memories, stories, and creeds. That's the difference with the ethnosymbolist school.
- 3.10 They also think that this is not just a story about shifts in the mode of production economically or shifts in how politics is organized or shifts in military technology, but also changes in ideas. Ideas really matter. Culture and history are, to some degree, reproducing themselves over time. Attachments to particular myths and symbols are passed down and propagated, sometimes through families, but also through religious institutions, sometimes through patriotic societies, cultural associations. These meaning systems matter. They are propagated over time.
- 3.11 So there's a path-dependent cultural historical force, what Émile Durkheim, the sociologist, would call a social fact moving through time. That means that ethnic groups, once they arise, have a certain fixity to them. You cannot easily manipulate. You cannot easily go to England and tell everyone they're French. Even if you controlled the state, the education system, it wouldn't be that easy to suddenly make people in Britain think of themselves as French. You can't manipulate and invent identity that easily because there are existing understandings in the population that you have to work with.
- 3.12 What this means, this view of the world would argue that, in fact, we've had ethnicity ever since we've had written records and civilization, the growth of cities after 6000 BC, for example. Once you have literacy, you can then have history, you can then have

memory, you can then have consciousness, you can have symbols which matter to people.

- 3.13 The key strata, whereas in the modernist instrumentalist argument, it is the ruling elites, the capitalist elites, who are the key actors, in the ethnosymbolist story, it's romantic scholar intellectuals who are spiritually, almost, attached to their group, to their cause, and seek to raise consciousness. They manage to strike an accord with elements of the public or large elements of the public who are also similarly motivated by these psychological attachments.
- 3.14 And so popular sentiment matters more, whereas for the instrumentalist argument, it's really what the elites think. And in some ways, this is a more blank slate, quote, unquote view where there's a lot of capacity. If the elites want to do something, if they want to invent, they want to tell the Japanese they're Chinese, if they put the resources behind it, if they control the state apparatus, then they're going to be able to do that.
- 3.15 We then have a third school, which is perhaps even more—I won't say fringe, but it is less mainstream, let's just say, in this literature, which is the primordialist school. Whereas instrumentalism and modernism put the accent on politics and economics, so power and wealth as the drivers, ethnosymbolism puts the accent on culture and history as the driver, the primordialists emphasize biology or evolutionary psychology.
- 3.16 For example, primordialists would say that even a community of 500 should be considered an ethnic group, that this is based on genetic relatedness and an almost instinctive sense of kinship, which is what drives cooperation. And through the process of evolution, those who cooperate with those who have more genes are going to be more successful, and this has led to the emergence of ethnic groups. So this actually doesn't require some ruling strata or intellectuals to necessarily raise consciousness and tell people who they are in some way. It's natural and organic.
- 3.17 This process of motivation, is it political or economic? Is it cultural and historical? Is it biological and evolutionary, psychological? Is also related to, again, this question of when did the nation, when did the ethnic group arise?
- 3.18 For the modernist school, this is very much after 1789, when you have shifts in economic technology, you have literacy, you have the rise of the mass participation military through the French levée en masse, which involves not having amilitary that's based on mercenaries recruited from various parts of the world, like Switzerland and Albania, that tended to produce Ireland, that tended to produce mercenaries, but actually a peasant army, the French levée en masse, pioneered by France. That is where you arm your own citizens.
- 3.19 The argument was that, or the modernist argument as well, elites, what they fear the most is their own peasantry. The last thing they would do is give them guns or swords that the peasantry would turn on the elites. And so they would rather hire mercenaries

from other parts of the world, who they could control, who would be loyal to the dynasty and not peasants who might actually rise up against the dynasty.

- 3.20 So in that a situation, you can't really have patriotically motivated militaries with connections between the peasantry and the ruling class. And it was the French Revolution where the innovation in the French army was to say, "We're going to appeal to patriotism and we're going to arm the peasantry. They will be the military, and they're going to fight for their homeland," not that they're going to fight for money or for whatever perks the empire gives to mercenaries.
- 3.21 That would be one example of—a modernist would say, that would be a key shift, a shift to a mass participation army, but also the rise of the Industrial Revolution and a capitalist economy, which requires people to move to jobs in cities with factories, requires people to be literate, to understand orders in a common language. So now you need a language. You need to be able to trade from place to place. You need roads, you need common weights and measures. So this standardization process, getting rid of all those village particularities, that's a result of capitalism, and in particular, industrial capitalism. There are also processes of bureaucratization as well.
- 3.22 So this modernization process is absolutely essential for breaking down parochialisms and allowing for an imagined community, not just local communities to form. There is a link then between the way you see history moving, which is motivated by economics and politics and military technology, versus the other view, the perennialist or ethnosymbolist view, which would say, "Actually, culture matters, attachments matter. It's not just about technology and ruling elites." This is a different view of the world.
- 3.23 The ethnosymbolist, perennialist view of the world is different. It would argue, therefore, that "No, ethnic groups or nations, in fact, predate the modern period. Once you have written history and written records and memories, you then have the basis for identities that can be meaningful to people, attachments to culture that are meaningful to people."
- 3.24 So this does not require—there are other ways in which ideas of ethnicity, and even nationhood, can be transmitted in a premodern context: wandering performers, it could be a religion, and it could be that clerics are transmitting ideas through religious institutions. That's like a premodern television or internet that's spreading consciousness. You don't need to have a literate mass public going to a public education system and taking part in nationalist parades and celebrations organized by the government.
- 3.25 You can actually have other ways of disseminating consciousness, even in societies where people are still in villages and it's not so well integrated and there are separate dialects, but you can still have a sense of consciousness. It's not just about the ruling class, the political elites, or the bourgeoisie in the Marxist version.

- 3.26** Modernism is aligned to some degree with Marxism and to some degree also with other materialist theories that are more liberal. So the Marxist version of modernism is to say that culture is epiphenomenal; it's a superstructure. What really matters is the mode of production and the ruling class. Politics and economics really drive the system. You could see with that outlook, it is always about elite manipulating populations. It's the elite motivated by self-interest that is in the driver's seat in this blank slate world where people are, to some degree, able to be molded from the top down.
- 3.27** Another version of this is the functionalist argument, which is a more—either the rational choice or the functionalist argument, these are not Marxist theories, but they are modernist. The rational choice theory would largely say, "People are just motivated by self-interest defined economically and politically," whereas the functionalist argument is more that of people like Ernest Gellner, who would say, "In order to have a capitalist economy, you need economies of scale. Therefore, you can't have separate weights and measures and separate languages and dialects when you go from place to place." The imperative of the capitalist economic system is to have a common language and communication. And so that leads to the nation-state.
- 3.28** Okay, I'm now going to just go through some of the key works that have defined the field of nationalism studies. This literature really emerges in the early 1980s, for the most part. A lot of the most important foundational works in nationalism studies date from the 1980s. Leading up, perhaps the 1980s, going into the early '90s, is when the foundations of the field emerge and some of the big names in the field write.
- 3.29** In terms of primordialism, again, this is a relatively minor, or at least not a mainstream position in the literature, but it does have insights—the work of Pierre van den Berghe, *The Ethnic Phenomenon*, 1979. One of the arguments here is that ethnicity is in a way an outgrowth of the process of evolution. So they're not just going back to written, recorded history, the way the ethnosymbolists are; they're going back to pre-history, back to our tribal origins in evolution.
- 3.30** The argument of van den Berghe and other sociobiologists and primordialists is that the process at work is what we call collective nepotism. That is to say that if you look at other animal species, like bees, for example—if you cooperate with those who share more of your genes, even if you die in a battle, your genes are—especially if you die in battle in the name of your tribe, let's just say, who share your genes, and especially if dying in battle ultimately helps your tribe to prosper and win and grow, then what you're doing is you're actually advancing your genetic interests by giving your life for the group.
- 3.31** This theory then is cooperation. If you're going to cooperate, particularly if you're going to give your life, you want to cooperate with those who share more of your genes. Now, of course, people couldn't do cheek swabs back then, so they didn't know exactly who they were related or how strongly they were related to people. But you could

partly tell from familial connections. Also, to some degree, a proxy for relatedness were cultural markers.

- 3.32** Now, in most parts of the world, people look the same as their neighbors. It was very difficult to tell through physical markers, but perhaps there were slight differences of language or of customs, or perhaps scarification, markings, hairstyles. These were all indicators, markers of peoples that were not as closely related to you as your own tribesmen.
- 3.33** This idea, then, is that you're going to cooperate with those who you think are more genetically related to you. Over time, groups which cooperate with those who share their genes were more successful in the evolutionary race over time than those who did not cooperate. The same process is observed in the animal kingdom. And so what we emerge with is a mindset of wanting to cooperate with those who share more of your genes. So this is the primordialist theory.
- 3.34** To preempt, one of the criticisms might be, "Well, that's fine, but if we share a lot of genes with our immediate neighbors and fewer genes with those as we go further out, it doesn't actually tell us where the boundary lines should be for, let's say, a territory, a kingdom, a political unit." I mean, do we cooperate out this far, out this far, out this far? How do we know where we're going to draw those lines?
- 3.35** Sometimes, of course, you do have groups which are radically different genetically. This can be seen through—if you take north and south of the Sahara Desert, for example, there's going to be a big difference genetically there. But of course, it was very hard to get across the Sahara. This wouldn't be something most people would ordinarily encounter. Perhaps this then suggests, at the very least, that it's inadequate to say, "We'll cooperate with those who share more genetically than us," because that doesn't explain where the boundary lines are going to be drawn.
- 3.36** Even van den Berghe would say, "Yes, this is not a theory that would explain to you exactly why the Catalans draw the boundary with the Castilian Spanish here, and the French draw the boundary with the Germans there." It's not something that can explain the existence of boundary lines between populations.
- 3.37** Moving to instrumentalism, the work of Eric Hobsbawm, who, along with Terence Ranger, edited the book, *The Invention of Tradition*. That title tells you a lot. The idea that traditions are invented deliberately by elites for ulterior motives such as wanting power. That is what's behind this idea of the invention of tradition. It's suggesting that tradition is not something passed down, which has its own force because of attachments that are genuine and deeply rooted, but it's something that is invented by elites.
- 3.38** Hobsbawm's classic work, *Nations and Nationalism since 1780*, is his strongest exposition of the argument. Hobsbawm very much emphasizes that it is economic

forces, to some extent, political forces and elites that are in the driver's seat and that they are inventing traditions, inventing nations. Why?

- 3.39** Well, Hobsbawm, who comes from the Marxist tradition, would argue that political elites seek to divide the working class. You don't want class solidarity, so you emphasize ethnicity, for example, or national differences, which will divide the international working class, or within a country, ethnicity can divide—let's say in Northern Ireland, it's going to be very difficult for the Catholic and the Protestant workers to get together in a union against the owners in a shipyard or in a factory when they are primarily focused on each other. So this is the idea of a divide and rule utilizing identity to divide groups.
- 3.40** Now, of course, it does beg the question of why, then, do these identities resonate? The ethnosymbolist would say, "If it is all about a blank slate, why is it the case that these groups of workers decide to take on these identities? Wouldn't they also be instrumental with regard to these new constructs as well?"
- 3.41** But in the work of Hobsbawm and others, the motives are clearly not primordial biological evolutionary psychology, nor are they cultural and historical attachments, but rather they are political and economic. What this means, too, is that because politics and economic processes are what's driving history, it is not until we get to the modern period, when you get standardization through capitalism, through road building, through mass literacy and communications, that you have the possibility even of having these imagined communities. That is, we can never meet everybody in our nation. We have to imagine them. That imagining can only take place with modern technology, modern literacy, and modern economic processes.
- 3.42** This is also important in the work of Anthony Giddens as we come into the early 1990s. But Giddens takes a different approach. He's not emphasizing as much individual self-interest in instrumentalism; it's more of a structural argument around large-scale processes. What happens is you have state—in all of the modernist accounts, the state comes first, national consciousness comes second. The state is what you need to explain. How do we get to the state? Well, it could be bureaucratic technology, military technology.
- 3.43** In the case of Giddens, you get the state created first, that then creates a power container, as he calls it, a field of power, which then requires certain modern bureaucratic systems, such as passport controls at the border, such as cartography, such as a census. That then means that you have information about how large your population is, where are its borders, what does it look like on a map, things which people never really were aware of prior to this bureaucratization and this codification.
- 3.44** That sets in motion a process what he calls reflexivity, where these understandings about where your borders are, what your population is, what's happening to your nation, are transmitted down into the population through television. Well, before

television, through newspapers, through public pronouncements, perhaps through military conscription. These state processes create a sense of nationhood. The state comes first. That is a political and economically motivated process. Nation, to the extent that it exists independently, is a secondary offshoot of this. Modern state systems then help to create that sense of nationhood.

- 3.45 Ernest Gellner's work, *Nations and Nationalism*, is a good exposition of the modernist position, but it's a slightly different one from Hobsbawm. Gellner is emphasizing this idea of nations being functional for the operation of industrial capitalism. If we look at Gellner's argument, his argument would be that prior to the modern era, people lived in villages. They had local identities with their village. They almost never left their village.
- 3.46 To the extent that they were aware of any identities that were broader, those were only religious identities, being Christian, being Muslim, because of participation in religion, but they had no sense of an imagined territorial community and territorial history going back in time—what were our ancestors doing on this territory? What great heroic things did they do?—that didn't exist. All they had was their local village identity or their Universalist identity with a religion.
- 3.47 Similarly, the elites were imperial elites, part of large-scale Muslim empires, for example, caliphates, or part of the Universal Church of Christendom. That was the identity of the elites, or perhaps later on, there was orthodoxy, and then there was Catholicism. But the identification of the elites was spanned, cut across what we would think of today as nations.
- 3.48 If you look particularly at the royal houses and the aristocracy of, say, Europe or of the Arab world or of the Muslim world, you could certainly see that there was a lot of intermarriage across what we would now consider ethnic lines. Even in Britain, for example, the royal family in Britain, is connected to German aristocracy, for example. So, German speakers, or to some degree, there were a lot of aristocracies that were connected through German lineages.
- 3.49 That was a suggestion that, prior to the modern age, the dynastic principle was transnational, cosmopolitan universal. It was not nationally oriented. The important culture was whether you were an aristocrat or a commoner. Status and strata was the main cultural distinction, and therefore, language, nation, or territory was not a major cultural distinction. So the argument was that you couldn't have nation at that time. It didn't have much meaning for people the way status distinctions did.
- 3.50 The idea of modernist theories is that the state comes first, nation comes second. Politics and economics come first. Culture is, to some degree, an epiphenomenon and is secondary. So Perry Anderson, who writes in this modernist tradition, argued that the state, quote, "Made use of patriotic sentiment for the first time in the modern era," for example, in recruiting a military to appeal to the patriotism of the soldiers. That was

new rather than using mercenaries. So this is the idea of invention. The states are inventing nationhood, which is useful for them to maintain power, to fight wars, to acquire lands and resources and wealth for the rulers. The rulers are benefiting by making use of patriotic sentiment.

- 3.51** Of course, the ethnosymbolists would say, "Why did that work? Why did the soldiers not just say, 'This is invented and fake, and why would I care?'" That is a question. There are some modernists who would say, "Well, soldiers fought for their families. They fought for money. They fought for much smaller reasons than the nation. And so there wasn't actually patriotism." This is where the debate is.
- 3.52** The argument here is that the state invents nations, invents traditions where they do not previously exist. There's a quote, a well-known quote from the Italian Risorgimento—this is in the 19th century, when Italy was being unified or being unified—"We have made Italy. Now we must make Italians," this idea that politics comes first. You unify these territories into this thing you've called Italy. Now we have to convince people that they're Italians rather than Sicilians and Piedmontese and everything and Venetians and so on.
- 3.53** States, therefore, creating a culture and a sentiment where nothing existed before, is the argument. Obviously, this argument gives a lot of leeway to elites to construct and create and invent identity and manipulate identity, brainwash, if you like. So we had the first generation 1980s up until the early '90s, the classical nationalism theory literature: Eric Hobsbawm, Benedict Anderson, whose work, *Imagined Communities*, I think is one of the best-cited books in academia, a very interesting book.
- 3.54** It's very much about how this idea of imagined communities, how we get from the face-to-face community to the imagined community of the nation. Anderson has an entire argument about how people's whole notion of time changed from religious time, where it was, "Oh, now it's Easter, and we're going to do this," and "It's Lent, and we're going to do that, and it's the same thing every year." Cyclical time—you measure time in terms of, "Okay, it's this festival every year."
- 3.55** It's the same thing to what he calls linear time where, "Oh, we're 100 years since the founding of the Republic," or 200 years. We're having the centenary. We're having the annual National Day. There's a sense of dates and history and a linear movement of time, which Anderson says belongs to the modern era, and it belongs to the era of the watch, clock, and calendar, and the era of the map and the census. It is an era of modernity, and without that, you couldn't have the nation. He also emphasizes the importance of reading and spreading of consciousness through popular literature and fiction.
- 3.56** Ernest Gellner, we looked at already. Karl Deutsch, a communications theorist, wrote a book in 1966. Again, this is the emphasis upon creating a field of communication through a common language, through media like newspapers and telegraph and so on,

which would knit people together over a wider area. That's what's important. This is clearly emphasizing modernity. If you don't have mass literacy and newspapers, which you didn't have in the premodern era, you can't have national consciousness over a wide area.

- 3.57 The emphasis is, to some degree, on economic and political motives, whether that be the Marxist account of the ruling class and the bourgeoisie or the more rational choice theory account of the self-interested capitalist. The view of the premodern world in classical modernism was that people had just local identities, or they had universal cosmopolitan identities based on their religious civilization.
- 3.58 There are also more functionalist theories that don't look so much at individual motivations, but more look at the requirements of a system. So the system of capitalism requires the nation-state. Now, of course, part of this is to argue, well, if capitalism's field goes from the national to the global, then there's no role for the national anymore. Then maybe nations will fall away, and we'll be back to the age of empires of some kind or perhaps a global civilization.
- 3.59 The idea here is that nations emerged at certain points in history, and they can go away as well. They can rise, they can fall. If they're no longer functional for the workings of a global economy or of the economy, the capitalist economy, then maybe the form of politics will change if the form of economics and the technology of economics changes.
- 3.60 You can imagine, therefore, that the way Gellner or Giddens views the premodern world is that you have a strata of cosmopolitan elites who are not loyal to territory or language so much. Particularly, language is rooted in vernaculars, who see themselves as totally having nothing to do with the peasantry, being a class apart, having much more in common with other elites in other places than with their own peasants.
- 3.61 You have this insurmountable divide between the cosmopolitan elite of clerks, administrators, nobles, and warriors, and these localized peasants with their dialects, living in their villages, never traveling outside those villages. That is the view of the premodern world. Identity is local or universal in a way—when I say universal, I mean attached to a world religion like Islam or Christendom.
- 3.62 You then had a second generation of modernist writers in the early to mid-1990s, people like Anthony Giddens, Rogers Brubaker. Rogers Brubaker was emphasizing the role of institutions, that once you create an institution like a Soviet Republic with its passport and its seat in the Congress of People's Deputies, that then takes on a life of its own. Those institutions create incentives for the people who inhabit them to reproduce them. It's that creation of those political structures that is what reproduces nationhood. Again, the politics is coming first; the culture stuff is second.
- 3.63 For John Bruly, it's more of an instrumentalist argument around nationalism as a root to state power. That is, if you are in the Czech lands in the Austro-Hungarian Empire, it's going to be difficult for you to rise to the top. At the center of the empire is Vienna;

your best bet is to break away and run things in Czechoslovakia. Again, that's a power motive. You get to control things in your provincial periphery rather than being under the thumb of somebody at the center. It's a political motive.

- 3.64** There are other theories that talk about the role more of military technology, for example, the rise of artillery as we move into the 17th century. What does that do to politics? Walled cities become impractical once you have artillery. What does that then mean for the shifts in politics, the shape of the state? Well, it becomes very difficult to be a city-state. Empires, perhaps, are too unwieldy. Although empires do persist into the 20th century. So military technology perhaps can be assimilated into this more materialist, modernist group of theories.
- 3.65** One of the questions we might ask is: modernism certainly is the leading or seems to be the most popular paradigm in history and in the social sciences. But why is this the case? Is it the case because it fits the facts better? One motive could be because it's counterintuitive. A lot of people think, "Well, I am a Zulu. I know I'm a Zulu. You don't have to tell me I am. I've always been. My ancestors have always been." It is more counterintuitive to say, "No, actually, the Zulu Kingdom was founded by Shaka in the early 1800s. Before that, there was no idea of who was a Zulu or not."
- 3.66** It's counterintuitive because people have this sense that nations have always been there. In a way, they are right to problematize this consciousness. Just because people feel like they are part of something that goes back into the mist of time, doesn't necessarily mean that their group and their consciousness does go back into the mist of time. In fact, it may not. So it has the appeal of being counterintuitive, and that's good, but equally, one can go too far in that direction. This is certainly where the debate comes in.
- 3.67** The modernist theories have this emphasis on the state, on power, on national identity and culture as, in some way, secondary, an appendage and not the motor of history. It assumes that in the premodern period identity was either very local or very much tied to a universal world religion, that people's motivations are instrumental, and that culture is not a major driver. They don't see a lot of continuity between premodern political units and formations and modern nations.
- 3.68** There's also a literature on national integration, and we're going to talk about that more next, in which once the nation is formed, there's a difference between the formation of nations and the reproduction of nations once they're formed. Once the nation is formed, once the state emerges, there are a whole series of processes that lead to what we could call national deepening and straightening, deepening and integration.
- 3.69** For example, you could have public education, teach pupils about the history of France, of Germany, teach them the official language, not their dialect. You could have national ceremonies like Bastille Day or in this country, Remembrance Day, commemorations of

the storming of the Bastille, if we're talking about Bastille Day, for example, where you would have these in every town, bunting, decoration, parades. There's a moment of simultaneity when this parade is going. Everybody in the country's mind is, at least in theory, on the same symbol of the tricolor, on the same heroes, the same memories, and that sense of simultaneity brings a sense of nationhood.

- 3.70** There is also the development of, as I mentioned, census, maps, records, border checks, passports, and all of these bureaucratic record-keeping processes that deepen within the population a sense of who they are. Flags, anthems on public buildings, again, symbolic reminders of nationhood. Then processes such as military conscription, especially when you have large-scale military conscription, people from many different regions coming together, thrown together into a common project under common insignia. Then there is the development of common weights and measures and economy, roads and communications, which help to create that sense of national "we."
- 3.71** A lot of the nationalism literature focuses on Europe and the development of the nation in Europe, in France, in England, Spain, and so on. But it's also important to say that modernists would have an account of the spread of nationalism to the rest of the world. There are a series of revolutions in the early 19th century in South America, throughout Latin America, really. Figures like Simon Bolivar and José de San Martín are at the center of various revolutions against Spanish rule in the Americas. That's an example of how this model is exported to the rest of the world.
- 3.72** The question of the American Revolution and whether that qualifies as a nationalist revolution is an interesting one. I think one of the arguments would be, yes, it was motivated by the ideals of the Enlightenment, including that of popular sovereignty, the same way the French Revolution was motivated. Although the origins are somewhat different.
- 3.73** So you get this exporting of the template from Europe to other parts of the world. This leads to the end of the Spanish Empire in most of Latin America, for example. Eventually, it leads to anticolonial nationalisms in Africa and Asia. These are intellectuals who are inspired by the idea of nationalism developed by individuals such as Jean-Jacques Rousseau in France. The writings of these individuals then go on to influence the thinking of postcolonial elites who are then involved in independence movements.
- 3.74** We now turn to ethnosymbolism and the ethnosymbolist response to that dominant modernist school, which, don't forget, is really about political and economic processes as the motor of history, instrumental motivations of elites, to some degree, nations as the downstream effects of economic and political causes.
- 3.75** Adrian Hastings, he would argue that, in fact, nations are premodern. For example, he uses the case of England, which he says was a nation even at the time of the Venerable Bede. The translation of the Bible into the vernacular languages, such as English, such

as French, doesn't make sense if you imagine that the dominant identities were only to Christianity. That is, if elites only cared about these universal religious identities, why bother translating the Bible into the vernacular, unless you were seeking to speak to the population as a whole? The translation of the Bible, therefore, is a cultural factor that leads to the formation of national identity.

- 3.76 Anthony Smith, who very much is key to the formation of the ethnosymbolic school, an LSE sociologist, a contemporary of Ernest Gellner, and of other modernist theories like Elie Kedourie, his first book was in 1971, *Theories of Nationalism*, and his book in 1981, *The Ethnic Revival*. Both of these books were very interested in scholar educators, these cultural intellectuals, particularly in Eastern, Central Europe, but not only, also in Ireland and other places.
- 3.77 The role that these cultural intellectuals, who were interested in, for example, creating a dictionary of the Czech language, of the Estonian language, of creating a history. This was before you had political separatism. It seemed to be that you had these cultural movements, these cultural revival movements, the Gaelic revival in Ireland, the revival of Welsh customs in Wales, the Bardic revival. Why were these cultural revivals going on? And did they have anything to do with nationalism?
- 3.78 Smith said they did. These were forms of cultural nationalism, an attempt to look at the peasantry, look at their traditions, and synthesize out of that some sense of who the people were. Smith is very much examining cultural nationalism and the role of romantic intellectuals motivated by a search for meaning and for authenticity, not motivated by wealth, power, and prestige. He's taking a very different view of the formation of a nation.
- 3.79 For Smith, it's this idea then that culture and history really matter and really are engines of history, that attachments to myths, symbols, and memories are transmitted partly through families, partly through religious institutions, partly through associations, which began to spring up in the 19th century under the influence of the Romantic movement, a Counter-Enlightenment movement, emphasizing the importance of nature and the emotions as against necessarily reason and material factors.
- 3.80 For Smith, there's very much an emphasis that new constructs have to resonate with existing constructs. You can't just invent ex nihilo. People are not just blank slates. They have existing cultural understandings. You need to work with the grain of those understandings. You have some room to invent, but that's limited to a large degree.
- 3.81 Out of this comes the argument that modern nations are created on the basis of premodern ethnic groups. The modern French nation took the name France from the French Kingdom, going back to Louis XIV and earlier. That modern French Kingdom is organically linked—the premodern French Kingdom is organically linked to the modern French Nation, symbolically, historically, and in many other ways.

- 3.82** Romantic intellectuals, these scholar educators who often were not members of the bourgeoisie or the bureaucracy, they were often teachers from intermediate strata, new strata that were emerging—this class, not the so-called ruling class, was the key engine in the creation of a nation.
- 3.83** Smith's landmark work was the *Ethnic Origins of Nations*, 1986, which, the first half of the book really looks at the origins of ethnic groups and ethnic processes in pre-modernity. It makes the claim that a sense of ethnicity has existed somewhere on Earth at all times since antiquity. That is, since ancient Israel, which is one of the prototypes. So nations are not purely created by the state, but they have ethnic origins.
- 3.84** And not only that, there are dominant ethnic groups that lie at the center of nations. The ethnic English are at the center of the British nation. You have these dominant ethnies or dominant ethnic groups which are at the heart of nations. Even today, 70% of the world's states have an ethnic majority of at least 50% of the population. There seems to be a link between the dominant ethnic group and the nation-state, and the nation-state is connected to that dominant ethnic group.
- 3.85** In addition, Smith and other ethnosymbolists are very critical of Gellner's, Giddens's, Benedict Anderson's view of the premodern world, that somehow in premodernity, people were just tied to the local. They didn't have an imagined territorial and historical community.
- 3.86** Clearly, if we look at Smith's definition of premodern ethnic groups, he talks about these large warrior bands, the religious sects, tribal confederations, diasporas, and what he calls—there are a few ethnic states which are similar to, but not exactly the same as, nations. Although Adrian Hastings, some others would say, Azar Gat would be another scholar who would say, "No, these were premodern nations." But what Smith calls ethnic states like ancient Israel and Armenia, where you had a community that had a sense of identity and territoriality and had a political motivation.
- 3.87** All of these features, which are essential to the definition of a nation, were largely there, but Smith would still say, "Okay, we'll call them ethnic states." You didn't necessarily have mass communication through a common language. That sense of this other aspect, which Benedict Anderson emphasizes, which is this notion of the nation moving through time, interacting with other nations on the world stage, that's related through newspapers, that sense of simultaneity, that probably wasn't there in these ethnic states. So you can't call it a fully fledged nation, according to Smith, although other scholars like Gat and Hastings probably would call it a nation.
- 3.88** For Smith, then, nations are making use of the symbolism of the earlier kingdoms, those premodern kingdoms. An example, again, is Louis XIV's France, the symbols of France. Many of them were recycled into the modern French nation, especially over time. "Why the need,"—asked Smith—"to appeal to an ancient past that our nation has

been there since time immemorial? What is the point of doing that if these are modern constructs that are simply driven by economics and politics?"

- 3.89** For Smith, nationalists or any political elites are constrained by existing understandings that an attempt to construct a new identity must resonate with the population. Even if the French successfully invaded Britain and took it over, it would not be very easy for them to convince the people in Britain that they were French. It takes much more than politics and economic incentives. There's a rootedness to attachment, which means it's not easy to shift that attachment. It's not easy to invent traditions which will be meaningful within a population.
- 3.90** For Smith, again, the emphasis is on the connection between these Romantic 19th-century intellectuals and their cultural activities, their historical recreations, their creation of dictionaries and histories of the people, the connection between that cultural revivalism and political nationalism, separatism in Central and Eastern Europe, for example, that there is a strong connection between those two things.
- 3.91** John Hutchinson is one of Smith's first students, and he wrote a book, *Nations as Zones of Conflict*, that introduces a slight variant on this, which is that history deposits different resources, that different things happened in Phoenicia and Lebanon over time. You have a layering of different invaders that came over time. And these create resources, symbolic resources, which nationalists can draw upon.
- 3.92** You can try and say in Lebanon, "We're the Phoenecians." I'm not saying this will work, but it might work to say, "We are the descendants of the Phoenecians." That was what the Christians in Lebanon argued. There is a plausibility there because historically we know that that was a group that did inhabit the land of current-day Lebanon. But to say in Lebanon, "You are the descendants of the Chinese," would not be plausible for the residents of Lebanon.
- 3.93** So it's this idea of there's a menu, you can choose from the menu, but you can't go off the menu. That's a different argument from saying, "No, there's a hymn-sheet and you have to stick to the hymn-sheet and there's one version of your past and it's set in stone." Hutchinson is saying, "No, there are different variations within the national past. You have to stick to the corpus of what's going to be plausible, but within that, you have a choice." For example, in England, you could choose to identify with the Anglo-Saxons, which the Wigs did, or you could choose to identify with the Normans, which is the origin of the Britishdynasty, the ruling dynasty and the ruling class, which was the Tori myth in the 19th century.
- 3.94** There may be conflicting views of the national past, both of which are plausible. We see this to some degree today, where in many Western countries, there's a clash between those who insist that Scotland has always been a country of immigrants and a country of diversity. Multiculturalism is continuous with that. In another version, it says, no, actually, there was a fixed Scottish identity, which was quite distinct. We're going to

look to the ancient Scots and pick a small number of groups as the ancestors of the Scots.

- 3.95** This clash now seems to be morphing into one between those who want to read the national past as very multicultural and based on immigration and change, and those who want to read the national past as based on one or a few groups as the core and a lot of continuity, which tends to be associated more with conservatism versus liberalism or left liberalism. So we have a battle over the past within different countries.
- 3.96** When it comes to looking at evidence between modernists and ethnosymbolists, the modernists would argue, "We don't have a record of the English peasantry rising up to resist the French when they invaded. We don't have a record of a lot of patriotically motivated mass sentiment in the premodern era. In fact, we have a record of Scottish nobles fighting on the English side, English nobles on the Scottish side in these wars. So really, this is evidence that, in fact, there wasn't that same sense of national identity. It was much more instrumental, and alliances were shifting, and we didn't have that patriotic attachment."
- 3.97** We see a change over time in the groups that inhabit a particular territory. There was obviously a lot of intradynastic competition within particular kingdoms. I guess the ethnosymbolists would say, "Look at these elite writings mentioning the Venerable Bede talking about the English." We see the word *natio*, the Roman word, or the Latin word *natio*, the Greek word *ethnos*. These words come from antiquity, and so elite writings are mentioning groups of people, nations, ethnic groups since classical times. We have the elite writings which talk about their own kingdoms and their own peoples.
- 3.98** We see the translation of the Bible. We see, at the very least, dynastic myths of, say, the Scoti and the origin of the Scots recorded. We see evidence of large-scale mobilization of, I mentioned the Goths, the sackings of the Roman Empire, the Mongols—these are tens of thousands of people at war. Clearly, that picture of everybody just tied to their village, having no conception of anything outside their narrow piece of territory, is too reductive. We did have people who had this sense of territorial identity at a larger scale in the premodern period.
- 3.99** And so throughout history, we have to, again, get back to that question, which we touched upon in the first lecture, of identity and culture on the one hand, and top-down politics on the other, and what is the interplay between these two dimensions over time until we get to the modern nation-state, which seems to combine, as I mentioned, that more status political element with the more ethnocultural element. So the nation-state is more ethnocultural than an empire, clearly more ethnocultural than an empire, but is also more political and statist and has more clearly drawn lines than fuzzy tribes or even tribal considerations.
- 3.100** What this gets to when we're talking about theories of nationalism, the fundamental question is not just the when—when did groups emerge historically, but what

motivates nationalism? If we want to explain anything from Russian and Chinese nationalism to secession in Scotland and Quebec to immigration restrictionist nationalism, we can come back to this framework that would say, "It's all about elites. It's all about Putin and Xi and Nigel Farage and Marine Le Pen and their own ambition, or Slobodan Milošević. Their ambition is really what this is all about." It's all about power, or it's all about acquiring wealth; maybe Scotland wants to control oil. Maybe it's about wealth. It's about power. That's the motor of nationalism.

- 3.101** The other view is, actually, attachments are central, the attachments of peoples. There's a connection between a message—a message propounded by Nigel Farage will land well because the population already has an attachment to symbols such as the George Cross or the Union Jack. A message will land well because there's a broad understanding of the ethnic composition of Britain through time, an attachment to that, and therefore, the message really works. There's a resonance with the population. So this is not just about elites being able to invent whatever they please and manipulate whatever they please. It's not just a blank slate; there's a constraint.
- 3.102** Now, how big that constraint is, how much of this is elite manipulation, how much of this is mass sentiment, is a question that persists, really. If we think about the study of nationalism around the world, this is a central issue. To what extent is there a genuine grievance within the Chinese population at the century of humiliation of the 19th century and the need to regain their status on the world stage? Same in Russia. To what extent is that in the population, or to what extent is that simply an elite discourse used to justify staying in power? These are the kinds of questions that we want to grapple with.
- 3.103** Thank you. All right. Questions.
- 3.104** I was just wondering, is national identity ever static, or is it always a process for every generation or two having to reinterpret the national narrative?
- 3.105** The cop-out answer is it's both. But this is the debate: how fixed is national identity, or how flexible is it? I think it's fair to say that Protestantism is not as central to British identity now as it was prior to the early 19th century or the mid-19th century. It's clearly the case that the symbolic makeup of national memory changes over time. Could one imagine the English language not being important for English national identity? I don't know.
- 3.106** Many people would argue that elites have some power to activate or stimulate nationalism. But the question is, how large is their room to create and invent, or must they stay on the menu, if you like? How much does it change over time? Again, symbolically, the makeup of the myth-symbol complex that's in people's minds does shift over time. If, for example, Protestantism and religion decline within a country like Britain, that may not be as important for British national identity. What might be more important? That's a good question.

- 3.107** There are people who say that even modern sports and pop culture can be carriers of national identity. If there is a British style of music, even Britpop, if there is the English football team—now, that's England, that's not Britain. But if we just take England for a minute, so that these more modern pastimes can be conveyors and carriers of national identity. Pop culture can be a carrier of national identity. That's something we'll talk about when we talk about everyday nationalism. So yes, I guess one answer is that the key symbols that are meaningful for a nation can shift over time.
- 3.108** Anthony Smith would say that many nations have core myths—the French Revolution. A core myth amongst the Jews in Israel, there would be a view of the dispersion and the ingathering through Zionism. So there are these core myths that are more resilient and more resistant to change.
- 3.109** But of course, it depends on the country, and some of them might not have those core myths. The U.S., for example, has the American Revolution. Canada doesn't have an equivalent of that. It has a bunch of loyalist exiles, it has Confederation, which is quasi-independence. It's not one—now, you might say World War I, Vimy Ridge, certain battles—that was important. Similar for Australia. But it may not have the same status as Bastille Day or the celebration of American Independence.
- 3.110** So there is change, but there is also continuity. I think there's a view that there's also variation by country.

Lecture 4: Nation-Building

At a glance — Nation-building and the motivations behind it.

- 4.1 Okay, welcome back. We've talked a lot about the origins of ethnic groups and the origins of nations, the motivations behind ethnicity and nationalism. We've seen that we have competing theories, one of which is more cultural-historical, which is called ethnosymbolism, one which is more political and economic, which is modernism.
- 4.2 At the same time, also in this course, we're moving in this dialectic between the state as shaping the nation and ethnicity and culture as shaping the nation. Whereas with the origin of ethnic groups, that was very much from the ethnosymbolist perspective, looking at premodern ethnicity, tribal confederations, diasporas, lateral ethnies, we're now moving to a more, perhaps, modernist perspective, which is to say much of this lecture is going to be looking at the way states shape national identity.
- 4.3 Of course, that's a relevant issue today, both in the Western world, where we have governments who want to talk about national unity across lines of ethnicity in particular. So social cohesion and national identity is part of what governments are concerned with.
- 4.4 Then in the developing world, where you have failed states, for example, or secessionist movements, there's also an emphasis very much on the state of trying to inculcate a common national identity that can bind people together in divided societies like, for example, Myanmar or Sri Lanka or Ethiopia. Countries where you have a lot of division: Syria, Iraq, Afghanistan, places where there's been a lot of violent secession or contestation over state power based on ethnicity.
- 4.5 It raises this question of what makes for a successfully integrated nation where everybody identifies with a national identity and you don't have secession and division within the country, particularly ethnic division. We talk then about the origins of nations. Is it premodern? Is it with the French Revolution and modernity?
- 4.6 The second question we could ask is not the origins, but the reproduction of nations. How is the nation reproduced and how is it deepened and extended within a population? Because to the extent that it is not successful, then you're going to get polarization and fragmentation and division and possibly civil war and possibly a failed state. This is an important task for the state, making the nation, and it has really been since the advent of nations.
- 4.7 I briefly alluded to the Italian Risorgimento, which was the unification of Italy. I'm currently watching a historic drama called The Empress, which is about the Austro-Hungarian Empire, and they're talking about Italian unification. In the 1860s, the movement to unify different Italian states, Venice, Lombardy, Piedmont, Sicily,

Calabria, and various other parts of the Italian peninsula, which hadn't been unified since Roman times, when the Roman province of Italia was first created.

- 4.8 So we have this quote after this unification movement, where there was a successful unification of the different Italian city-states and regions into a common Italian state. This was led by northern politicians from Piedmont. A journalist named Massimo d'Azeglio wrote, "We have [made] Italy, now we must make Italians." That's something that modernists would identify. They'd say, "Italy is a state. It's a political unit. It was created militarily, diplomatically. You have this political unit, but there's no national consciousness there. Everyone still thinks of themselves as a Venetian or a Sicilian. So we now have to create this thing called Italian." Mazzini quoted this as well, who is an Italian nationalist leader.
- 4.9 This would suggest that this idea of reproduction and dissemination of nationhood is important. That nation formation is just the first step, and then you have to move to nation-building or national integration. That's very relevant, especially when we get to the postcolonial world, the breakup of the British Empire, the French Empire, Spanish Empire, left these postcolonial states, which were to some degree artificial, and they then had to become nations. They then needed to do—they had their boundaries, they had the military power, they had the states, but they didn't have the nation. How are we going to make everyone feel Syrian, Afghan, and Iraqi?
- 4.10 One of the arguments around some of the failures of the intervention or the Western intervention in Iraq is the lack of this sense of common Iraqiness. You had different groups contending for power. Syria, same thing. How do we then create a sense of nationhood through this nation-building process? Because the failure to do so can lead to civil wars, breakups, separatisms, or other kinds of divisions, which can make it difficult to operate the state.
- 4.11 I want to look at the experience of Europe and, to some degree, Asia first. We already looked at the origin of ethnicity through those premodern medieval states, the Welsh kingdoms, the Scottish kingdoms, England of Alfred the Great, France in the Capetian, the Frankish dynasty in France, Castile from the X century, Poland in the XII century, China—all of these empires were building states, some of which Smith would call ethnic states that had somewhat of a common culture. So we had this premodern process then of kingdoms developing and attempting, to some degree, to spread at least their religion.
- 4.12 We can debate to what extent they spread any sense of political and territorial identity, but certainly an attempt at spreading religion. We can see that there were varying degrees of success. The Ottoman Empire in the Balkans did manage to spread Islam to nowadays Bosnian Muslims, many of whom were members of a heretical sect of Christianity called the Bogomils, so many of them became Muslim, more so in the lowlands, less so in the hills, where those people remained Orthodox and therefore

became Serbs. So there were already attempts to some degree to spread culture in the premodern period.

- 4.13 But the technologies of integration, the capacities of the states in the premodern period was weaker because they didn't have the telegraph, the automobile, the railway, and other forms of modern technology. There wasn't mass literacy. Integration was always a tougher prospect in the premodern period.
- 4.14 We then see societies go through what Anthony Smith calls the triple revolution of modernization. This involves even what Smith, who's an ethnosymbolist, would say, "There was a step change. Yes, there were ethnic groups, but they were transmuted into nations through the modernizing process." He talks about three processes.
- 4.15 One is a political process, that of bureaucratic incorporation. So, bureaucratization: instead of being related to somebody or having nepotistic connections being the way you manage to get a government position, there would be an examination. The Chinese invented this idea of civil service examination, creating, at least in theory, an impartial professional bureaucracy. So bureaucratic incorporation is one process.
- 4.16 The second is the industrial capitalism that Ernest Gellner talks about. That's an economic process. Then the third is a cultural process, typically a common language taught in the schools, standardized version of the language in a dictionary. These are the three processes that give rise to the modern nation-state. Perhaps we could throw mass conscription in with number one, that bureaucratic incorporation, record-keeping, censuses, border controls. Border controls comes later and passports comes later. These are the three factors that inaugurate the modern nation-state.
- 4.17 What do we mean? Looking briefly at these three processes of the triple revolution, bureaucratic incorporation—at least the broader process of political modernity—involves a centralized, conscript military, national military training schools, standardization of law and authority throughout the territory. Now, that's also important for commerce because being able to uphold property rights in court and contract rights in court is important for the success of capitalism in the nation-state. A Gellnerian point.
- 4.18 Customs, border control, post office, these various features emerged in the 19th century. The first stamps were issued in the 1840s, I believe. I think the Penny Black in England was the first, showing you that this is a process, this is getting underway in the 19th century, later in Eastern Europe than in Western Europe, perhaps.
- 4.19 The extension of the franchise, this whole question of democracy, which I'm not going to go into in this lecture, what is the relationship between democracy and nationality or nationalism? One argument is they're very closely related because they're both based on the idea that the people should rule, that majority rule is the principle in a country, and it's a reflection of the will of the people that you have democracy.

- 4.20 But in fact, there were many countries that had some version of nationalism, but didn't really have democracy, actually. You can still have a sense of national identity propagated, even if power is concentrated with the king, for example. But there's a tension there. In some countries, we see an extension also of the franchise in Britain, for example, to people who were non-property holders. That occurs with a series of reforms starting in 1867 in Britain. In the U.S., the vote was distributed more widely. Women get the vote later in the early 20th century in, say, the U.S. and Britain. So an extension of the franchise might be seen as part of that broad political modernization process.
- 4.21 Capitalism—the economic integration involving a well-developed system for the collection of taxes, monopolies and customs, because a lot of the taxes that were collected were excise duties rather than income taxes until the 20th century. Regulation of trade—the state getting involved in colonial projects, for example. State mercantilism, this was part of capitalism.
- 4.22 The development of better communications within your territory, particularly to connect your center, the capital, to the peripheries and the provinces—that becomes really important when it comes to whether secessionist movements and breakaway movements take root in the countryside and in the periphery.
- 4.23 A lot of civil wars tend to take place in the countryside, and they tend to take place in particularly inaccessible, remote, rugged, forested areas in the countryside. It'll be important for a state to be able to pacify and extend state capacity into the countryside. Where it's difficult to do so, in the Afghanistans of this world and the Myanmars of this world, then it's going to be harder to have that sense of unified national identity.
- 4.24 That sense of creating a single market with a common currency, common legal apparatus, roads, communication technology, that's important for building national wealth, which you need to underpin the military in competition with other societies. You also have labor mobility with industrialization, people moving to work from the farms to the factories. Often, that will cross language barriers. You'll get in France, people from Alsace moving into who would speak German as their first language, moving into cities like Toulouse, where they would be French-speaking only.
- 4.25 Cultural unification—we've talked about politics, economics, the third aspect of the triple revolution would be the attempt to have a standardized official culture, typically an official language of administration and schools. Books and newspapers—the reading public would tend to read in the national language.
- 4.26 Those books and newspapers, Benedict Anderson would focus on a lot as building that sense of the national "we" in relation to other nations moving through time, events that happen to "us," the nation. "We" negotiated with the Chinese—this is happening even now, and that's related through the newspaper. If there is, "Oh, Kier Starmer

meets Donald Trump," that becomes part of the news, that sense that there's a drama going on. It's a reality TV show. But you need to have a reading public. You need to have books and newspapers, something that can be a medium of communication. And as that medium of communication grows, as the number of literate people grows, this helps to develop that sense of national identity.

- 4.27 Then you also have, typically in the capital, national academies featuring national art galleries, a military museum, often a museum of national history. These are being developed, often, with explicit nationalist purposes from the late 18th century. It's worth saying that separatist groups or separatist regions will also try and imitate this. You'll have a Corsican National University, a Corsican Museum, to try and build a sense of Corsican-ness as distinct from Frenchness—that's a nationalist project.
- 4.28 There's a link between education and nationalism as well. The spread of mass public education in the 19th and 20th centuries is, again, seen as part of this deliberate attempt to inculcate national identity. The French Third Republic from 1870 onward, perhaps, would be the prototype of this. We'll look at France in more depth in this lecture.
- 4.29 Finally, a sense of national identity celebrating centennials. The U.S. is going to have an anniversary of—what would it be— the 250th anniversary. Is it 250 years? Wow. The 250th anniversary of the American Revolution is coming up next year. That's an example of the anniversary that nations would tend to celebrate through parades, public ceremonies, festivals in every city and town across the country, and it creates that sense of simultaneity where everybody is focusing on the same symbol at the same time. It's a bit—Émile Durkheim talks about this as an analogy from the tribe where the whole tribe would be focusing on the sacred totem. That sense of synchronicity builds a sense of common emotional bonding to the nation.
- 4.30 We have in sociology a whole literature on modernization, moving from face-to-face communities, what Ferdinand Tönnies described as *Gemeinschaft*, this idea of face-to-face communities, to *Gesellschaft*, the mass society. The story of the rise of nations is the story of moving from that *Gemeinschaft* to *Gesellschaft*. And according to, I think it was Hobsbawm and Gellner that used this term. The masses were ushered into history for the first time. That is, the masses living in their villages and the peasants, for most of human history, according to the modernist account, were basically bystanders and passengers, not participants, active participants in the major movements of history.
- 4.31 There's truth to this. There's also some criticism of this. But the idea is that when we move into the era of the modern nation with mass education, and mass conscription, the masses are brought onto the historical stage as an actor. They may be conscripts, they may be voters, they may be working in the national economy, paying taxes, reading newspapers. It's a shift from a more local orientation to a wider national orientation.

- 4.32 Of course, one of the questions we have today is whether, in fact, we are moving from a local to a national to a global orientation or not. That's the secondary question, but I think modernization theories would tend to see this growing zone of interaction and wider consciousness.
- 4.33 The emergence of a public sphere—by public sphere, we mean people who follow national news, who think about politics, who perhaps are critical of national politics, as opposed to somebody who is just tilling their fields and going to church and simply leading that narrower life. You now have the emergence of a public sphere, which is growing with literacy and with the publication of newspapers and the rise of the telegraph, and other technologies.
- 4.34 Of course, you have all of this brought together by, in most places, in most countries, a common language, which has been standardized. France has an Académie Française, which really is the organ of the state, which is about standardizing the language, a national language, which has been standardized. In Italy, the Tuscan dialect formed the basis of Italian, and that became the standard Italian that was taught in the schools.
- 4.35 For Benedict Anderson and also Gellner and Giddens, they would see that the entire notion of space and time is being fundamentally altered in modernity, that it becomes more linear, the idea that it's 100 years since the French Revolution, and we can measure things to the exact year. We have a cartography, which tells us exactly where the boundaries of the territory are. Therefore, people's relationship to history changes. You get the politicization of the masses, the rise of national consciousness in a way that wasn't really there with the earlier premodern state-building.
- 4.36 The nation starts to spread out into the peripheries of the state. The state, through diplomacy or through military action, conquers a territory. The areas that are furthest from the capital would be the peripheries. Typically, the furthest from the capital also tends to mean culturally most distinct. You have a task to nation-build and to make those people that you've conquered or who you've inherited through some peace settlement into citizens who are loyal to your nation.
- 4.37 That is helped by smooth communication through railways, roads, and canals that will help connect those hinterlands with the capital. If you don't have good communications to the hinterlands, then it's much more difficult to build your nation. One of the questions, of course, between ethnosymbolists and modernists is: Is it harder to nation-build when there's a greater cultural distance or a religious difference or a linguistic distance between the periphery and the metropole?
- 4.38 What are some of these peripheries? Through history, we can think of Brittany in France, which was a Celtic-speaking area. That language has largely died out, but this was an area that spoke a very different language from a very different language family to France. It was not a Latin language area, nor was the Basque area in France and Spain. Basque is a language that is not an Indo-European language; it's very different

from Spanish or French. In Britain, the Scottish Highlands was such a periphery. In China — Tibet. In Pakistan—the federally-administered tribal areas. Kurdistan within Iraq. These would be peripheries, which would often have separate identities.

- 4.39** One of the questions is: When will those peripheries rebel, or will they assimilate? What determines which states are successful and which ones are not in assimilating their peripheries? So these outlying regions have to be incorporated into the state. Now, maybe you can extend the school system, extend the road system. What is it that you need to do to, in a way, increase state capacity and absorb these areas through nation-building?
- 4.40** In the case of France, for example, nation-building arguably was quite successful given the diversity of languages within France. Really, up until the 1960s, you didn't have a lot of breakaway movements. In the '60s, we started to see some agitation in Corsica with a Corsican separatist movement. Basques less so, actually. It's interesting, the Basques in France seem to have accommodated themselves much more to France. Basques in Spain have a more oppositional separatist identity vis-à-vis Spain. Why is that the case?
- 4.41** One of the reasons is that there's integration and modernization going on from the center outwards, but there's also integration and modernization happening to some degree in the peripheries. If those peripheries actually are modernizing and integrating, and the center is not, that might be a reason why the peripheries are developing local nationalism and the state is not.
- 4.42** Let's look at how this unfolds in France, and then we're going to move on to the postcolonial world or non-European world after we look at this paradigm case of France, which is a paradigm case of nation-building. It's worth saying that in the 19th century, a lot of the reports— and this comes from a famous book called *Peasants into Frenchmen* by Eugen Weber, which catalogues a lot of the historical evidence from France in the 19th century, where it really was the case that the further you got from Paris, the more culturally distinct France was.
- 4.43** One report is that a houseman visiting a district in southwest France found no road or landmark. They had to use a compass to find their way. So there was really poor integration with the capital. There was an awareness that you had what they called nations existing between Paris and the Loire Valley.
- 4.44** We have a map here of different language regions in France, from the Flemish regions in the north to Catalan areas, to the more Provençal and Languedoc- speaking south of France, and the Bretons in the northwest. You have these different language groups, groups sometimes with a separate political tradition, like the Corsicans, and you have to knit them together into a common national identity.
- 4.45** In the early 19th century, a quarter of the population—well, a quarter of communes spoke no French. Even by 1870, only half the population used French as their active

language. Instead, you had dialects: Breton, Flemish, Alsatian, Languedoc, Béarnais, and so on, which are not used much today.

- 4.46 The French state slowly succeeded in expanding the French-speaking zone from the 1830s onwards, through deliberate state action. This would be something that modernists would recognize as, "Yes, of course, it makes sense. The French state wanted taxpayers, it wanted conscripts. It needed to develop a sense of—it needed to remove people's other attachments and orient them towards France." So there was a political motivation to build up the strength of the French state and the wealth of the elites in the French state. That's an instrumental modernist motivation.
- 4.47 If we look at the historical evidence, they ran into a number of barriers. There was draft evasion, there was tax evasion within the peripheries of France, particularly in the south, to some degree in Brittany. But gradually, we see the spread of French, partly through the school system.
- 4.48 If you were in a French school in, for example, the Southwest, and you were speaking Béarnais or Basque, you would be punished in class, so you would have to have a brick on your desk, or you would be punished for speaking patois. You could only speak French. So there was this attempt to educate people into the French language, for that to become the dominant language and assimilate people into them. The education system was used as an instrument of nation-building.
- 4.49 For citizens on the periphery, they, too, could benefit from learning French because French was the language of social mobility. The dominant language is often language of social mobility, and so there's an incentive for people, in fact, to learn that dominant language. Actually, there's an economic incentive for people as well.
- 4.50 The public school system is expanding. By 1863, only a quarter of primary school children were not in public education. That represented a real success for the French state. With that public education, they could teach the common language, the common history, and that strengthened French national identity, which strengthened state capacity.
- 4.51 But then there's this question of, as the French state is pushing its influence out into the periphery, what are the local elites doing? Now, sometimes the local elites think, "This is an opportunity for my social mobility," but it can also be a threat. We see in the French case, however, that French is a very prestigious language worldwide. It has literature. And because of its prestige, that was very attractive to elites in the periphery.
- 4.52 There were attempts, however, by some provincial elites to create, for example, in Provence, in Southern France, to create a separate Provençal dictionary, Provençal literature, Provençal reading public. This is the route to creating resistance to assimilation from the center. It didn't work for the Provençal. It was somewhat more successful for the Bretons and Basques and Catalans. But still, we don't really see

necessarily strong nationalist movements, particularly in the 19th century, in these regions.

- 4.53** We might ask the question: Why is it that ultimately the Provençais were assimilated, whereas the Basques and Catalans, yes, they were assimilated, but not as much? The Corsicans, even less so. What is it that's distinct about, let's say, Corsica? Well, it's an island off the Coast of France. It also has a separate political tradition. Maybe that is why Corsica has a nationalist movement and Provence does not.
- 4.54** So this question of political memories, which is integral to the definition of nationhood, political aspiration, political traditions and memories. That's missing, arguably, from Brittany. It didn't really have a kingdom or constitution that it could look back to and say, "We had this political tradition, this kingdom. We ruled over ourselves. This is a powerful tradition that we can use to resist the encroachment of the French state."
- 4.55** There were other indicators of weak integration within the French state. So members of the bureaucracy or the French elite would go to the peripheries, and they would discover things that the peasants of Brittany didn't know when the French Revolution took place. So that is evidence a bit for the modernist argument that said, "People didn't have a sense of history, the way we understand history in this linear fashion of 1789, 1889. They didn't have that sense of the past." So the peasants in Brittany didn't know when events like the French Revolution took place. They just knew that they happened, quote, unquote, long ago. And that's an example then of this lack of a sense of national consciousness that existed amongst the peasantry.
- 4.56** There were, however, words and sayings that encoded historical events. The name for an old, worn-out thing was *Henri-Quatre*, Henry IV. So premodern individuals were encoded into sayings, but that doesn't mean—the peasants could use this term without knowing why the term originated. So they didn't have actually a historical consciousness. They were just using terms. Even though those terms did have historical origins, they didn't actually have a consciousness of the wars of religion, for example.
- 4.57** And there was also a weak degree of patriotism or willingness to be taxed in these outlying regions. And so you saw, again, draft dodging resistance to paying tax in a number of—well, certainly in the peripheral regions in the south of France.
- 4.58** However, by the time we get through the Third Republic, post-1870, into the late 19th century, it seems that nation-building has succeeded to a very great degree in France. Almost everybody understands French. Patois, dialects are used much less. Parents are keen to have their children schooled in French, and they see it as a vehicle of social mobility. It's seen as the language of modernity and learning and attempts to revive provincial dialects and to create alternative reading publics in provincial languages fail. It's simply too late. The masses want to read in French.
- 4.59** There's a point of no return when the calculus of social mobility and prestige—it really seems as though prestige is very important. If we think of a case like Wales, the

attempt to revive the Welsh language in Wales or the Irish language in Ireland, why would that be appealing to families? It could be appealing because they are sentimentally attached to the language. It's the language their parents spoke. That would be a more ethnosymbolist explanation. The modernist explanation would focus on career opportunities and economic mobility. And so unless you have economic mobility, in fact, it's going to be hard to revive that language.

- 4.60 Now, in the case of Wales, if you want a job in the Welsh bureaucracy, speaking Welsh is a big advantage. So that is an economic motive if you want to have a job in certain kinds of media. So maybe certain kinds of incentives will help spread Welsh. There's also this question of prestige. How prestigious is it to speak Welsh? Is it seen as a sign of backwardness or a sign of being high status? These are other factors that will play in whether a language expands or contracts.
- 4.61 The question of who assimilates and who doesn't is relevant in France. We saw assimilation happen more quickly amongst those who are in areas that spoke the northern dialects, the so-called *Langue d'oïl*, rather than the Southern dialects, *Languedoc*. So linguistic structure seems to play some role, but at the same time, it's also important to note that the Flemish-speaking regions and the Alsatian German-speaking regions didn't seem to offer as much resistance to assimilation as Brittany and the Catalan regions.
- 4.62 There are different theories here, again. The ethnosymbolist would say, "Culture matters; therefore, languages that are more distant, like Basque, are going to be harder to assimilate, or Breton, than Latin languages." Although in the case of Catalan, that is also a Latin language which doesn't seem to be so easy to assimilate. Maybe that was because there's a Catalan political tradition, possibly. In Spain, certainly, Catalan is like Spanish. Castilian is a Latin language, but there's a separate Catalan political tradition, which, perhaps with Aragón, which may mean that that offered some material to work with for Catalan nationalists to resist Castile.
- 4.63 Mass commemoration—the state also attempts to have large-scale events which can capture the public imagination and create a sense of emotional simultaneity in the population. The military parades, the tomb of the unknown soldier, the erection of monuments, obelisks, all of these things were happening, particularly in the late 19th century. Eric Hobsbawm draws a lot of attention to this. These are what he would call invented traditions. Others try and say that what occurs is some attempt to mimic religion. Nationalism is in some way a secular religion that is mimicking some of the festivals of religion. There is that school of thought as well.
- 4.64 The emphasis is upon spectacle military parades, large-scale celebrations like French Bastille Day. The numbers are very impressive. You would have tens, often hundreds of thousands of people attending. Everything decked out in flags. The press would report on this. What's also important is that provincial cities would have their own celebrations imitating in many ways that of the national celebration in the capital.

- 4.65 The national flag, national monuments, national anthem, a lot of these things actually came about in the 19th century, sometimes in many cases, well after the formation of the state. In France, for example, a lot of this emerges 100 years after the French Revolution. Then there is further development of this through monuments such as the Eiffel Tower or holding of World's Fairs, where national prestige can be enhanced.
- 4.66 This prestige element of nationalism—at its heart, what nationalism is about is making culture, politics, and territory congruent with each other. And when culture, politics, and territory drift apart or are not congruent, nationalism will try and push those together.
- 4.67 So, for example, if Italy sees itself as one culture area but is divided politically, or Germany in the early 19th century, reunification is about making culture and politics overlap. Northern Ireland, for Irish nationalists, was seen as "part of us that has been lost to the British, and we need to reunify that so the culture and the politics line up again." A big part of nationalism is either whether we're talking about secession or unification, it's about the congruence between culture and politics.
- 4.68 Likewise, if we're talking about even cultural nationalism, whether that be the revival of a language like Irish or Welsh, or whether it be opposition to immigration and ethnic change, these are both also related to this idea of making the culture line up with the politics. If it's becoming too disparate, if the culture is becoming too multiple compared to the politics, then there's a case there for a nationalist.
- 4.69 But it's also worth saying that the idea of trying to get congruence from culture, politics, and territory is only—it's most of nationalism, but it's not all of it. The other part of nationalism is about raising national prestige or overcoming national humiliation, for example, in war. Fascism was very much a response to the defeat of Germany in war and the humiliation of Versailles in the World War I peace settlement. Likewise, with Spain losing its empire, the rise of Franco is connected to the humiliation of the loss of the Spanish Empire due to wars with the Americans.
- 4.70 So national pride versus national humiliation is another dimension alongside this congruence issue. And so part of building national pride might be building national monuments. Now, it could also mean invading another country, having an empire. Okay, that's true. So we can see the operation of national pride today in China, recovering from humiliation. Russia wanting to invade Ukraine, arguably part of that is about national pride.
- 4.71 National monuments, the Eiffel Tower, 1889, was meant to essentially be a statement of French national pride to the world, announcing themselves to the world, holding a world's fair, but where your exhibit is particularly impressive. You can even have what's called techno-nationalism: being the first to put a man on the moon, having the fastest airplane, the tallest building—these are all expressions of national pride, which is a

somewhat different dimension than this idea of congruence, which has motivated a lot of nationalists.

- 4.72** Returning then to this idea of national integration, we have the commemoration such as Bastille Day in France or Sedan Day in Germany. In the English-speaking world, too. In the U.S., you have Declaration Day, Memorial Day, starting in 1868. Note, again, Independence, 1776, Memorial Day, not till 1868. Hobsbawm and others would claim that, therefore, what's going on is that this is an ideological influence, an ideological movement to invent traditions. The Fourth of July—the Fourth of July is an earlier origin.
- 4.73** If we look at the British Empire, particularly the settlement dominions such as Canada—Canada, where I'm from, in 1901, there was a Royal Tour. The Royal Tour would go through quite remote parts of Canada, and there would often be more people attending the tour than were citizens of the town. You had an astounding number of people watching this parade as the Royal Carriage went by. These were expressions of an imperial form of national identity.
- 4.74** Now, there has more recently been a school of thought that says that this idea that you had elites in the imperial capital, Paris, for example, Berlin, Washington, and they would just simply roll out this standardized national day across the country to the peripheries is a bit too reductive, that often the provincial elites played a big part in reinterpreting the national tradition.
- 4.75** In Hamburg, which is a coastal city with its own Hanseatic tradition, they would interpret Germanness as Germany as a naval power. That's the way German national identity was interpreted in Hamburg. That would be quite different from the way it was interpreted in Bavaria or the way it was interpreted in Western Germany. In Western Germany, which has an experience of being invaded by France, it was all about Germany as being a bulwark against France.
- 4.76** And so local histories were woven into national understandings and informed national understandings, according to this model. So the local doesn't completely get ironed out into this standardized national hymn sheet, but rather the local and the regional can inflect and refract national identity in their own way. So there is a local interpretation of nationhood going on.
- 4.77** But even so, in some cases, the regional really does see itself as apart from the nation. And so there is then a clash between the regional, say the Basques and Catalans in Spain, who do not see themselves as part of Franco-Spain; and therefore, cultivate a separate national identity.
- 4.78** So what determines whether a region simply has its own version of the national identity, which in some ways, strengthens national identity—in Britain, for example, Yorkshire and Cumbria and Dorset have versions of English national identity, but they

aren't challenging that national identity the way Scotland would. They have their own versions of national identity.

- 4.79 So sometimes you get the development of a separatist national identity, and sometimes you simply have a region which is content to be part of the nation, but in a different way. Sometimes there's a movement back and forth. The Basques, very keen participants in the Spanish Empire, saw themselves as part of the Spanish imperial project. The Scots, likewise part of the British Empire, very proud to be part of that project.
- 4.80 Perhaps the decline of the Spanish Empire, the decline of the British Empire, reduces the prestige of that identity and maybe makes the regional identity look more attractive compared to the national identity. Maybe the shifts in prestige are part of the reason why we get a change. So prestige does govern the direction of assimilation. Generally, less prestigious groups assimilate to more prestigious groups.
- 4.81 In Kenya, the less prestigious groups in the countryside are more likely to assimilate and become Kikuyu, which is the dominant ethnic group, the prestige ethnic group, than the other way around. That's arguably become less the case in the West post-1960s, which is a whole other discussion. We also see attempts at high pressure assimilation when you have states that gain territory through peace settlements or through military conquest. That's, of course, still going on today. If you think in China of Xinjiang with the Uyghurs or Tibet, the attempt to assimilate those particular regions.
- 4.82 There's this concept of nationalizing states, which Rogers Brubaker, Oliver Zimmer, and John Breuilly have written about. For example, after the dual monarchy in Austria-Hungary, Hungary gets control of the Eastern parts of the Empire, and they undergo what's called a majorization process, the attempt to turn citizens in the Eastern regions, whether they be Romanians or Slovaks, into good members of Hungary. Turkification, the attempt to assimilate members of the Ottoman Empire into Turkish identity. Russification, Tsarist Empire, trying to Russify to assimilate. You have this high-pressure assimilation.
- 4.83 In the United States, you had perhaps a version of this, not so much with conquered Indigenous minorities, but more with immigrant groups, what was known as 100% Americanism, Americanization in the early 20th century, because you want to create people whose primary loyalty is to the nation; loyalty to their own ethnic group, second.
- 4.84 With World War I, however, and the peace settlement in Versailles, what you had were the winners: Romania, Czechoslovakia, and Poland, who acquired territory from the losers, such as the Hungarians or the Germans. They, therefore, acquire these German and Hungarian minorities. What they want to do is make sure that those minorities do not have dual loyalties or that do not have loyalties to the country they used to belong to before the Treaty of Versailles.

- 4.85 So what you get is this high-pressure assimilation in the school system. In Poland, for example, German parents were not allowed to school their children in German. They had to go to Polish schools. Those who only spoke German were excluded from civil service jobs. You had a strict policy of monolingualism in public life.
- 4.86 We can see examples of this going on more recently in a place like Sri Lanka, which had this Sinhala-only policy in the Sri Lankan Civil War vis-à-vis the Tamils. So there's an emphasis on assimilation, high pressure, state-led assimilation. Arguably, something different from an attractive voluntary assimilation where aspirational people really do want to learn the dominant-group language because it's more prestigious.
- 4.87 Of course, France benefited to some degree from that. But in the case of Poland and Polish, which did not have the benefit of necessarily being a high prestige language, it would have to rely on more coercive measures in order to get assimilation. This is the nationalizing states that Brubaker talks about.
- 4.88 Moving outside the European world to the former colonial territories in the Middle East, sub-Saharan Africa, Asia, particularly Southeast Asia, the decolonization process results in states with clear boundaries and governing structures, also Western-educated elites who were often educated in London or Paris, who may have led the independent struggle or may have simply taken over, taken the reins of power. They've inherited states that are very often extremely diverse.
- 4.89 Sub-Saharan Africa, in particular, is the most ethnically diverse part of the planet, excluding Papua New Guinea, which is by far the most ethnically diverse. They then had to build a sense of common nationhood in the extremely diverse societies, somewhat artificial states that they had inherited. Places like Ghana, Congo, Nigeria, Ivory Coast, Indonesia, Kenya, Iraq, India.
- 4.90 What were the tools of nation-building? One tool would be to create a symbol of nationhood—a flag, first of all. Secondly, often a father of the nation who led the independence movement and attempted to memorialize the struggle. And so you have figures like Nkrumah, Kwame Nkrumah—Gandhi in India, Nkrumah in Ghana, Julius Nyerere in Tanzania, Mobutu in Congo, Nasser in Egypt.
- 4.91 The other thing that these postcolonial so-called nations, by design, sometimes did was they said, "Maybe we can gain some state legitimacy by invoking ourselves as advancing a particular ideology: non-aligned socialism, Pan-Arabism, Islamism." So Pakistan was ethnically diverse, but "Hey, we're all Muslims; we define ourselves by Islam." That would be one solution.
- 4.92 Iran eventually becomes also a nation that was based on Islamism. But then, Arabism in Syria. In Iraq, Pan-Arabism was a dominant ideology. In a number of African countries, Pan-Africanism was a dominant ideology. Pan-Africanism, socialism, these more universalist or at least supranational ideologies, combined with father figures,

combined with independence narratives, the hope was that this would provide enough glue to be the basis for nation-building.

- 4.93** However, the post-colonial state faces a lot of problems, problems which are in many ways more intractable than those faced by 19th-century France and Germany, for example. The first is that often there were very few premodern state-building traditions. You often had a weak degree of incorporation and a weak degree of integration within the territory because these were often poor countries in terms of Smith's triple revolution of politics, economics, and culture.
- 4.94** What was going on in terms of political incorporation? You didn't have good roads, railways and a telegraph network. You didn't necessarily have a highly literate population that was reading newspapers. The state capacity to tax and spend and build public projects was limited. Sometimes they didn't even have military control of the most mountainous areas. Myanmar, which, of course, has seen a lot of violent conflict, would be an example of this.
- 4.95** In terms of the economy, again, generally poor and largely rural. Sometimes the languages weren't standardized. In terms of culture, again, this idea of an official language that everybody speaks, maybe more successful in some countries than others.
- 4.96** Interestingly, the case of Tanzania and Julius Nyerere—Tanzania is a country where you have hundreds of different ethnic groups, but none of them is large enough to dominate. Whereas Kenya is a society where you have a number of large groups. Where you have a number of large groups, actually, there is often a greater risk of civil violence and civil war contestation for power. In the case of Tanzania, because they have so many groups, it became possible, actually, to get everyone oriented around Swahili as the national language. So there are some success stories. Tanzania has not experienced the kinds of ethnic civil wars or even the ethnic conflicts that we see in countries such as Nigeria and Kenya.
- 4.97** In other cases, some postcolonial states were more ethnically homogenous, like Botswana benefited from a high degree of ethnic homogeneity, and that helped in nation-building. Sometimes countries were relatively prosperous, particularly the Singapores of this world, countries that had better developed capitalist economies. That also made it more likely that they would have successful nation-building projects.
- 4.98** But this idea of state failure, of imperfect state authority, which is underpinned by a lack of common national identity, which we see in conflict regions from Ethiopia to Afghanistan to Iraq, that was not a problem that European countries—I mean, European countries didn't face it as acutely, but they did face it. For example, we saw in France that there was resistance to paying tax or being conscripted into the military. In Italy, there have been periods where you had local warlords operating.
- 4.99** One of the possible reasons why nation-building has been more successful in Europe than in the postcolonial world is simply because the centers were able to modernize

more quickly than the peripheries. When the peripheries are—when the center is actually not very well resourced, compared to the peripheries, then you can get modernization and integration happening in both the peripheries and in the center. That can make it less likely for the narrative of the center in its national identity to become the national narrative and make it more likely that you're going to get insurgencies.

- 4.100** I think there are certain times when civil war is more widespread, and there are more failed states. We have a few of them now. But when Iraq and Afghanistan were dominating the news, there were more questions around how to build a shared sense of national identity to implement peace in conflict regions.
- 4.101** So part of the issue around reducing violent—most of the violent conflict in the world is ethnic civil war. And one of the questions is how to build national identities to reduce the prevalence of ethnic civil war. So that's one debate in nationalism, which was perhaps more of something that was talked about more in the '90s and in the 2000s. Now, China, Russia, plus populism are more the topics that are talked about in nationalism. Those are certainly things that we will be talking about. These lectures are more about tracing through the history and looking at the question of state capacity and how to avoid insurgencies and rebel movements within states.
- 4.102** My question is: How important is nation-building, or how can nation-building be done to reduce failed states or regions which are in high distress?
- 4.103** Most of the wars in the world are, almost all of them are civil wars. Very few of them are wars between states. Russia and Ukraine are an exception to that, but there have only been a few of those since 1945. Almost all wars are like what we see in Ethiopia, Yemen and Myanmar, ethnic civil wars. Those ethnic civil wars are happening in countries that do not have a strong sense of national identity throughout the territory. There is a question of how you build national loyalty and national identity in territories that are multi-ethnic, where you may have many peripheries that are distant from the capital.
- 4.104** According to this lecture, you would have to have well-developed communications, infrastructure, roads, schools, literacy, common language, in order to, hopefully, deliver the benefits, certainly economic benefits to these peripheries, but also to make it prestigious for people in the periphery to learn the national language and therefore to become more attached to the nation state than to their region.
- 4.105** It's not so simple. Once the genie is out of the bottle and there are myths and memories of war against the center, which can form the basis of subaltern peripheral national identities, then that creates a memory, and it creates the basis for mobilization in the future. So one of the best predictions of whether a civil war will break out in a particular place is whether that place has been involved in civil war in the past.

- 4.106** The Tamils in Sri Lanka, there is a chance that they will rebel again because they were defeated. They have memories of being defeated, bad memories of being defeated. It's possible that that then becomes the basis for secession in the future. Some nationalists will revive that and try and make that the basis for secession. The states have to do the best they can, have to deliver benefits to the population as best they can, have to create an appealing, prestigious national identity the best they can. That's probably all they can do. Even that's not a guarantee that they won't get secessionist movements.
- 4.107** But if there is secession, then there are ways to deal with that. Perhaps you could say, "Okay, we'll let you have autonomy but not independence. Let's at least make this about voting rather than guns and bombs." But that's a whole other topic, which is really about ethnic conflict management. That's related to nation-building, but it's a separate area of investigation.
- 4.108** You touched on it before, but if there's fragmentation, there's a higher chance of conflicts—we're in England right now, and we celebrate other cultures, which is great. There's a lot of benefits to that. But if the country isn't promoting its own national story and we risk fragmenting, is that—do you think it's a duty of the government or the people that live here to focus on their own culture as well?
- 4.109** A lot of what I'm talking about are native peripheral ethnic minority movements and how to incorporate them. In Britain and many other Western countries, a lot of what is now being talked about is how to incorporate immigrant-origin minorities who don't have myths of common ancestry tying themselves to this country, but to another country. And yes, it would be a version of the same problem that you need to create a sense of common national identity.
- 4.110** Now, the solution sometimes is if we allow—the solution has been, "If we have multiculturalism, minorities will feel at home because they can celebrate their own culture, and therefore, they won't feel threatened, and they'll still feel a part of the country." Of course, the problem with that is that the ethnic majority can sometimes say, "Wait a minute, you've thinned out the content of the national identity, so it's not offensive to minority groups. But that's our heritage that you're thinning away, and that's therefore offensive to us."
- 4.111** So, actually, what we're now seeing is actually majority ethnic groups in many Western countries driving nationalism. It's not coming from disgruntled minorities. If we were to look at what's happening in, I don't know, Sri Lanka, disgruntled Tamils vis-à-vis the Sinhalese, most civil wars and nationalist movements that involve violence involve a minority. But in this case, what we're talking about are actually dominant groups of majorities who have grievances. Yeah, one of the risks, of course—
- 4.112** And then there's the secondary aspect, which is: Is emphasizing difference to immigrants going to make them feel more connected to the dominant tradition? And it's a tough one because on the one hand, if you say, "No, you've all got to sing from

this one hymn sheet, that can be off-putting. But on the other hand, there's going to be a variation; some immigrants are actually going to want that. They're actually going to say, "No, tell us, give us the hymn sheet." Others will say, "No, we want to keep our culture. We want to have minimal, to have a more civic attachment to the country based on obeying the law and paying tax."

- 4.113** There's going to be a range of views. But yeah, I think this is one of the most important debates currently within the field of nationalism, studies which concerns, again, immigrant—what's known as secondary ethnic groups rather than indigenous ethnic groups. These secondary ethnic groups come as a result of migration. How to incorporate them, how to keep both the minorities happy, but also increasingly the majorities happy. This is one of the big dilemmas of our time.
- 4.114** We learned the reasons why states or nations fail, and we heard there are ways that we can bring them back together. But my question is: who needs to act? Is it inside out? Is it outside in? Does it need to be other nations around to call the threat, so the nation in the middle is focusing on themselves instead of fighting each other inside? Who's in charge?
- 4.115** Well, this is really difficult. This question of how to gain acceptance. Sometimes it's about the largest group being magnanimous and saying, "You don't have to learn the national language," or "You can teach in your own language. You, Quebec, can have French as the language of business to mollify the separatists," and maybe that will work. It seems like in Quebec, for example, they've been able to have a French society. They feel more securely able to have that society. The support for separatism has gone from roughly 50% to the low 30%. Now, it's got very close. It was within one percentage point of the separatists winning in the mid-1990s.
- 4.116** To some degree, is that happening in Scotland, too, by giving autonomy, a certain amount of power, through the Scottish Parliament? The modernist view might say that that gives the nationalists a platform to say, "Hey, we're managing our own affairs to disseminate nationalist propaganda," and to say, "Now we can secede." The other view is that if you didn't give them a parliament, then you would actually increase the grievance and say, "We're being governed without representation. We have no capacity to govern ourselves. We've got to secede." They're two different views.
- 4.117** In some ways, the modernist view would say that if you give a parliament, that'll be an institution which will be a platform for separation. The more ethnosymbolist view might say that by giving a parliament, you are addressing grievances and reducing cultural antipathy, identity antipathy, and therefore you might get less separatist activity.
- 4.118** I think the jury is still out on those two theories as they apply. But it's just to say that there are different techniques that are used clearly. Treating minorities well, having a healthy economy, having a prestigious culture, all of those things will help.

- 4.119 It's worth saying one other thing, at least in the West, the rise of egalitarianism, that in a way, being a weak or peripheral minority, which used to be shameful, is arguably now prestigious. That has actually given a lot of oxygen to minorities. Minority movements have all drawn on that paradigm of the virtuous minority. That has certainly made it cooler to be Welsh, to be Québécois, in a way more prestigious. That's probably helped nationalism.
- 4.120 So we see in the West a lot of national separatisms. Where they occur, they're occurring from the 1960s onwards to a large extent. I think one of the reasons for that is because the direction of prestige has moved away from majorities towards minorities. It's no longer so shameful to be a peripheral minority. It's in some ways got a cachet to it. That's actually played a role in spurring secessionist movements in the West.

Lecture 5: Ethnic Diversity

At a glance — Ethnic diversity and multi-ethnic states.

- 5.1 Welcome, everybody. Today, we're going to be talking about multi-ethnic states, this idea of multi-ethnicity in the world's countries. Thus far in the course, I've talked about the origin of ethnic groups. I've talked about the definition of a state.
- 5.2 Ethnicity is really more about communities believing themselves to be descendants from common ancestors, the state, a political territorial unit. The nation is borrowing some elements from both: the territoriality from the state and concepts of history and memory from the ethnic group.
- 5.3 Now that we've got these building blocks of ethnic group, nation, and state, we want to ask how these things start to fit together because they're not the same thing, even though they influence each other. We'll see that ethnic group and state influence the nation and national identity, but we'll see that nations can be multi-ethnic, states can be multinational. So we're going to try and make sense of what we see in the world today in terms of multi-ethnicity within the world's states.
- 5.4 I want to begin by introducing a distinction between two types of ethnic group, what we might call primary—and this is coming from E. K. Francis's typology in the 1970s—primary and secondary. Primary is the indigenous or native ethnic groups who consider themselves native to a territory that they inhabit. English in England, the Māori in New Zealand, the Zulus in KwaZulu-Natal, the Malays in Malaysia—that is what we would call, or what Francis would call, a primary ethnic group or a native or indigenous ethnic group.
- 5.5 Then we have the secondary ethnic groups who consider themselves to be indigenous to somewhere else. Typically, immigrant groups: British-Pakistani, Irish-American, overseas Chinese in Indonesia. Now, of course, over time, with enough time, some secondary ethnic groups indigenize and become primary with enough time. The Ulster protestants, perhaps, of Northern Ireland would be one example of that process. Perhaps the Afrikaners in South Africa would be another example of that process.
- 5.6 Primary and secondary ethnicity, however, are quite useful distinctions. Almost every ethnic civil war will involve a primary or indigenous ethnic group only. Almost every secessionist movement. Immigrant-origin, secondary ethnic groups don't typically get involved in making territorial claims in the land that they are living because they don't see themselves as indigenous to that land. Therefore, why would they be making a claim to secede violently, for example? You're not going to generally see immigrant-origin, secondary diaspora ethnic groups engaging in violent secession, for example.
- 5.7 If we think about states, they contain one or more ethnic groups, and we'll see that very few states in the world, less than 9% are monoethnic. Almost every state in the

world has more than one ethnic group in its citizenry. There may be the odd small island state like the Pitcairn Islands, maybe, which is monoethnic, but very few. Typically, you will have multiple ethnic groups within one particular state. We're going to want to ask a number of questions.

- 5.8 One, does that mean those ethnic minorities are members of the nation as distinct from the state, members of the nation or not? When I say nation, also as distinct from the ethnic majority or dominant ethnic group in a particular state.
- 5.9 Now, there are different configurations of multi-ethnicity. You can have primary ethnic groups, a number of primary ethnic groups, so what we might call native multi-ethnicity. If you think of the Indonesian archipelago, you have different islands, you've got Bali, you have Java, you have West Papua, and you have these different islands which have different ethnic makeups. These typically are Indigenous native ethnic groups.
- 5.10 Or in Myanmar, groups which consider themselves to be native to the territory—Shan, for example, the Mon, these different groups in the hills in Myanmar would consider themselves Indigenous. So Myanmar is a multi-ethnic state, but that multi-ethnicity is almost entirely indigenous diversity.
- 5.11 That's true of almost all multi-ethnicity in the world. Most multi-ethnicity is primary Indigenous diversity. Sub-Saharan Africa, highly diverse countries, very little of that is immigration. A small amount, particularly in places like South Africa, yes, but generally, multi-ethnicity is connected to primary or native ethnic diversity, which then, of course, raises the question of why some countries have more native ethnic diversity than others, which we will get to.
- 5.12 I want to now bring the nation in. We've talked about state, ethnicity, states being multi-ethnic. Now we're going to talk about the nation, which, as we've seen from prior lectures, has some elements from the state, some elements from ethnicity, all of which are integrated into a modern community of shared territory, history, and civic culture. That's what a nation is. And so a state can have more than one nation, not just more than one ethnic group, but more than one nation. Britain has a Welsh nation, an English nation, a Scottish nation. Northern Ireland has two competing conceptions of nation, British and Irish, going on, tied to different groups.
- 5.13 Basically, if we think about the relationship then between ethnicity, which is a group attached to a particular conception of homeland that identifies on the basis of shared ancestry that's demarcated by particular cultural markers like religion, language, sometimes skin color, that's ethnicity and ethnic group. An ethnic group can be a nation; it can be a state.
- 5.14 The Japanese are an ethnic group. Japan is a nation. Japan is a state. Now, in the case of the British Isles, the dominant national community is English, making up roughly 85% of the total population. Within that 85% English, three-quarters, or thereabouts, would

be—maybe 70% by now, is made up of ethnic English people. Then you have other ethnic groups within England: Irish, Eastern European, as well as Pakistani Sikh and various other more postwar migrant groups for the most part.

- 5.15** You can have a group that can be both ethnic and national. If you take Wales, an example of Wales, Wales is a nation. It is not a state. It's a sub-state nation within the United Kingdom. Within Wales, roughly half the population would consider themselves ethnically Welsh, descended from the original Celtic Welsh population. So Welsh is an ethnic identity. It is also a national identity. So if your ancestors in Wales—many people in Wales have English or Irish ancestry, but they would identify as Welsh by national identity. So a group can be both ethnic and national.
- 5.16** A group can be ethnic but not national. I talked about that when I talked about the origins of ethnic groups. The diaspora Jews, prior to the creation of the state of Israel, were an ethnic group, not a nation, because they didn't occupy a historic territory, and they didn't have that community of territory and history that they identify with.
- 5.17** We get to multi-ethnic states just to talk a little bit about multi-ethnic states. The USSR, and even the Russian Federation, is also a multi-ethnic state in the sense that ethnic Russians make up 80% of Russia. In the old Soviet Union, they made up 50% of the population. So present-day Russia is considerably more ethnically homogenous than the former Soviet Union, which makes sense because you had the breakup of that multi-ethnic state, and therefore it became less multi-ethnic if we just talk about the boundaries of Russia.
- 5.18** But even within Russia, we have, for example, the Caucasus region with Chechnya and Dagestan and a series of minorities there, as well as immigrants from Central Asia. You have minorities in the Far East of Russia, Mongols, for example. You have a number of different ethnic minorities in Russia making up, let's say, roughly 20% of the population. Russia is a multi-ethnic state. In fact, in the world, we'll see that most states are multi-ethnic. Actually, it makes more sense to talk about how multi-ethnic states are, not whether states are multi-ethnic or not.
- 5.19** What do we know then about the ethnic composition of the world's approximately 200 countries? There have been a number of studies. They tend to exclude small island states, so they focus on around 150 to 155 of the world's countries. In 1972, a survey of 132 countries found that 9% were ethnically homogenous.
- 5.20** But if we take the 91% that were not ethnically homogenous, that is that were multi-ethnic states, in the majority of those places, ethnic minorities accounted for less than 50% of the population. In other words, in 70% of the world's states, there is an ethnic majority that makes up at least 50% of the population, a country like France, for example.
- 5.21** Of course, there are different levels. Ninety percent plus, made up of one ethnic group — that's Japan, Portugal, Ireland, probably until recently, was in this category. Next

level down, a little bit less homogenous—a place like Germany, France. Then you have states where you might have a plurality group—Iran with the Persians, Afghanistan with the Pashtuns, a group that's around 40 to 50%, perhaps, of the total population.

- 5.22** One of the points of this study is to show that there are very few states in the world that are monoethnic, that have no ethnic minorities. But also, most states in the world have a dominant ethnic group that makes up 50% of the population or more. And especially if we go down to an ethnic plurality of at least 40%, that's now 8 in 10 of the world's countries. And even if you take a country like Kenya, which is very highly multi-ethnic, even in Kenya, you have an influential dominant ethnic group, which might be a minority like the Kikuyu. So dominant ethnicity is a feature of almost all nations in the world.
- 5.23** This is one of the points that Anthony Smith and the ethnosymbolists make, that there is a connection between the dominant ethnic group in a country and the national identity, between dominant ethnicity and national identity. One of the questions we might ask, of course, is, can you have a society or a country that does not have an ethnic majority or even an ethnic plurality of, let's say, 40% of the population? There are some countries like that—Syria, Liberia, Tanzania. There are some countries that fit this description, and we want to talk about that in this lecture as well.
- 5.24** How then do we get a situation where Japan and Vietnam, and, I don't know, Poland are ethnically very homogenous with very few minorities, and yet there are other societies like Tanzania, Syria and Lebanon that are incredibly multi-ethnic? What is it that explains how this happened in history? There have been some studies of this more recently, which I'm going to get to in the next few slides.
- 5.25** One of the arguments is that—an ethnosymbolist would tend to emphasize this—that areas that were on a historic frontier between major religions, Islam and Christianity, the Caucasus region that connects present-day Turkey and Central Asia to Russia, that's a highly mountainous—it's a couple of things about this area: it's highly mountainous, and it's also a barrier between Islam and Christendom. Actually, that's not coincidental because actually when you have physical barriers, that often is a barrier to culture flow. And so often there is this divide between religions in an area that's very rugged.
- 5.26** There's two things going on in the Caucasus. One is the ruggedness of the terrain. The second is this historic position on the boundary line between Christendom and Islam. This is coincidentally a place where we have not only a number of different societies that have their own nation. Turkey—Muslim, Armenia—Christian, Azerbaijan— Muslim, Georgia—Christian, Russian Federation—Christian. But then, if you look in the Caucasus mountains, we have a number of Muslim minorities—Chechens, Circassians. And we have a range of different groups—Dagestanis, South Ossetians, North Ossetians.
- 5.27** So we have a number of groups here. Partly this is because of the historic Islam-Christian frontier, partly because of the ruggedness of the terrain. There is also the

question of trade routes. The Levant, Syria, Lebanon, which is an area of high diversity, is a historic trade route. The Silk Road from China to Europe running through Afghanistan. Afghanistan has high ethnic diversity. Pakistan has high ethnic diversity. So ruggedness of terrain, trade routes, historic divisions between religious realms.

- 5.28** Now, these are all elements that Anthony Smith and the ethnosymbolists would point to as important in the formation of premodern ethnicity. Whereas modernist explanations would put more emphasis on factors such as the presence of resources. If there's oil somewhere, there will be a motive for local rulers to want to break away to get that oil or diamonds or resources. So secession might be motivated by the presence of lootable resources like oil or diamonds.
- 5.29** In addition, perhaps modernists would argue that rugged terrain simply practically makes it harder for a central state to assert its authority in an area. So, in a mountainous area, it's easier to rebel, to hide, it's harder to control, and therefore, it's more likely that you're going to have different—it's simply easier to mount a secession and to counterstate power from those regions. So that's perhaps more of a political-economic explanation for why you might have diversity in these zones.
- 5.30** One of the measures that social scientists use to measure—sorry, one of the tools social scientists use to measure ethnic diversity is something called the Ethnic Fractionalization Index. The Ethnic Fractionalization Index is a measure of diversity within a country that says: If you take two random individuals from a country, what is the chance that they are going to be members of different ethnic groups?
- 5.31** The index runs from zero to one. Zero is, if you can imagine, in Japan or a very homogenous country, the chance is almost zero that two individuals will be random individuals, plucked from that country, will be members of different ethnic groups. Whereas at the other end of the scale, in Tanzania, Papua New Guinea, the chance of members, two random individuals being members of different ethnic groups is very high. It's above 0.75, pushing towards 1—the highest score on the Ethnic Fractionalization Index or Ethnolinguistic Fractionalization Index; there are different measures that are used.
- 5.32** If you look at a world map, you can see the regions that have high ethno-linguistic diversity. First among them, sub-Saharan Africa. Second, Southeast Asia. Third, to some degree, Central Asia, down to Pakistan. Certain regions of the world—now, I mentioned already the Levant, Syria, Lebanon. It's very hard to see because they're small countries on a map. Those would also be regions of high diversity.
- 5.33** Now, you have countries that have a certain amount of immigrant diversity, like Canada, for example. It also has a language—linguistic diversity between French and English, so that would score higher. Some of the countries in the Caribbean and in tropical Latin America— Colombia down the West Coast, Peru, these are societies that

would have a higher Amerindian share, some African share as well, not as much of an ethnic majority.

- 5.34** Another measure is: What is the share of a country's population made up of the ethnic majority? I mentioned that 70% of the world's countries have an ethnic majority of 50% or more, 80% have an ethnic majority or an ethnic plurality of 40% or more. We can look at the map, the same map of the world. It looks more or less like an inverse of the ethno-linguistic fractionalization map.
- 5.35** We have countries like China and Norway or Denmark that would have a relatively high percentage of the population belonging to the dominant ethnic group and a small proportion of minorities. Then, at the other end, we would have countries in sub-Saharan Africa and Southeast Asia that would have typically the ethnic majority at less than 50%.
- 5.36** It's worth saying that these are not exactly the same measure because you can have two types of ethnic diversity. You can have a situation like Tanzania with lots of different ethnic groups and no ethnic majority. Or you can have a country like Kenya, where you have a smaller number of ethnic groups, but also a very small proportion of the population as members of the ethnic majority. So Tanzania is more ethnically fractionalized than Kenya, even if the ethnic majority share is not that different. So these measures are not exactly the same, but in practice, in fact, they're highly related to each other.
- 5.37** So we have this measure of ethnic fractionalization. And in fact, one of these studies—well, a number of studies show that this measure is important in predicting certain kinds of outcomes. So countries with a high ethno-linguistic fractionalization index have been shown to have lower GDP per capita than countries that are more homogenous. Now, we can debate why that is. Where's the cause? Where's the effect?
- 5.38** Some people have argued that high ethno-linguistic fractionalization makes it harder for countries to provide useful public goods because no one can agree where the school or the hospital should go, because ethnic groups are fighting over who gets the hospital, and therefore nothing gets built and it's harder to cooperate. Now, others would make the case that, actually, the relationship is the reverse in sub-Saharan Africa. We haven't seen a lot of modernization in nation-building. Therefore, we haven't seen a lot of assimilation. What we are finding is that as the cities are growing, there's more assimilation into a smaller number of units. So ethnic fractionalization in Africa is declining with modernization. So we have a debate there about cause and effect.
- 5.39** Why are certain states more diverse? If we look at the case of Africa, and particularly sub-Saharan Africa, one explanation is that the colonizers drew boundaries that cut through ethnic groups. These are artificial states. Now, that's part of the story. If you look at a lot of the lines on the African map, they are straight. Clearly, they are not

drawn with respect to ethnic boundaries. In Europe, you could argue, yes, the lines are somewhat straight, but they are perhaps a little more bendy.

- 5.40 In terms of drawing those colonial boundaries, in some cases, ethnicity was taken into account. If you look at Rwanda and its boundaries to neighboring countries, they are not straight. That was partly due to colonial administrators wanting to take into account ethnic morphology. In other cases, the boundaries really are straight. The size of the states in Africa tends to be quite large, which would also mean more diversity within those state boundaries. Sudan encompassing a Muslim somewhat Arab north and a more animist south, for example. Now, there's been a secession. South Sudan is now a separate country. But that's an example of where perhaps colonial administrators created these somewhat artificial states that were not organically growing out of dominant ethnic groups. Therefore, they're more heterogeneous.
- 5.41 But even within Africa, we have the difference between relatively homogenous Botswana, for example, and very heterogeneous Tanzania and Nigeria. All were colonies. Why is there this difference? Some writers, like Stelios Michalopoulos have looked at this in more depth and argue that ethnic diversity is highly correlated with ecosystem diversity.
- 5.42 This is more of a primordialist or ethnosymbolist explanation. That is, the more different ecosystems in terms of ruggedness of terrain, the differences between high and low points, forests, savannahs, deserts— the differences in ecosystem, the higher they are, the more different groups occupying different ecological niches in premodernity there were. And this gave rise to different sorts of cultures, which gave rise to more ethnic diversity. So that is one argument.
- 5.43 Nathan Nunn at Harvard made the argument that African states, particularly in the West, that had a lot of slave trading, the slave trade tended to make it difficult for states and empires to take root that were stable, and that led to more fracturing of power, less centralizing of power, and the legacy of that is more ethnic diversity. This is, arguably, another ethnosymbolic explanation going into the premodern past.
- 5.44 Then there is the more modernist explanation of saying, "When was the modern state founded, a particularly post-colonial state?" In a way, the fact that these states tended to be new, dating from the '50s and '60s or even '70s, means they haven't had time to integrate their populations into a common national identity, which may tend to reduce ethnic diversity.
- 5.45 The last factor I'll mention as an ethnosymbolist explanation is the age of the precolonial state. The older that precolonial state is, the more time to assimilate populations into a common identity, which would tend to reduce ethnic diversity.
- 5.46 One of the correlations that we see is that countries that have an older ethnic majority, that is, an ethnic majority group that expressed a self-consciousness at an earlier point in human history—I mentioned Greece, Israel with the Jews, Iran with the Persians,

China with the Han, Georgia, Indonesia with the Javanese, these are places that have a very old ethnic founding group. Similarly, Arab countries—the Arabs are a relatively old group. French, Armen, Japanese, Koreans, these are relatively old ethnic groups.

5.47 In general, there's no hard and fast rule here, but it seems as though the states that have an ethnic group, ethnic founding group, or dominant ethnic group that is very old, tend to be less diverse than those that have a relatively new ethnic founding group. A place like Papua New Guinea would be the extreme example of that. That is a more ethnosymbolist explanation.

5.48 The argument there is that if you have an old ethnic group, it tends to have some prestige attached to it. It will tend to have assimilated groups over history around it and tend to have founded a state. That will mean that it will be more homogenous than a relatively, quote unquote, new place with ethnic groups that have come to consciousness more recently, that haven't had time to assimilate those around them, and therefore, they will be less homogenous. There is actually a statistical relationship between them.

5.49 Modernists, however, unlike ethnosymbolists, would place the emphasis then on the age of the ethnic founding group, age and prestige of the ethnic founding group, as the factor that will influence how diverse a present-day country is. Modernists would say, "No, it's actually the age of the state. How long has the modern state been operating?" The older the modern state, the more time it's had to engage in all of those nation-building things I talked about last time: schools, maps, conscription, bureaucratization, road building, all of the things that might knit together a population across lines of region, village, dialect. They haven't had the time to do that, and therefore, these countries are more diverse.

5.50 Some of the regions of the world would include the same old culprits: Papua New Guinea, parts of sub-Saharan Africa, particularly Southern Africa, and a line of states from Turkey up through Ukraine to the Baltic. And indeed, we see that the most homogenous countries seem to be those where ethnic majorities were founded in the medieval period, particularly the early medieval period, that is. That's true for Indochina, places like Vietnam. It's true for Korea. It's true of Arab states that are more homogenous, and it's true of places like France and England.

5.51 But there's something about sub-Saharan Africa, even when you account for the age of the ethnic founding group, the fact it's a postcolonial state, GDP per capita, a whole bunch of other things— there still seems to be something about sub-Saharan Africa that is associated with higher ethnic fractionalization. So there is something independent there going on.

5.52 In terms of testing all of these explanations, one of the research projects I did quite a few years ago was to look at the world's countries and look across a range of different characteristics of those countries. What is the highest geographic? How mountainous

are they from the highest to the lowest point? What's the difference between the highest and the lowest point? When was the dominant ethnic group founded? When was the modern state founded? There are a couple of other factors. What is the context in which the state was formed? Was it formed through separation?

- 5.53** Countries that are formed through separation typically are formed on the basis of ethnicity and tend to be more homogenous, as opposed to countries that were empires that have become modern nation-states. Those tend to be more diverse. If we look at a statistical analysis, we see that measures of geographic diversity, such as more mountainous countries, tend to be more ethnically diverse. Countries that have newer ethnic groups, that is, the ethnic founding group tends to be founded more recently, tend to be more diverse. Countries where the state was founded more recently, and that is, of course, the postcolonial parts of the world, tend to be more diverse. Countries in sub-Saharan Africa tend to be more diverse. Those are some of the factors that are important.
- 5.54** If we look at a broader statistical analysis—and Michaelopolis has done a lot of this work— you can look in more depth at some of the geo-climatic factors. So standard deviation of mean agricultural suitability, what does that mean? That's talking about different kinds of ecosystem within a particular country. The higher the standard deviation of agricultural types, the higher the standard deviation of mean elevation, the greater the ethnic diversity in a country. Even when you control for GDP per capita, for example, democracy score, founding date of the state, founding date of the ethnic majority, even with controlling all of that, these geo-climatic factors are really important.
- 5.55** And that speaks possibly to a more primordialist explanation that suggests that very geographically isolated ecosystems developed separate cultures with separate characteristics. Perhaps with modernity, some of those amalgamated.
- 5.56** Maybe in the Caucasus, you might have had a thousand tiny groups that maybe have amalgamated into 20 or 30 major groups or 10 major groups. But still, there's going to be more groups there than in North Africa, which is just a desert, and there's very little ecosystem diversity. Yes, there are mountains, but basically a lot of it is desert. So you're going to have a high homogeneity in the Arab lands, particularly of North Africa. Yes, there are Berbers as well as Arabs, but it's not going to be as diverse as Papua New Guinea or Congo, for example.
- 5.57** Ethnic nationalism, this idea that if your country was formed through ethnic separatism, then you're more likely to be homogenous than if you were an empire that somehow was converted into a nation-state. But even with all of those controls, sub-Saharan Africa remains a place that has astoundingly high ethnic diversity, even when we take into account GDP per capita and other measures.

- 5.58 Now, there are some indicators here of modernist explanation. So oil-producing countries like Nigeria, oil output per capita is correlated with higher ethnic diversity. And a modernist instrumentalist type explanation would say, "That's because there's an incentive to secede to capture those resources." So that would be a more materialist explanation for high diversity. And perhaps one example of that might be the Ijaw movement in Nigeria, which is around an oil-producing regions. So there is some importance behind some of these more instrumental motivations for high diversity.
- 5.59 There is also a question, though, around the success of the modern nation-state in assimilating peripheral groups and extending its control to the periphery. This question of how well-integrated a state is through capitalism, through bureaucracies, through linguistic standardization and bureaucratization, mass conscription, and so forth, will also be important. States where the center is very advanced and engages in modernization early, is more likely—those kinds of states are more likely to be homogenous.
- 5.60 There's also another factor, which is the idea of nationalism, emerging first with Rousseau and the French Revolution. It spreads around the world to the extent that this then animates peripheral minorities at the same time as the center. It can be a spur to secession. So this idea of national self-determination of peoples— I mentioned, when I talked about nation-building, there's this race between the center, the capital, to extend its control over the state and to spread national identity through the school system, through the bureaucracy and the military and so on.
- 5.61 Then you have the peripheries, which are, to some degree, also modernizing and developing consciousness and resisting the modernizing process of the state. Modernization also means education, but education can also mean encountering ideas such as nationalism and therefore stimulating secession on the periphery. Modernization can actually stimulate ideas of separatism as well as leading to homogenization. Again, it's this race between, if these ideas are spreading to peripheral intellectuals, let's say in Myanmar or in the Caucasus or in, for example, the Slavic lands of the Austro-Hungarian Empire, if those ideas are spreading there as well as to the imperial corps, then they're going to actually stimulate secession as well.
- 5.62 The other thing modernization does is it tends to transform, particularly territorialized, primary ethnic groups into nations. You have an ethnic group that encounters ideas of nationalism, saying, "You should be self-determining. A true people should have its own state." You encounter those ideas, and then that converts you from a group that might have been happy to be part of an empire to say, "Actually, no, we Basques and Catalans, we must be independent." "We, Czechs, must be independent of the Austro-Hungarian Empire." That then converts territorialised primary ethnic groups into nations.
- 5.63 Now, what that can mean is you get a multinational state. I mentioned Britain, Wales, territorial, Scotland, territorial, ethnically different, creates a new nation. What do we

mean? I've been talking about multi-ethnicity, multi-ethnic states. I now want to talk about multi-national states.

- 5.64** The United States is not a multinational state, actually. Hawaii is the only potential nation in the United States, a separate nation, but it's not actually got a powerful nationalist movement. It has a Hawaiian identity movement, but as far as separatism, that's not particularly strong. We wouldn't think ordinarily of the U.S. as a multinational state. We would think of Britain as a multinational state.
- 5.65** And so there's this question of how states handle different nations within themselves. One tool is federalism, in the UK, devolution. So a Scottish Parliament, Welsh Assembly, that would be an example of devolving some power to the federal units. Britain is not a federation with formal federalism, where you would have something like an upper house made up of Welsh and Scottish, and English, and Northern Irish representatives. So there isn't actually a formal federalism, but there is a certain amount of devolution of power that recognizes that citizens are not completely uniform. They are members of different nations, and that is somewhat recognized within Britain. In the Constitution, not so much, but to some degree with devolution.
- 5.66** So with multinational states, it raises this question of how the state should identify itself, how it should manage multinationality. And of course, it raises the possibility that nations might secede from the state. So Scottish separatism, Quebec separatism. With multi-ethnicity, there's a question mark, and that is: What is the relationship between multi-ethnicity within a state and ethnic conflict, particularly violent ethnic conflict?
- 5.67** So ethnic difference can be resolved in different ways. I mean, one way is through violent secession, as in the Chechen war, for example, in Russia, Chechens trying to secede. In other cases, it can be resolved through the democratic process, where you have a multi-ethnic democracy and ethnic grievances find a political route. It can be expressed politically rather than through violence. But this question of the ethnic morphology, the ethnic fractionalization of a society, is: Are societies with higher ethnic fractionalization more likely to have ethnic civil war?
- 5.68** The findings on this are mixed, I would say. I would say some would argue no, others would argue yes. I think there has been a finding that where you have two or three very large groups in a country, that are of equal size, you're more likely to get ethnic violence than in a society where you have hundreds of small groups like Tanzania. So Kenya is more at risk of ethnic violence than Tanzania for the reason that you have a number of large ethnic coalitions that can vie for power within a society.
- 5.69** But even with a highly multi-ethnic society like Nigeria, for example, if those ethnic groups then aggregate into large chunks like the Muslim North, Christian South, that can be the basis for violence. Also, if we get down to the state level or the local level, yes, you might have 100 ethnic groups in your country, and that might not matter for national elections. But when you get down to local elections or state elections, you may

only have two or three major ethnic groups in a locality in a state. And so you can get those same ethnic polarizing dynamics that you might get in a country like Kenya.

- 5.70** There is an issue around multi-ethnicity and a connection to ethnic civil war. It's not the main factor in ethnic civil war, but there is a connection there that's worth being aware of. The aim, of course, is always to get that multi-ethnicity to express itself democratically and politically rather than violently.
- 5.71** Another question we might ask is: In a highly multi-ethnic society, does politics, especially democratic politics, take the form of ethnic politics and ethnic parties? In South Africa, for example, Whites, Cape Coloureds, and Asians will vote for the liberal party, whereas Zulus would be more—Inkatha, will only be supported by Zulus. The ANC has support, but generally only from African ethnic groups and not from non-African groups. So there's a degree of ethnic voting, which is reaching, which is more—you will tend to get ethnic politics more in a society that is highly multi-ethnic.
- 5.72** In Britain, Northern Ireland is a place that shows where you have an ethnic voting pattern. Those from the Irish Catholic population will tend to vote for Sinn Féin or the SDLP. Those from the British Unionist population will tend to vote for the Democratic Unionist Party or the Ulster Unionist Party. So politics in Northern Ireland does not run along the lines of Labour, Liberal, or Conservative. It runs along the lines of Nationalist, Unionist. That's an example of where if ethnicity is salient, then democratic politics tend to run more along ethnic lines than along ideological lines of, say, liberal, conservative.
- 5.73** We've talked about multi-ethnic states. We've talked about multi-national states. I now want to talk about multi-ethnic nations. We're now looking at ethnicity and national identity and how they interact. Even if we took a nation like England or Wales—let's take Scotland, let's take Scotland as a nation.
- 5.74** Now, within Scotland, you have not just ethnic Scots who might be 85% of the population. You have some English people there who are ethnically English. You have some ethnically Irish people there, a considerable number of them. You have people of Pakistani origin there, including a number of prominent politicians. So Scotland is a multi-ethnic nation within Britain, which is a multinational state.
- 5.75** England is also a multi-ethnic nation. There are people who identify as English, whose ancestors come from Ireland, even from India, actually. Particularly, younger Sikhs and Hindus have a higher propensity to identify as English, whereas their parents would only identify as British. So we have this concept of the multi-ethnic nation. Even within a multinational state like Britain, you have these nations which have an ethnic majority, but they also have ethnic minorities.
- 5.76** What is the relationship between ethnicity and national identity in a multi-ethnic nation? How do these entities develop? How do we get multi-ethnic nations? The first

thing to say is we know, as we've seen so far, nations to some degree are shaped by the state and to some degree by ethnicity.

- 5.77** If we take the case of Britain, there is a British nation, actually, that is shaped by the British state. But there are also sub-state nations. There's an English nation, there's a Welsh nation, and a Scottish nation within that British nation. The British nation is more of a state national project—Welsh, Scottish, English, nationalism. It started more with ethnicity. It's not to say you have to be of Scottish ethnicity to be a member of the Scottish nation or Welsh ethnicity to be a member of the Welsh nation, but this was the origin to a large extent. So we have these different nations operating.
- 5.78** How do multi-ethnic nations develop? Well, it's easy to see in the case of the British nation, which was coterminous with the state: if there are ethnic minorities in Britain and they identify with Britain, then that's a multi-ethnic nation. Okay, fine.
- 5.79** But what about deeply multi-ethnic nations? A place like Mauritius in the Indian Ocean is an example of how you get deeply multi-ethnic nations. This was an uninhabited island that was settled for plantation agriculture. Initially, Black slaves, then they were freed. Then you had indentured laborers from India and a range of Muslim and Hindu and different groups, Tamil, coming in. So you had all of these groups being settled into Mauritius. You also had a—it was run by the French, then by the British. There were white French, white British elites that were there. There was a small Chinese community. You had a whole number of these groups arriving, not all at once, but really quite quickly, one after the other.
- 5.80** So that is one way in which you get this multi-ethnic national identity developing, especially a deeply multi-ethnic national identity. Maybe in the case of Mauritius, it's one of the few places where you could say no group was really there first, even though Black Mauritians tend to feel that they are somewhat more Mauritian because they were there first. But in the general scheme of things, they all arrived at a relatively similar time within a few hundred years.
- 5.81** There are other cases, particularly in Western countries, where you had a dominant ethnic group, an ethnic majority that was very large, but through immigration, that majority has declined. We see that in, for example, the United States, which, at the time of Independence, the population was 20% black, 80% white, but of that 80% white, 8% and 10% were of British ancestry, and only 2% were not Protestant. You actually had a very highly homogenous ethnic majority in the United States at the time of Independence. That really persists until the mid-19th century, when you get the Irish and German immigration coming in large numbers. That ethnic majority declined below half by around 1920.
- 5.82** We're seeing something similar in Europe now, with ethnic majorities that might have been, in the case of France and in the case of Ireland, above 90% declining, and it's

projected that by the end of the century, those ethnic majorities will be below 50% of the population. That is another way in which multi-ethnicity develops.

5.83 There's always this balancing act in multi-ethnic nations, balancing the diversity and the solidarity part. To an extent, the multi-ethnic nation has assimilation, the ethnicity declines through melting, and you lose the multi-ethnicity. To the extent that the ethnicity is dominant, you tend to have the national identity weaken. So you just get the multi-ethnicity without the national identity.

5.84 We see that pattern very much in African countries, where if you look at the Afrobarometer surveys, most people will express greater loyalty and identity to their ethnic group than to the nation. There are some exceptions—Tanzania would be an exception to that. But there's always this problem in multi-ethnic nations of loyalty to a nation, loyalty to an ethnic group. How do you integrate people into a common national identity?

5.85 It's interesting to ask whether this task is easier in countries where the ethnic diversity is secondary, that is made up of immigrant diaspora groups whose ethnic attachments, myths of common ancestry, lead back to another country, and therefore, they're less likely to make territorial claims or mount violent rebellions. Is that an easier task than a society with high native ethnic diversity where territorial claims are stronger?

5.86 It's worth reminding ourselves that most nations in the world, while multi-ethnic, have an ethnic majority of at least 50%, and that the assimilation process also tends to break down ethnic diversity over time. So there's always this race between assimilation and whatever factors are generating ethnic diversity, whether that be geo-climatic difference or immigration. Differences between countries in their levels of diversity are going to change over time due to, for example, the level of immigration, the degree of intermarriage and assimilation, and the time of arrival of different immigrant groups.

5.87 I've talked about ethnic group, state, and nation. I've talked about multi-ethnic states, multinational states, multi-ethnic nations. One question we can ask you as individuals: What is your ethnic group? What is your national identity? What is your state identity? And to say: Which one do you rank most highly? That's what we call in the social psychology literature, we call that salience. How salient is this identity to you? How salient is being a Croat versus being a Yugoslav in the former Yugoslavia? Did you identify, first and foremost, as being a Croat and only secondarily as being a Yugoslav?

5.88 If you have a state like Yugoslavia, where the dominant identification is with ethnicity or sub-state nationality, there's a greater chance of the entity breaking apart, which, of course, Yugoslavia did. The Soviet Union is another example of that, where, if the identity is more with the sub-state nations or sub-state ethnicity, there's a greater chance of the entity breaking apart.

5.89 There's this question of then the salience of each layer of your identity or each layer of identity within a population. I mentioned in Africa, in most countries, the salience of

ethnicity is highest and that of the nation is lower. Not everywhere. The goal, of course, of the state is to increase identity with the state-nation and make that the dominant source of loyalty. It makes politics easier. It makes economic development easier. It makes the state more stable and less likely to break apart or to experience insurgencies.

- 5.90** I talked about theories of nationalism, modernism, and ethnosymbolism. Each has an explanation for the emergence of diversity. I've talked that through. Modernists would claim that weak modern integration tends to lead to more diversity because there's incomplete integration, incomplete spread of state capacity into the peripheries.
- 5.91** However, modernists would allow that there are circumstances in which political motivations can lead to greater diversification. One argument is, for example, in the former Soviet Union, the creation of the Republic system with separate passports, representation in the Upper House, institutionalized diversity within the Soviet Union, that that is what led to the breakup of the Soviet Union. And that if, in fact, Lenin and Stalin had not done that, it may be the case that we didn't see this secession. So this is an argument Rogers Brubaker makes in his book *Nationalism Refrained*, that it is the creation of those separate administrative units that formed the basis of subsequent secession.
- 5.92** Ethnosymbolists would claim that Identities as Ukrainian, Kazakh, or Estonian already existed within the Soviet Union. In fact, if the Soviet Union didn't recognize these units through a formalized Republic system that that could have caused more alienation and more separatism. So ethnosymbolists would claim that, in fact, these identities predate the formation of the formal institutions of the Soviet Union.
- 5.93** A similar debate could happen, say, if we talk about Quebec separatism or Scottish separatism. Is giving Scotland its own legislature going to create institutions that will mean Scotland is more likely to separate, or is it going to lead to an addressing of already existing grievances for an already existing identity and therefore draw the sting from separatism?
- 5.94** So ethnosymbolists, then, their argument is that identities tend to form organically, and to some degree, ethno-linguistic diversity emerges as a result of climactic diversity, cultural diversity, whereas modernists and instrumentalists would point out the role of administrative institutions, lootable resources, other economic and political factors as being more important in creating this diversity. Thank you.
- 5.95** From what I understand, you're saying that a more homogenous society possibly relates to greater economic strength. It makes me think of somewhere like Singapore as it was developing, which I believe was like a multi-ethnic state. I think they saw it as a state, as a prerequisite to create a collective identity, and they did things to encourage that. My question to you is: What could a state do to encourage greater collective unity?

- 5.96** Well, yeah. states clearly will engage in nation-building, too. I mentioned going back to France of the Third Republic, where you are teaching the national language, the national history in the school system. There's a mass conscription. There is attempts to inculcate through national museums and national galleries. This was the common mode in the 19th century, in the early 20th century. That's fallen away in Western countries to a large extent due to the influence of cultural left liberalism.
- 5.97** Cultural left liberalism has led to anti-nationalism, which has weakened national integration. Instead, there's been an attempt to base national identity more on liberal ideology, let's just say, so toleration as a virtue or British values, for example, or a set of more universal liberal values as a replacement for saying, "This is our history, this is why we're great, these are our heroes."
- 5.98** I think one of the questions is whether taking a more critical approach to the national past, unless a heroic version of national identity can build the solidarity, one argument as well, by taking that more left liberal approach, you won't alienate minorities as much, and therefore, they'll feel more comfortable, and therefore, you'll get more unity.
- 5.99** Another view is that by not providing a common narrative, people will be more likely to tend to be attracted to more powerful identities, which might be a religious or ethnic, and therefore, that will weaken national unity. This is, of course, a big debate. The proponents of each side, I think it's fair to say that the more, call it liberal multicultural side, has been ascendant in Western countries.
- 5.100** Now, if you take Britain, for example, under New Labour, there was some rowing back from that. People like Blunkett and Jack Straw and others were saying, "No, we have to have Britishness." Gordon Brown, this idea of Britishness. But of course, then the question was: What is the content of this Britishness? I mean, yes, we can talk about the geography of the British Isles. It tended to devolve into a conversation about British values of toleration and such. The question is whether that is, in fact, thick enough to compete with a whole set of myth-symbols and memories of what it means to be—
- 5.101** You take any ethnic group—Chinese, they've got a long, glorious history. Arab—they've got a long, glorious history. Even Islam, as a religious identity, or Hinduism, amuch richer symbol system, maybe more symbols to which people can be attached effectively. Therefore, it's not clear that a set of universal values can compete with that. That's a debate we continue to have.
- 5.102** We talked about many different reasons as to why we might get identity with more ethnical background versus as national versus state. My question is the relationship between birth rate and immigration and how that could influence the salience of ethnicity versus national and versus state.
- 5.103** Yeah, I mean, this is really a big question, and I should say that I will be doing another Peterson Academy course on political demography. That is the influence of population

shifts like immigration and birth rates, which affect ethnic composition. That is a whole other literature. But suffice it to say that demographics affecting ethnic change is linked to various forms of ethnic conflict and various forms of anxiety that can express themselves politically, sometimes violently.

- 5.104** Undoubtedly, this is a major—if we think about the West today, Immigration and ethnic change is a key driver of the rise of national populism, which is a version of nationalism. It is tending to lead to anxiety on the part of ethnic majority groups, in particular, who are disproportionately likely to vote for national populist parties.
- 5.105** And so, yes, I guess whenever you have a change in ethnic composition, the losing groups, particularly if they are ethnic majorities who see themselves as umbilically connected to the national identity, you will tend to get a reaction, which is what we're seeing now. We've seen it in the past in the United States at different points. But for example, the period of 1890 to 1925, before the immigration restrictions of the 1924, that was a period where you had very similar kinds of things happening, as we see now, again, due to demographic shifts, as you're getting more Catholic immigration, to some degree, Jewish immigration.
- 5.106** Scotland, between the wars in this country, the Irish immigration into Scotland, the Catholics coming into Scotland led to Protestant populism in Scotland, particularly in Glasgow and Edinburgh. That's another example of where ethnic shifts as a result of immigration, and to some degree, higher birth rates, can be a spur to ethnic conflicts. And also battles over the meaning of nationhood, the content of national identity, tend to take place when you're getting this ethnic diversification.

Lecture 6: National Identity

At a glance — National identity and its relationship to ethnicity and the state.

- 6.1 We've talked so far in this course about ethnicity, the state, how they both influence nation. And that's true also of this more social-psychological aspect of identity. So today we're going to talk about national identity.
- 6.2 There's an ethnic influence on national identity and a state influence, and some use the term ethnic or civic to refer to these two faces of national identity. We're going to look at this whole literature, which is a vast literature on national identity, and comparing the ethnic and civic versions of national identity. So, national identity is not monolithic, but we'll see that there are, in fact, different versions of national identity, even within one society.
- 6.3 I want to go back to the lecture where we spoke about national integration and nation-building, how states attempt to build nations through mass education, mass conscription, bureaucratic institutions like post offices and customs checks, maps, and so on. Invented traditions like national days, mass commemorations, national anthems and flags as a way of building what theorists would call civic national identity. A national identity defined by state symbols that includes all citizens. It's an attempt to create almost a civil religion in this mass society in which individuals have abstract ties to each other, almost a contractual relationship to the nation-state, at least in one version of this.
- 6.4 This tends to be focused on symbols of the state or symbols of state national identity, which we see certainly in the Bastille Day parades. But that account of states building nations and the rise of the nation, typically the French Revolution as the age of modernity, where you get the levée en masse, the peasant army, and you get the Declaration of the Rights of Man, and you get this new France, this new civic nationalism.
- 6.5 If you think about France, what happened in France was you had a dynasty, you had essentially a dynastic kingdom or an absolutist state in which the figure of the king—the king derived his right to rule from a relationship to God, so this "divine right of kings" notion, the throne and altar version of society. The French Revolution upended that. Sovereignty comes not from God, but from the people. And that was the basis of nationalism.
- 6.6 So what happened in France was you took a hierarchically organized dynastic state, and it was transformed into a demotic republic, a liberal republican state. So it is an internal revolution that created the nation. That's one route to nation formation, and that occurs in a number of different Western European countries to varying degrees in places like France or Spain and so on.

- 6.7 But there is another route to nationhood, which we haven't talked about as much, again, because I mentioned that state and ethnic group influence the formation and reproduction of nations. Another route to the formation of nations is the ethnic-nationalist route. Rather than the kingdom-to-nation-state route, we have the ethnic separatism route to nation. If you look at the empires of Europe—the Austro-Hungarian Empire, the Tsarist Empire, the Ottoman Empire—they all started experiencing secessionist movements from ethnic minorities. These are primary, that is, Indigenous native, territorialized ethnic minorities—Hungarian, Italians, Slovaks, for example—breaking away from empires.
- 6.8 Now, if you don't have your own state, what is the basis for your nation? You could say in the French case, well, France had a state, it had a military, it had all the trappings of government. That could be the basis for the nation. So it already had a political basis for nationhood. But if you look at a case like Germany or you look at a case like Italy, they didn't have their own state. Slovaks, and Czechs, and Hungary, certainly before the dual monarchy in 1867, they didn't have their own state.
- 6.9 So how do you actually define the nation? It can't be on the basis of political institutions. It can only be on the basis of language and ethnicity. These secessionist nationalisms—the Greeks and the Serbs seceding from the Ottoman Empire on the basis of religion, on the basis of ethnicity—it's culture that defines the nation, not politics. So these are different kinds of formations, different kinds of national formations, ethnic rather than state-led.
- 6.10 And there's a whole literature that emerges around this that argues that the nations that formed on a basis of ethnic separatism, or ethnic reunification, in the case of Germany, are different. They have more of a sense of culture and ethnicity as the basis for nationhood. That is, they are more ethnic nations.
- 6.11 They tended to arise in the 19th century under the influence more of the Counter-Enlightenment philosophy of Romanticism, as exemplified by the German Romantic writers such as Johann Gottfried von Herder, who wrote quite a bit about peoples, each people having its own unique genius, its own language, which you can really only understand if you're born into it. It shapes your mentality, your whole view of the world. You can't really learn a language and become one of the Estonians, one of the Czechs. It's not possible.
- 6.12 This kind of nationalism also seems to have had a—the argument is it has had a different strata that were involved. In the case of nationalism in France, for example, it was a new fraction that took over the state, had a revolution. In the case of the Finns, of the Hungarian, of the Germans, the argument is it was scholar intellectuals. It was teachers, people who didn't have a secure strata as either members of the aristocracy, members of the bourgeoisie. But these were cultural intellectuals often drawn from new or emerging strata like teachers or writers who were more interested in trying to

synthesize a national story from peasant traditions, from folk tales, from chronicles to create a nation, to do the cultural work of creating a nation.

- 6.13 The view here is that society and the nation is an organism. It is something that you get through birth, through emotional attachment. That's very different from the view that there's a social contract. Each citizen has an abstract contract with each other and has an abstract relationship to the constitution, like the Declaration of the Rights of Man, that this is a voluntaristic, willed nation.
- 6.14 Actually, the view of ethnic nationalism is "no, this is something that you get through birth," and it's emotional, and it's related to premodern myths and epics, not to modern ideas like French revolutionary liberalism. And the rituals that come out of the French Revolution, including something like Bastille Day—which comes, of course, much later than the Revolution—but it's these state-led civic symbols, this is not really what ethnic nationalism is about.
- 6.15 Nation-states that get their birth through the ethnic-nationalist route of usually seceding from empires or unifying on the basis of culture are different than nations that emerge through an internal revolution, removing hierarchy in favor of liberal republicanism and removing the monarch. That then leads to discussion about two separate types of nations: the more state national and the more ethnic national.
- 6.16 Friedrich Meinecke's book *Cosmopolitanism* in 190 makes a distinction between what he calls the *Staatsnation* and the *Kulturnation*. That's the origin of this antinomy between what Hans Kohn in 1944 calls the Eastern and Western route to nationhood. The Eastern route being the more ethnic route, the Western route being more the civic route that's then developed by others such as Cobban. Then more recently, as we get into the 1990s, Anthony Smith and Rogers Brubaker, who both use this ethnic versus civic conception.
- 6.17 Hans Kohn is the original in terms of his Eastern versus Western dichotomy. Brubaker and Smith are more recent, but they think that it's a useful way of thinking about different nations. That is, the birth of different nations, in some cases, it's ethnic with Germany; in some cases, it's civic with France. So the archetype civic nation being France, the archetype, ethnic nation being Germany.
- 6.18 Rogers Brubaker in his book, *Citizenship and Nationhood in France and Germany*, argues that this has legacies to the present day in terms of who can be a citizen. That is in France, that if you were born on the soil, you could be a citizen, whereas in Germany, it was connected to ancestry, and you couldn't just be a citizen because you were born in Germany. We will return to whether that account is right or not later in the lecture.
- 6.19 I just want to summarize Kohn's model as briefly as I can. The Western model, again, the emphasis is that state, territory, and politics are the basis of nationhood. Kohn created this stylized model of Western versus Eastern. Western tended to be in the Western part of Europe, emphasizing state and territory, more secure, emerging

through revolution. It tended to be forward-looking, tended to be assimilationist. He argues that these were more "rational" forms of nationhood in which people felt that they had some sort of a rational tie as a citizen to an abstract constitution and state. So you give loyalty to the state, you pay your tax, you serve in the military in exchange that state protects you, gives you rights.

- 6.20 That more contractual rational voluntarist Enlightenment view of nationhood, that is the Western model, which is more inclusive, arguably, of different ethnic and religious groups. Not that there was that a lot of ethnic and religious diversity in Western nation-states. There was some Indigenous diversity, but there was very, very little immigrant diversity in most West European countries at the time Kohn was writing. Of course, he was writing during the Second World War, which undoubtedly influenced how he was writing because, of course, you had fascism and you had particularly Nazism, which was obsessed with ethnic purity.
- 6.21 The idea then of the Western model is people are linked through rights and duties to each other, to the nation, as well as being integrated in all of the ways that I'd mentioned with nation-building; so mass education, conscription, an industrial economy, and bureaucracy.
- 6.22 The Eastern model, by contrast, is based on nations which were formed on the basis of culture and ancestry. So Germany united on the basis of culture or, for example, Hungarians seceding or having their own separate territory and politics on the basis of being ethnically Hungarian with a different language. So they emerge in a different way.
- 6.23 They are more insecure in many ways because they haven't had that long history of having their own state, running things on a territorial and political basis. The principle is not territorial and political, it's cultural and ancestral. The kinds of social strata that are involved tend also to be people with an insecure social position. That is, they're not established aristocracy or bourgeoisie. They are members of these in-between strata, like intellectuals, teachers, who gather together in cultural associations.
- 6.24 The Eastern type of nation looks back to heroes. It tends to be more spiritual and less rational, according to this typology. More interested in cultural particularity, in cultural purity than in economic projects and future-oriented political projects. More mystical, more emphasis on metaphors of motherland, fatherland, kinship, family, and blood ties, almost like a super family. The idea is, you almost get your national identity through your mother's milk.
- 6.25 Tends to be very exclusive of ethnic minorities as membership is intrinsically tied to members of the ethnic majority group and majority religion. Even if the Eastern-type models acquire the trappings of state, those are always going to be secondary to the more backward-looking ethnic myths of blood and soil in defining the nation.
- 6.26 That then is the typology that Hans Kohn develops. Anthony Smith seems to have coined the term ethnic-civic. I was never exactly sure who exactly came up with that

terminology. There was also a moral dimension to this. The Eastern type was seen as the "bad" form of nationalism, the Western, the good type. The ethnic-civic typology inherited that moral valence.

- 6.27 Now, ever since there's been a debate over whether it is useful to think about nations as being in the ethnic box or the civic box. Can we really assign nations into one box or the other? Is this a useful way of thinking about different types of nations, different types of national identity? You could say we can't put nations in one box or the other, but you might say, well, this is really a continuum between extremes.
- 6.28 So it's useful to think about ideal types, what Max Weber would call ideal types, which would be extremes that may not even exist in the world, but it's a useful way of thinking about the world because developing an ideal type allows you then to classify nations along a continuum between ethnic and civic. So maybe it still has a use as a dichotomy, even if no nation in reality is purely ethnic or purely civic. So maybe it still has a use as a typology and a continuum.
- 6.29 There's a secondary question around: Are civic nationalisms the morally good ones and ethnic nationalisms the bad ones? The first thing to say is—and the first criticisms of the Kohn typology pointed some things out. You have a nation such as Ireland, which seems to have certain ethnic characteristics defined on the basis of culture. It's seceded from Britain, so it has that ethnic-secessionist character to it, emphasizing mystical elements, Gaelic, revival, Catholicism—seems to have those ethnic characteristics, but clearly as Western. It's democratic rather than autocratic. So it has some Western elements and some Eastern elements.
- 6.30 Japan, yes, it has Eastern elements in terms of defining who can be a member, but on the other hand, it is a liberal democracy, and it is a capitalist economy. Because for Kohn, he also suggested that the Eastern type would be less economically developed, less likely to be a liberal democracy. Czechs defined their nation, arguably—well, the leading strata in Czech nationalism was arguably the industrial bourgeoisie, which is not supposed to happen under the Kohn typology, where the leading strata tends to be Romantic intellectuals.
- 6.31 We also have postcolonial nation-states like India or Tanzania, which have some Eastern features, again, some Western features. They clearly aren't ethnic nations. Tanzania, there's no way you could call it an ethnic nationalism. It's got hundreds of different ethnic groups; but equally, you could say that it has some features. It clearly emerged through secession. So that's not normally the way you get to a Western-style nation.
- 6.32 And then we have the problem of countries that seem to oscillate between more ethnic and more civic mode. So the United States, 1890 to 1925, strong anti-Catholic, anti-immigrant populist movements that tried to redefine the US as an Anglo-Protestant society. That seems to be more ethnic. The definition of America seemed to be moving

in an ethnic direction. France, likewise, archetypal civic nation, but anti-Semitism, the Dreyfus affair around 1899, suggesting that, in fact, France might not be as civic as we think. And so there seems to be a degree to which countries can oscillate from Western to Eastern. So how can we then say that France is a Western nation and Germany is an Eastern nation?

- 6.33** And then you have entities like Quebec or Wales, the nationalism there, focusing on language, the French language in Quebec, the Welsh language in Wales. But yet at the same time saying, well, we want immigrants to come to our country and speak the language of French or Welsh. This seems to be linguistic and cultural, which is an Eastern characteristic, but on the other hand, emphasizing ethnic inclusion, which is a Western characteristic. We have countries like Germany. After 1999, they amend their citizenship laws. They seem to open up, become more diverse. They seem to shift from a more ethnic to a more civic-type of nationalism. It's very hard to put nations in these boxes.
- 6.34** We can talk about Switzerland as a case where: Is Switzerland a civic nation? It's seen as a paradigm case of a civic nation. There are a number of different languages and ethnic groups in Switzerland. But on the other hand, it also puts a lot of emphasis in premodern myths and memories such as memorialized William Tell's writings—which is all about the resistance to the Habsburg Empire—and the myth of the oath on the Rütli Meadow. These premodern myths of resistance to the Habsburgs emphasize timelessness and premodernity rather than some contractual agreement between citizens with abstract rights and duties to a constitution.
- 6.35** So it doesn't seem to have a completely civic feel. It has elements which might be associated with ethnicity or with Kohn's Eastern model—that is the role of emotion and of premodern Romantic myths. One of the questions is, well, okay, maybe the typology isn't perfect, but it's good enough. Maybe that's the case. Maybe it's good.
- 6.36** So I want to look now at a number of criticisms of the ethnic-civic typology. One of those criticisms is that, in fact, we have to unpack all of these elements: liberal versus autocratic, ethnic versus inclusive, industrial versus pre-industrial, a leading strata which is established versus insecure. These are all separate variables. They don't correlate with each other 100%. In fact, maybe the correlation is quite loose.
- 6.37** Two types of critiques emerged of the Kohn ethnic-civic model. The first is that even trying to create a continuum between a perfectly ethnic and a perfectly civic nation is not useful, argue some of the critics. It's not even useful as an ideal type. Then there are a set of critics who've done a lot of social surveys that say, well, when we survey people in different countries, we don't see people's answers shaking out into a—in a country like Greece or Germany, we don't see more ethnic responses than in a country like France or Spain, the way the theory would predict. So in reality, the structure of public opinion doesn't seem to sort into a more ethnic, more civic-type of nation.

- 6.38 If we take the first type of critique, which is critique of ethnic-civic as an ideal type, one of the criticisms is, well, if we take places like Quebec and Wales, as I just mentioned, they emphasize culture. So they're not talking about abstract political traditions and constitutions as the basis of nationhood. So they're very interested in culture, but they're interested in culture as language which is seen as inclusive of different ethnic groups. So that cultural form of nationalism is not the same as an ethnically exclusive form of nationalism, nor can it be called a civic nationalism which emphasizes liberal ideas and social contract theory to an abstract constitution. So cultural is a third form independent from ethnic and civic.
- 6.39 Then you have some who say, well, no, there's also this form called multicultural, which is another nation. You have people who've written on these shifts between ethnic and civic—which I wrote, boy, is that 25 years ago on this? So these people who say, well, we've seen countries shift from more ethnic to more civic modes and back again.
- 6.40 Then there are writers like Oliver Zimmer, a colleague of mine who has written on, in fact, how the ethnic-civic isn't a good way of looking at the formation and construction of nation at all. We actually have to distinguish two things. One is a certain set of symbolic resources or types of symbol, and then the way of looking at the symbol.
- 6.41 A symbol like history, geography, language, can be spun in different ways depending on your ideology. If you're a liberal, what Zimmer calls a voluntarist approach, if you look at territory, you would say anyone who's on the territory can be a member of the nation. So you're very much about voluntary inclusion. You look at the language, anyone who learns the language can be a member of the nation.
- 6.42 Whereas if you have a more organic or conservative approach—what Zimmer calls organic—you will say, language is innate to the Polish national genius, and only Poles really can understand the language, and really this shapes their worldview. And so language is inextricably a symbol of ethnicity. Or geography. The Swiss Alps have shaped the Swiss people organically, and it's a timeless thing. It's not something anybody can just show up in Switzerland and be a Swiss. It's been the influence of the Alpine landscape on a people working over generations and generations.
- 6.43 Even something like political ideology. You can say, well, anyone who subscribes to the American creed is an American, so it's inclusive. But you can take the view with it, well, no we have something called ancient English liberties. There's a spirit of liberty in the English people that is tied inextricably to being English, and that goes back generations to the Magna Carta to before. There's a primitive English liberty there. So it's different ways of reading the same type of symbol, according to Zimmer.
- 6.44 I developed this a little bit in an article I wrote, really, on what I call the Lenses of Nationhood, where if you're looking at a particular territory and political unit, let's say France, it depends on the glasses that you're wearing. Are those glasses those of the Enlightenment, of Rousseau, and Constant, and of the French Enlightenment? Then you

are going to focus on institutions and values, and you're going to take a very inclusive approach to membership in the nation.

- 6.45 If you change the lenses in your glasses from the Enlightenment to German Romanticism, that is going to emphasize Counter-Enlightenment themes, emotion rather than reason, the long-distant past rather than the modern revolution. That means you're going to focus on different symbols, to some degree. Genealogy, ancestry is going to be more important. History is going to be more important. Perhaps institutions are going to be less important. That's true.
- 6.46 But at the same time, you're also going to read those symbols in a more organic way, whereas maybe somebody who's influenced by the Enlightenment liberalism would read the ancestry of France as being a history of multi-ethnicity and mixing, whereas someone influenced by German Romanticism, might read the ancestry of France as going back to one or a few groups—the Gauls, the Franks. It will be a much narrower set of ethnic resources that you will be looking at.
- 6.47 The ideology that you hold will shape the way you think about nationhood. Zimmer calls this mechanisms and resources. I'm calling it lenses and resources. The lens shapes the resources that you highlight and the way you highlight those resources. That's a critique, is that we have to take apart the ideology and the resources. We can't just talk about ethnic or civic as one homogenous thing. Those are some critiques that we've heard of ethnic-civic as an analytical ideal type.
- 6.48 But there are also criticisms that come from social survey research, which survey individuals on many, many questions, and they look at patterns in the responses, and they say, "Well, do we see people in Greece saying you have to have the religion of Orthodoxy to be Greek, you have to have Greek ancestry to be Greek?" And people in France saying, "Oh, it doesn't matter what ancestry you have or what religion you have, anybody can be French." Is that the way we see people in these different countries answering questions?
- 6.49 What we should see is, in fact, in Greece or in Germany, people giving all of the ethnic answers, and in France, giving all of the civic answers to these questions, and all of these things correlating. So if you say religion is important, then you say ancestry is important, and you say adherence to the constitution is not important. And in France, you should see the reverse set of correlations.
- 6.50 Just to summarize this literature briefly is to say, well, a lot of the people who have attempted to find an Eastern-ethnic, Western-civic in Europe have not found this pattern, actually. They find that West and East are much more similar than they are different. They find that the ascriptive religious ancestral elements are important in both Western and Eastern Europe.
- 6.51 Now, there are some differences. Hjern in 2003 finds that in Eastern Europe, there's less pride in those—those new post-communist state structures had yet to prove

themselves. So there was less pride in political achievements than in the Western states, which isn't surprising in some ways. The Western states are older democracies, are wealthier, and so on.

- 6.52** Shulman finds as many distinctions contesting as supporting the Eastern versus Western hypothesis. Others find not two, not an ethnic-civic, but rather five clusters, for example, Janmaat: patriotic, political, cultural, ethnic, military. And so what we see in the survey research is we don't see support for this idea that there is a more ethnic sense of nationhood in Eastern countries, and Western countries having a more civic sense of nationhood. We see that there's pride in both, and there's a lot more similarity than there is difference.
- 6.53** Most find, in fact, that people who are strongly ethnic in their—a lot of people will say, "Yeah, it's important for people to have the religion of the country to be fully members." And they say, "And it's important for people to obey the law and to be adhering to the constitution." People will often give answers that emphasize a strong civic dimension and a strong ethnic dimension at the same time. So there doesn't seem to be a lot of support in the survey data for the ethnic-civic theory in mass publics.
- 6.54** But there are those who would say, "Well, okay, yes, there are these criticisms." There is the mechanisms and resources criticism of the typology as an ideal type, and there's this survey data criticism of ethnic-civic as a real type, but it's still useful as a first approximation, as a shorthand. That's the argument of Anthony Smith, Michael Ignatieff, Aviel Roshwald and others. They would say it's still a useful first approximation, even though we know, as Smith would argue, that nations tend to entwine both ethnic and civic elements, and there's no perfect example of one or the other.
- 6.55** Anthony Smith argues that the ethnic and civic are still useful as a first approximation, as a continuum. But he says that nations tend to involve both. If you look at, for example, France starts out with the French Revolution, which is very civic, based on the Declaration of the Rights of Man, Jews can be citizens. It's very much a standard template civic nationalism. But then what we see is in the 19th century, the Counter-Enlightenment has an impact on French nationalism, and there's much more interest in the Gothic medieval French past. Same in England. Medievalism becomes very popular and an important motif of English national identity in the 19th century.
- 6.56** In Mexico, The Mexican Revolution is an Enlightenment-inspired revolution in the early 19th century. Sorry, the founding of Mexico. But the Mexican Revolution of 1917, with its emphasis on Indigenismo and the cosmic race idea, is influenced by Romanticism, and it brings in this notion of the Aztec, the premodern past, as being an important part of Mexican national identity. So it brings that more ethnic element in.
- 6.57** And this is one of the arguments is that in France, in England, they may have phases. Like the late 18th century under the influence of the Enlightenment, they're more civic.

19th century, Romantic ideas are more popular, the national identity becomes more ethnic. Maybe in the 20th century, post-Second World War, liberalism moves in a civic direction, and then maybe it can move in an ethnic direction.

- 6.58** So Smith argues that ethnic nations tend to want the trappings of civic nationhoods: secure states, wealth, territory. And civic nations like the legitimacy that comes from having a long, deep history going into the midsts of time, so they will tend to seek ethnic legitimation. And this was the theme of Smith's books in 1971 and 1981, the book on *The Ethnic Revival*, that nations seek dual legitimation, both from the civic, the social contract; the constitutional, the civic pride; but also ethnic, the longer history, the unique culture, and they want both of these things.
- 6.59** There is then more recently—well, post-Smith, post-Rogers Brubaker, Smith, Ignatieff—we then have John Hutchinson's book *Nations as Zones of Conflict*, which says, well, actually, what we have to think about is instead of ethnic or civic nations, what we have are different layers of history in different countries, and different factions that are using the past in different ways. It's this use of the past and the fact that you would have different versions of nationalism within the same nation. There isn't a single English, single French, single German national identity. There are competing national identities within each nation. So nations as zones of conflict.
- 6.60** That links to Zimmer's point and my point about different ideological lenses on the nation's past, on its geography, on its ancestry. These different ideologies refract the symbolic resources in different ways. And so you have different ideological factions. In England, the Liberals, the Whigs, because of their ideology, they looked to the Anglo-Saxons as the basis of the nation. The ancestry of the English goes back to the Anglo-Saxons who knew this primitive form of liberty. The Tories looked to the Normands who founded the aristocracy and the Kingdoms of England. So Whigs looked to the Anglo-Saxons as the ancestors, that was what they emphasized. The Tories emphasized the Normands.
- 6.61** In France, the Liberals emphasized the Gauls. The Conservatives emphasized the Franks who started the French dynasty. Of course, that's tied to notions of monarchy and religion, as opposed to this idea of the Gauls; again, this primitive pagan, almost, freedom. You have different ideologies leading people to have different national identities.
- 6.62** We can see that a bit today. Left liberals will tend to stress multi-ethnicity or "mongrel" pasts. For, let's say, a country like Britain or even within Britain, the English, the Scots. Well, Britain has always been a nation of immigrants and multi-ethnicity and diversity. Huguenot and Jewish immigrants, and even Vikings and Normands, and various others, waves of migration. They will emphasize migration, whereas Conservatives will tend to emphasize continuity of a native-born ethnic majority stock over time. That seems now to be the distinction.

- 6.63 What we have are these competing national identities, competing uses of the past within a particular nation. So it doesn't make sense to say "Britain is a civic nation, France is a civic nation." In fact, there is a more "ethnic" and more and more "civic" version of national identity, even in the United States, for example. It's not just the American creed of universal rights in the Constitution. In fact, some of the implicit symbolism around European, British origins, Protestantism, Christianity, implicit forms of identity are actually important in the American case as well.
- 6.64 In fact, if you look through American history, there have been a lot of Founding Fathers that talked about the importance of the Anglo-Saxons—not just as the founders of the political philosophy, but as the genealogical ancestors of the Americans. And so actually, there is this history also of an ethnic and religious past, even in an ostensibly completely civic country like the United States.
- 6.65 Conservatives are going to be more likely to align with that version of national identity that is more continuous. We've seen, even in the U.S. case, for example, this talk by J.D. Vance of his Scotch-Irish heritage, the Appalachian Scotch-Irish Heritage American. This concept of the heritage. American very much speaks to earlier versions of American national identity that stressed linguistic and ethnic continuities with the past.
- 6.66 What we see here are two sides that are playing with different symbolic resources. Ancestry: is it multi-ethnic or is it relatively monoethnic? Geography: is it a land that anybody who shows up in is included or has this land shaped a people over centuries? This is about different ways of looking at the past, different ways of looking at the layers that history has deposited over time. You can play with those different layers in different ways, and people of different dispositions will interpret them differently.
- 6.67 Again, if we look at survey data, this is something that I've looked at. The argument that I've made, for example, when talking about nations as complex systems that have emerged from below, where it's a bit like a price. The price is not set in a market economy by the government. The price is arrived at by many people buying and selling things. They know what they can supply at a certain price. They know what they value at a certain price. And the meeting of those creates the price signal.
- 6.68 And similarly, you might say with national identity, there is no single place you can go to to read what the national identity of Britain is or even the United States. It is not just the Constitution. It is not just the French Declaration of the Rights of Man. That is not the nation or the national identity. That is a document. It is influential, but you cannot reduce the American national identity to the American creed.
- 6.69 In fact, what you have are many citizens interpreting the particularity of their country in different ways, interacting and colliding. Out of that emerges the national identity, which means that you won't find the national identity in anyone's head. There will be different versions. There will be different versions attached to different regions, different groups, different classes. There is a Scottish version of British national identity.

There's an English version of British national identity. There may be a version of national identity that is held more by ethnic minorities as distinct from ethnic majorities.

- 6.70** In England, for example, the BBC ran a survey that showed that people who are voters for the conservative party or voted to leave the United Kingdom are less likely to think that diversity is an important part of English national identity than people who voted for left-wing parties. You can also see in this country, if we just take England and Wales, but if we just take England in the 2011 census, there was a question about national identity in which English only was the first category that you could tick. British was down the list. And 60% of white British people in England ticked the English only box. Now, in the 2021 census, when they put the British first, the majority ticked the British box. So that shows that for English people, English and British are interchangeable.
- 6.71** But still, what was interesting was the relationship to education level in a particular constituency. If you look at Westminster constituencies, the constituencies where the population had lower levels of education were considerably more likely to identify as English than those that had a higher level of qualifications, and that's controlling for ethnicity. So among white British people, in areas with high levels of education, like Oxford or suburbs of London, like Richmond, you had a lower share of people identifying their national identity as English than in white working class areas of the country in, say, for example, northeastern England. And so there's a difference in national identity within England between identifying yourself as English or British.
- 6.72** And what we see is this is true in many different countries. The variation in the answers to questions on the ethnic-civic scale is greater within a country than between. So to what extent is it important to be white to immigrate to the country? This is a question that's asked. The deviation within countries is 2.75 in Europe, between countries is 1.12. So it's 2-3 times more variation in responses within European countries than between them.
- 6.73** How important is it to be Christian to be a member of the nation? Standard deviation is 3.00 within countries and only 1.00 between countries. The requirement to have—how important a requirement is it for citizenship to have ancestors from my country? That's a good question for tapping this ethnic-civic dimension. It goes from 1.00—very important for people to have ancestors from the country to be a citizen—to it's totally unimportant. What we find here is there is, again, 2-3 times more variation in responses within countries than between them, and question after question. On these ethnic-civic questions, there's far more variation within than between countries.
- 6.74** That goes against the Hans Kohn, Rogers Brubaker, Anthony Smith, ethnic-civic typology, and more in favor of the Oliver Zimmer, John Hutchinson typology that says, well, in fact, what we have is competing versions of national identity within countries. That's the primary dynamic, not differences in the circumstances of the birth of different countries. Just because Norway had an "ethnic type" secession and Sweden

did not, that's not going to matter very much compared to the ideological mix within those countries. This is, in fact, exactly what we see.

- 6.75** The question of how tolerant a country is on homosexuality shouldn't have anything to do necessarily with its views on the criteria for being a citizen. But in fact, these are highly correlated. The degree to which you think homosexuality is justifiable, if a large percentage of the population thinks it is fine for people to be gay, like Sweden, then they are going to be very much less likely to say you have to have ancestors from the country to be a citizen.
- 6.76** There's not much difference between Norway, which had an ethnic birth, if you like, through secession, and Sweden, which had a civic birth through the revolution or a change within an existing established state. It doesn't seem to matter the circumstances in which a nation emerged. It matters much more the balance of ideological views within the country. So ideology seems to be what shapes national identity much more than national identity being shaped by circumstances of birth of a nation.
- 6.77** So that ethnic-civic, that emphasis that, well, France was formed through revolution in an existing secure state. Germany was formed through cultural commonality amongst all of these insecure statelets, that doesn't seem to matter very much compared to whether citizens in the country are more liberal or less liberal.
- 6.78** We use another question, which is how important is obedience for children as another indicator of this liberalism, as well as toleration of homosexuality. Again, a very strong correlation with attitudes towards ethnic nationhood. What we actually find are countries like Burkina Faso and Mali, multi-ethnic postcolonial societies which score very conservative on the child obedience measure, are also scoring very high on that ethnic dimension. You have to have ancestors to be a citizen.
- 6.79** You wouldn't expect that from the ethnic-civic theory, which would say, "No, these postcolonial countries, they didn't have an ethnic basis. They only really have an ideological basis, so they're civic nations." Actually, a lot of those postcolonial societies will give very "ethnic type" answers to criteria for citizenship. It suggests then this theory about origins in history of different nations and national types doesn't seem to matter very much for present day attitudes.
- 6.80** The liberal-conservative attitudes on homosexuality and child rearing correlate with the ethnic-civic. So support for ethnic nationalism is strongly correlated with those attitudes. Support for civic nationalism, actually, that you have to obey the law, adhere to the constitution, none of that seems to correlate very highly with attitudes to liberalism and conservatism.
- 6.81** Trying to make sense of all this literature as we get into the late 2010s, Larsen's work on the civic and ethnic distinction suggests: okay, well, it doesn't appear that the civic and ethnic is a useful way of categorizing nations. But what we can do is go for two

dimensions. One is how much emphasis do people put on political nationalism and how much emphasis on cultural nationalism?

- 6.82** So you have some people who will be national Conservatives. They value both the political traditions of nationhood and the cultural particularities of nationhood. Then you have people who don't value anything. They are the deconstructionists who don't care about the civic elements, they don't care about the ethnic elements. Then you have people who actually are what Kohn would call the Western civic nation nationalists. These would be the republican-types who do value the civic trappings of nationhood but don't value the ethnic trappings. He comes up with a four-part typology, which is interesting to think about.
- 6.83** We can also go on to talk about the issue of when we see shifts. If we accept that there are problems with the ethnic-civic dichotomy, when do countries shift from being more civic to being more ethnic, or being more ethnic to being more civic? We'll look at a couple of examples of a shift from what seems to be a more civic basis of nationhood to a more ethnic basis of nationhood.
- 6.84** Ireland. In 1916, there was the 1916 Irish Rising, the Easter Rising. The motivation of the intellectual and political figures, Eamon de Valera and others, a lot of them were Marxists or Liberals. They had a civic view of what Irish national identity was. They wanted to define it in these republican terms, on the basis of ideology that would be at least potentially inclusive of protestants—the Irish tricolor with the orange symbolizing Protestantism, the green Catholicism, expresses that civic nationalism.
- 6.85** However, after the Easter Rising, it wasn't clear that Irish separatism was going to become popular within the population. So just rendering an appeal to a civic republicanism was—the sauce was too weak to motivate mass mobilization. In order to get mass mobilization, arguably, the leaders of the Easter Rising had to appeal to symbols that had a deeper, more emotional resonance in the population.
- 6.86** That symbol turned out to be Catholicism. Catholicism of over 90% of the Irish population. That is very much in tension with the notion of the tricolor, uniting Protestant-Catholic, and dissenter. That very civic idea gave way to a much more Catholic and Gaelic notion of what it meant to be Irish, and that was more motivating. And so because of the need to inspire emotional motivation, there was a shift from the more civic to the more ethnic dimension.
- 6.87** In other cases like Sri Lanka, the shift from a more state-defined, non-ethnic definition of Sinhala nationalism, which began with decolonization, we then see a shift to a Sinhala, only a more Buddhist Sinhala-defined ethnic nationalism caused by populist politics, by populist politicians making those more emotional ethnic-religious appeals to Sri Lankan Buddhist national identity and outflanking the more moderate establishment. Sometimes populism can bring this more ethnic-style nationalism and shift the basis of nationalism towards ethnicity and away from the civic.

- 6.88** Now, I want to stress, of course, that as we've seen, there's high variation in use of the past national identity within countries. Within Sri Lanka, there still are civic nationalists who don't want to emphasize Buddhism, but there are clearly also many others who want to emphasize the ethnic. India would be another case of the rise of Hindu nationalism, whereas congress is more non-sectarian version of nationalism that Gandhi inaugurated with independence, gave way to the Hindu nationalism of the BJP. These are examples of a civic-to-ethnic shift.
- 6.89** We also have examples of an ethnic-to-civic shift. I talked about Germany already changing its citizenship laws so that birth was no longer the basis of citizenship. It became easier to acquire citizenship just living in Germany, and it didn't require ancestry. If we look at many Western countries, they've arguably gone from a more, arguably, ethnic definition of nationhood to a more civic definition of nationhood under the influence of rising education levels, rising university education, the spread of left liberal values into a wider swath of the population has shifted countries from a more ethnic to a more civic definition of nationhood.
- 6.90** Even in those so-called civic nations of Australia, Canada, United States, that had very ethnically restrictionist immigration policies until the 1960s and changed those policies to be colorblind, changed national identities away from emphasizing some aspects of religion and ethnicity to being much more multicultural. We've seen that shift from civic or from civic-to-ethnic, in the case of Ireland and Sri Lanka, and from ethnic-to-civic in the case of Western countries, particularly since the 1960s.
- 6.91** What about this moral valence of good and bad that has been attached to the civic and the ethnic? Well, there are those who would argue, like David Brown in his book, when he's looking at different types of national identities, he argues that, in fact, many civic nationalisms have a coercive, authoritarian and even genocidal side, and many of the ethnic nationalism, in fact, are not very violent. Now, it's not clear. This is not a systematic survey of different national identities across all countries over time. We can't make definitive conclusions.
- 6.92** But one of the ways in which civic national identities are exclusive is that they tend to see ethnic attachments or religious attachments as unpatriotic. "We, Indonesia, have our national identity, which is republican. You want to maintain your Chinese, your Buddhist, your other identity; you're being unpatriotic, and then you become a target." Or, "We, Cambodia, have a Communist form of national identity. You're not loyal to communism or you're an ethnic minority; you're a suspect, and therefore you are liable to be excluded or exterminated."
- 6.93** You even saw that in the French Revolution, the civic nationalism. Clearly, it becomes in its second phase after 1792, extremely exclusive, expels foreigners, obviously engages in a lot of killing. There is an intolerance linked to ideology. Insofar as civic nations are underpinned by ideology, if you are a dissenter from that ideology, then you become a target. So they become very intolerant.

- 6.94** Equally, if we talk about ethnic nationalisms, we know they can be very intolerant of ethnic minorities. But sometimes that focus on defining the nation culturally, as in the case of Wales or Brittany, means that there is less of an emphasis on political conformity. So they may be less violent. That's Brown's argument.
- 6.95** So one of the arguments here is that all nationalisms have the potential to be violent exclusive. Ideological types of nationalism, which are more "civic," and the more cultural types that are more, "ethnic." Universalist and particularist types of nationalism, both are susceptible to extremist versions that can become violent. And so it's not possible simply to say the ethnic type is bad and the civic type is good. It's all about degrees to which these identities are put into practice. Any identity taken to an extreme leads to nefarious consequences. Thank you.
- 6.96** We learned a lot of different levels from ethnic groups, over national identity, to state. I'm going [ask] to a very practical thing because each state, it doesn't matter which thick ideology they're running, if it's nationalism or something else, has practical problems, like a lack of doctors. Which means: how to get new doctors? One way is immigration. So my question is—because we know immigration can cause problems to a state on all levels. The question is how to select immigrants besides their obvious skill, like being a medical doctor, and how does it fit together with the national identity and liberal point of views, for example, to make everything work together like a big engine.
- 6.97** The conception of national identity, clearly, if you have an ethnic conception of national identity, then the only immigrants that you are going to be willing to take are co-ethnics, say from an ethnic diaspora. "German diaspora in Eastern Europe, they can immigrate, but we don't want Poles and Hungarians to immigrate to Germany." That would be the attitude and the approach where ethnicity would be important in shaping who comes the country.
- 6.98** Whereas the more civic approach, if we want to use, again, these terms as problematic as they are, is to say, "Well, what we're concerned with is the vitality of the state, its wealth—so the more quantitative universal dimension of nationhood—and therefore we don't care what the ethnocultural background is or even how many people necessarily come in, because that's a good thing, more population, more power, more prestige in the state. So you would have a very different attitude depending on form of national identity.
- 6.99** Now, of course, as we saw in this lecture, does ideology shape national identity or does national identity shape ideology? I think my argument, or the argument of many, would tend to be that ideology shapes national identity more than the reverse, and therefore it really does depend upon the ideology of the different actors in the state as to their approach to your question.

- 6.100** The question of whether it's liberal or not is a political theory question—and there's a whole literature, which I don't talk about in these lectures, which is about the political philosophy, the political theory of whether—can you have liberal nationalism? Is immigration good or bad? Is it liberal to restrict immigration, to have an immigration policy that selects on the basis of ethnic origin, for example? These are all questions that political philosophers are interested in and deal with.
- 6.101** In the case of a state with quickly rising diverse ethnicities, linguistic, and—one, you can argue that ideologies are often shaped by ethnicity and even linguistic understanding of things. In a case where states have quickly rising diverse ethnic and linguistic minorities, how can state symbols affect the integration and cohesion of the overall population, especially if there's also a decline in the dominant ethnic minority? For example, I was thinking the U.S., how it doesn't actually have a national language.
- 6.102** Again, if we start with this idea of types of national identity—if we go to this mechanisms, resources theory, which would say, well, you could imagine a situation where religion was the key to a nation, but they didn't care about ethnicity. You know, ISIS. I'm going to talk about Islamic State, which is a funny entity. The philosophy of ISIS was: as long as you're a fundamentalist Sunni Muslim, we don't care what your ethnic background, your language is. I don't think we would call that a civic nation, ISIS. But we might say that Islam was the basis for nationhood. Islam is the basis for nationhood in Pakistan and Iran as well.
- 6.103** You might imagine a society where if the United States was Sunni Muslim or let's say it was, we're about Protestant fundamentalism in the United States. We don't care your ethnic background or religion. As long as you sign up to Protestant fundamentalism, then you are an American with us. You can have—now, the question is, what is the glue? What is the creed? And is it symbolically deep enough?
- 6.104** Anthony Smith would argue, you need to have symbolic depth to create the emotional attachment. One of the reasons he was skeptical that the European Union, for example, could compete with nations is the nations had the mythosymbolic depth that something like the European Union did not, and therefore the European Union couldn't compete symbolically.
- 6.105** One of the questions would be, is there something mythosymbolically that the nation is offering that is rich and deep enough that can compete with ethnic religious attachments of immigrants? Now, one of the arguments, those who subscribe to a creedal version of American national identity would say, "Well, the Constitution, the ideals of the American Revolution, is enough to serve as a deep symbolic glue, especially when we throw in some heroic episodes, although, of course, all of that's being deconstructed.
- 6.106** But is it enough to have just these abstract ideals? Is America just an idea? Is that enough to compete with the attachments of ancestry and religion and so on? And that

is a debate. Some would say abstract ideals on their own are just not symbolically—don't have enough depth really to compete and to woo people away from these other identities.

- 6.107** Then there's also a secondary question of: to what extent are you willing to say everyone who comes here must sing, must pledge allegiance, must only be—if you're going to do the creedal thing, then you might have to go where Teddy Roosevelt went, or Woodrow Wilson, that, "anyone who holds dual loyalties is a traitor to America." You must be 100% only an American, and this is what America is. Even if it's creedal, that is one version. That's a hard version of civic nationalism, as opposed to, "Well, here's some ideals out on the table. Subscribe to them if you wish. Aren't they nice? But definitely keep your culture." That's a different version of civic nationalism.
- 6.108** One of the dilemmas is: if we're not willing to do hardcore civic nationalism and high pressure assimilation—state-led French Third Republic— 100% Americanism of the early 20th century, if it's more voluntaristic, is there going to be assimilation? Is there going to be cohesion or not? I guess that is one of the questions.
- 6.109** Even if you were to do that high-pressure assimilation, can ideals, constitutions compete with ancestry and religion? Is it enough just to have that, or do you need to have an ethnic majority that has more of those ethnocultural religious elements to anchor the civic nation? You can have a certain number of people who have somewhat conflicting or multiple identities, but you need a core population that doesn't have those conflicting identities where the ethnicity, the religion, the nation line up in order to give stability to the nation. If that becomes just one group among others, then there will be a loss of coherence. These are debates that we can have, and we can see examples over time which confirm or go against that.
- 6.110** But we probably have answered a little bit. Where does Commonwealth go to this? Canada is part of the Commonwealth. They have their own civic credo, but they're also part of the Commonwealth. They're like, what happened in Brexit when some people identify, some Brits identify, as European. Would you categorize that as European? Would you categorize that as still a nationalism when it's not really a nation thing?
- 6.111** European is what we would call a "supranational." So it's a higher level of identity than national. Just like being Christian is a higher level than being Protestant, being white is a higher level than being Irish or Italian. It's a supra- or panethnic. That's the level that Europe is. Now, how those higher-level constructs relate to national identity is interesting.
- 6.112** You take the case, you could be, for example, somebody who thinks you know, "British national identity is about being the most progressive, liberal country on Earth. That's where I get my national pride of being British from. Being a member of the EU shows that Britain is a liberal, progressive country, which makes me proud to be British."

- 6.113** Actually, you have a relationship between more universalist, or supranational entities, and national identity. It might be, for example, that in Ukraine being part of the EU solidifies Ukrainian national identity. "We are not Russian. We are part of the European Union. So that becomes part of our national identity." And so there's this relationship between the universal and the particular over time. Being Catholic and being Irish—Catholicism is clearly a supranational type of identity, but it can, at times, reinforce national identity when you have, let's say, a Protestant country like Britain. If that's who you're opposed to as an Irish Catholic, then the Catholicism reinforces your particularity vis-a-vis the country that you're opposed to. Sometimes the universal—
- 6.114** I'd say in the case of Remain Voters, for Remain Voters, being European reinforces their version of British national identity, which emphasizes, "Britain is the most diverse, the most progressive, the most liberal. That's what I'm proud of being British." European fits very well with that. There are these competing versions of national identity.
- 6.115** There's a version of British national identity that is based on what's known as missionary nationalism. You take a universal idea like Europeanism or Liberalism by saying, "We are number one in exemplifying this universal idea," that becomes the basis of your national pride. For example, Saudi Arabia or Iran, "We are the most Muslim. We are the best Muslims, and that's where we get our national identity from as Saudi or Iranians."
- 6.116** It's taking something that's universal, Islam—it's a proselytizing religion that transcends nation—but by saying we are performing the best on this universal metric, that's where we get our pride from. It's a universalist form of nationalism. Or Soviet Union, "We are exemplifying communism." So you take this universal idea of communism, "We are first among equals when it comes to communism, and that's our national identity."
- 6.117** So this is quite complex. This is, again, all about how you use different resources. Based on your ideology, you will use different resources to construct different versions of nationhood. And that's just to say that there are competing versions of nationhood within all nations.

Lecture 7: Everyday Nationalism

At a glance — Everyday nationalism — a newer perspective on the ordinary experience of nationhood.

- 7.1 Welcome back. I'm now going to move to speaking about the topic of everyday nationalism. This is a new perspective that has emerged in the literature on nationalism studies in the last 20 years.
- 7.2 The first classical theories— Anthony Smith, John Breuilly, John Armstrong, Eric Hobsbawm, Ernest Gellner—these writers on nationalism theory, very much emphasized elites and institutions: the state, political elites, the bourgeoisie. Even for ethnosymbolists, it might have been writers and intellectuals, but it was intellectual elites. So the emphasis has generally been, whether we're talking about modernism or ethnosymbolism, it's been on elites' intentionality and institutions.
- 7.3 One of the new perspectives that's emerged is to say, "All of those theories are a little bit top-down. They're important, but what's missing here is how are the messages of nationalists received by the public," so the reception side, the more psychological side, as opposed to the more economic, political, or cultural, for that matter, side of things.
- 7.4 So there's a critique then from the so-called nationalism from below perspective to say that classical nationalism theory of the 1980s and '90s focuses too heavily on elites who have an idea of the nation and disseminate it outwards and downwards, whether that is political elites, bureaucrats, or economic elites, or, in the case of ethnosymbolists, romantic scholar intellectuals or religious figures.
- 7.5 This is very much a top-down conception of how national identity works. Somebody imagines the nation and teaches it to the population or forces it on the population. It's the production side and not the consumption side, the supply side and not the demand side of national identity.
- 7.6 So, how is the nationalist message received? And do the people that receive that message have any agency also in producing? Does the average consumer, if you think of a brand, consumers can express disapproval; they can decide not to buy the brand. Maybe in focus groups, they can shape the marketing strategy of firms. There's some feedback from the consumers back to the producers. It's not just one way. This gets us to critiques then of nationalism theory, it being too elite-focused and top-down in production rather than consumption-oriented.
- 7.7 There also is a tendency, and again, even the ethnosymbolists—Anthony Smith talks about the idea of the constitutive myth of the ethnic polity—this idea that there is a national identity, what he calls mythomotor. Then, of course, on the modernist side, likewise, this idea of there is one notion of what it means to be French, which is taught in the schools, the one dictionary, the one version of the Larousse French history. [The

emphasis] is very much on conscious intentionality rather than necessarily what's happening in people's psychological subconsciousness.

- 7.8** There's an emphasis on what's called hot nationalism, so parades, wars, moments when nationalism is very manifest, maybe not enough emphasis on what's happening on a more mundane level, day-to-day, in terms of reproducing the nation. Some of the new perspectives focus very much on the mundane quotidian, less on the hot faces, more on the cool and banal parts of life, that maybe the key to understanding national identity, its durability, its changes, comes not necessarily always from looking at elites in their messages, particularly in crises or even in celebrations, but actually looking at the day-to-day.
- 7.9** There were hints of this critique already in the 1990s. Eric Hobsbawm, who was long the President of the University where I taught at, Birkbeck, at the University of London, who, incidentally, I did have in my class to speak on a number of occasions and is associated very much with the modernist school. But even he would criticize Ernest Gellner and say, "If I have a criticism of Gellner's work, Hobsbawm and Gellner, they're both on the modernist side. They both believe the state comes first, culture and identity come second, so they share a lot."
- 7.10** But Hobsbawm recognized the importance of phenomena like football teams and their relationship to national identity. His view was that the perspective of modernization from above—Gellner's model of industrial capitalism, everybody having to learn the official language to be good employees in that capitalist system to serve the state, that official ideologies of states and movements are not guides to what is in the minds of even the most loyal citizen, that is the supply, the supply side, the production side of nationalism, elites, their ideologies, their constitutions, their official histories may not be what is in the minds of the consumer.
- 7.11** The consumer, even the most loyal nationalist citizen, may have a different picture in their mind of what the nation is than the official hymn sheet. They're not the same thing. The question we'll then ask is whether, in fact, that consumer and their imaginings, their sense of what the nation is, then can influence the producers back and forth to create something new.
- 7.12** Social psychologist Michael Billig wrote a book called *Banal Nationalism* in 1995 that emphasized this idea of the background process of flagging of the nation in everyday life, an ambient, if you like, a background noise that roots national perspectives. He would look at things that most of us wouldn't notice: use of the term "we" or "our" in national newspapers and broadcasts, regardless of party. The fact that there's a weather map provided showing the national territory—France, the U.S., Argentina, wherever, whatever country we're talking about—the national weather, does broadcasting national weather help to reproduce national identity?

- 7.13** Because if we get away from this idea of how nations were formed to how they're reproduced, if we bracket away the formation phase and we look more at the reproduction phase—and this literature is more interested in reproduction than in formation, whereas the classical literature was more interested, arguably, in formation than in reproduction—but reproduction of the nation—because one question we could ask is: nation is such a norm, we take it for granted, could we move to a world without nations, where it's maybe just city-states, and empires? What is it that maintains the system of nations?
- 7.14** For Billig, he's arguing that these banal routines, such as the weather reports, such as the use of language, "we won this many medals in the Olympics," all of the uses of these terminologies help to create the national "we." In their words, "The unwaved flag is as important as the waived flag," so we're not just going to look at the national celebrations, but we're going to look at people putting the flag out in their mailbox, for example. The everyday use of national symbolism might be more important than that one day on July the Fourth when there's a big national moment in parades and so on.
- 7.15** Billig argues that both left and right both talk the language of nation, even if they don't realize they're doing it, even using language such as "we are," "us," and so on, even presenting the weather, these mundane things can help reproduce in people a sense of being part of a community, a national community. It's almost this subconscious background noise, constantly reproducing understandings of nationhood. They don't necessarily involve any deliberate action by state agencies, bureaucracies, conscription, military. None of the classical stuff of nationalism theory is involved in this work.
- 7.16** This is very much a focus on background noise, everyday signals that are received in a population, and this helps the nation to somehow, through osmosis, emerge. So that's the Banal Nationalism of Michael Billig, the backgrounding in everyday life of the nation.
- 7.17** From this, we then can move to a literature which says, "Let's look at how national identity is reproduced by popular culture in everyday life, particularly in a capitalist economy." You can see, for example, consumer products. You can think in the United States case of the big three American cars—General Motors, Ford, Chrysler—and granted, there are other brands, but brands which come to personify or become symbols of American national identity. And then there are products that hark back to historical episodes—Puritan Beef Stew or Wells Fargo Bank with its Western imagery, harking back to the settling of the West. This can occasionally actually acquire higher salience.
- 7.18** Very recently, some of you may be aware, there's a brand in the United States, a restaurant chain called Cracker Barrel, which there was a controversy that erupted when Cracker Barrel tried to change their logo from a folksy traditional logo of a man with a barrel to something that was more abstract. There was a consumer revolt,

particularly associated with the relatively more rural, relatively more Republican consumer base of this restaurant chain.

- 7.19** It's illustrating that, in fact, consumer products may be vectors for national identity and national symbols, not just the state and its education system and its military and its constitution, but everyday consumer objects and products. This goes back to the 19th century, where you would get plate sets and coin sets that would feature the flags of, say, the United States or so on. Or you would have the Time-Life paintings and lithographs, which would show classic American scenes.
- 7.20** And so, actually, a consumer market economy, what is a consumer market economy doing reproducing national symbols? In a market, there's always the consumers and the producers; what the consumers want or what the producers think the consumers want, they will give them if they think they can sell more or increase the price.
- 7.21** And so there's always that feedback between consumers and producers. In that sense, the consumers, the demand side, are shaping the suppliers, the supply side, that idea of the market is also shaping national identity, not just the state, the government, and educator intellectuals in national universities, for example. That classical model of elite, top-down generated national identity is in some ways challenged by the account from the nationalism from below scholars who are saying, "Some of the routines of everyday life also involve the reproduction of nationhood."
- 7.22** It's not just the corporate world and capitalism, but also maybe individuals through peer-to-peer fads are shaping things. Especially in the world of social media, sometimes phenomena can rise up and become influential. Tim Edensor in his book, *National Identity, Popular Culture, and Everyday Life*. Edensor is an important theorist of everyday nationalism, and he argues that we have to go beyond elite construction to look at forgotten areas of national symbolic construction—sport, music, capitalist consumption, carnival—that these sorts of popular activities that people take part in can actually be a source of national symbolism and national understanding, the role of how fads and trends within populations, within popular culture, can change, what it means to be British, what it means to be French, what it means to be Vietnamese, etc.
- 7.23** In addition, the view is that, in fact, the meanings of symbols are not fixed, but multiple, what's known as polysemic or multivocal symbols, to use Victor Turner's terminology, that a flag can have multiple meanings, a product can have multiple meanings; it can change its meaning. The meaning of a product like Cracker Barrel can be related to another identity, like being Southern American, like being White American, like national symbols that go back further into the past. So symbols are related to each other in different ways.
- 7.24** People have attachments to those symbols, different attachments to those symbols. People learn to read the symbols in an area, in a landscape, and they impose a meaning, but partly the meaning comes out of those symbols. There's a two-way

influence between the consumers and the producers. How do you read a landscape? Do you notice things? Do you notice a Confederate statue? And do you know what it means? How do you interpret a statue of Christopher Columbus or Winston Churchill? Sometimes people don't notice at all. Other times, they attach different meanings to one a particular symbol.

- 7.25** Edensor talks about this seething mass of cultural elements, forms, and practices, and in his words, people make and remake connections between the local and the national, what they observe in their everyday life, whether they impart meaning to those things. That then feeds back into the nation. If we think of the nation as the sum total of the imaginings of the entire population, if we look at it from the consumer level, we're taking what's in people's heads, what's in the consumer's heads, the sum total, the average of that becoming the nation. There is what Edensor calls a matrix of connections between objects, symbols, and the nation.
- 7.26** This also raises this question of appropriation of symbols. Right now in Britain, for example, we see the St. George's Cross, which is the England flag or the Union Jack British flag, appearing on lampposts in many cities and towns up and down England. One of the arguments would be, "This is a symbol of people who are opposed to illegal immigration into Britain, and it is an assertion of a defensive cultural nationalism." What that represents then is a particular political movement appropriating—to use the terminology—appropriating the British and English flag, assigning a meaning to that flag which all of their followers understand and other people understand.
- 7.27** Now, it's not to say everybody has the same understanding of those symbols, but it's to say that there's a certain extent to which these symbols are fought over by different groups and appropriated in different ways, sometimes to include wider strata. If, for example, in the 1996 Euro soccer tournament, the England flag suddenly became something that was acceptable for people on the left or ethnic minorities to fly, where it had been associated more with the right or even the far right, that might be seen as an inclusive use of that symbol. In other cases, perhaps where the far right appropriates the British or English flag, that can be seen as exclusive. The point here is that these symbols don't have a fixed meaning, but they have changing meanings over time.
- 7.28** It also means that different elements in the population, different consumers, have a different picture of which symbols are important to them. Last lecture, we talked about symbolic resources and how people's ideologies determined how they saw certain symbols, which symbols, which myths, which stories they found to be important. Something similar is going on here. Depending on your ideological orientation, perhaps your ethnicity, perhaps your region, you are going to read something different into that flag.
- 7.29** We can think, for example, of the Union Jack flag in Britain as an example of this polysemic or multivocal process. It is a symbol of Ulster unionism in Northern Ireland. If

you go to a Protestant neighborhood, particularly a working-class neighborhood in Northern Ireland, you'll see the red, white, and blue curbstones; you'll see the Union Jack flag being flown from lampposts. This is a symbol that this is a Unionist, loyalist area, Protestant area.

- 7.30** But equally, the Union Jack flag has been used by 1960s Mods, a symbol of the Who, the band. It's appeared among British pop acts like Stormzy and the Spice Girls. You have no one meaning being assigned to this flag. What does the flag mean when the British rapper Stormzy wears the Union Jack? It's partly signaling that this is not American rap music; this is British rap music or British hip hop. It's still nationalism.
- 7.31** One of the points is that regardless of how this symbol is used, it's reproducing the nation. Even if you're critical of where the country is going, or if you're critical of nationalism and you think it should be something else, even using that idiom of "we" and "us" and "ours" helps to reinforce the norm of nationhood in a country. It's that battle over the appropriation of symbols by different fragments of the population. That fits in with this John Hutchinson, Oliver Zimmer view of nations as zones of conflict between competing interpretations of what the nation is.
- 7.32** We can see this in the historical literature on the nation as refracted through the local. That is, again, this is another later development in theorizing about nationalism that says, that it wasn't just the case that Paris rolled out what it meant to be French across all of Southern France and Western France. Actually, there were already local traditions, and those local traditions were a lens through which the national was reinterpreted.
- 7.33** If we take western Germany, Rhineland-Pfalz, which has a history of resisting French aggression over many years, they interpreted German national identity around the time of World War I as essentially being about resisting French tyranny. If we go to Hamburg, which was a Hanseatic port city, has a grand naval history, they interpreted Germany as a seafaring nation, as a natural imperial country that had ties around the world. So they're interpreting German national identity through the lens of being a port city that has historic ties to other parts of the world.
- 7.34** What that's saying is essentially, depending on the region you live in your country, your regional identity will inflect your national identity. There may be a New England version of American national identity. There may be a Southern version of American national identity that is distinct from the Western version. In France, there will be a Provençal version of French national identity that's different from the Parisian version. And similarly, national days, you sometimes may see a weaving in of local notables and celebrities with national symbols.
- 7.35** So it's never so clear as the top-down ironing out of everybody, all those peasants into Frenchmen. It's actually, even in the case of a country like France, which is quite

centralized, there's a dialog between the consumers in the regions and the producers in the center.

- 7.36** An example from Asia, where we would contrast the case of Thailand, which had the symbolic figure of the king and the Thai political tradition with that of the Philippines, which doesn't have that one focal point, the one king. As John Sidel, who writes on Southeast Asia, says, "The Philippines lacked the same point that Thailand had, for example, that could embody the nation through the king. They didn't have that." They still had a national identity; it just emerged in a more diffuse and demotic way from below. Popular representations and struggles were styled and understood as Filipino, archetypally Filipino. So you don't have to have that top-down singular focus; you can have a more diffuse bottom-up focus to your national identity as well.
- 7.37** We talked in the lecture on ethnic and civic nationhood, on the view that there are multiple versions of the nation competing within one national bosom, if you like—Zimmer's idea of mechanisms: my view, my idea of lenses. John Hutchinson talking about zones of conflict between different layers of the past, different interpreters of nationhood.
- 7.38** So you have these competing perceptions, which means people of different ideologies—we talked about people from different regions of Germany and so on, having different conceptions of the national. But equally, people on the left, people on the right may have very different views of what's important to them in terms of national myths, symbols, and memories. And the more polarized a society, the more likely it is that their versions of national identity differ in substantial ways.
- 7.39** Cohen has this term personal nationalism, that people construct their own personal national identity from various symbolic materials, which would suggest that every individual has a different perception of what the nation is to them in their minds. Now, I think it's fair to say that there's a lot of overlap in people's perceptions. Perhaps it can be said that certain groups and regions and ideological fragments share a lot in common in their view of what the nation is.
- 7.40** Complexity theory, this idea that phenomena emerge from the bottom up rather than from the top down, is one way to understand this perspective of how national identity exists. Complexity theory says something complex emerges from something simple. You have higher-level coordination emerging from uncoordinated, lower-level action. A complex phenomenon like a market, like a forest, is self-organizing or organizes itself from below.
- 7.41** There are other features of complex systems. One is that you have a feedback loop, say, between producers and consumers, what producers can produce for what price, what consumers want to buy at what price, and they're always feeding back on each other to create the market. Sometimes small changes have a big effect, and sometimes big changes have no effect. So we have these tipping points in complex systems. The

straw that broke the camel's back, if you like—sometimes one little sand grain can be decisive. At other times, all that sand that's pouring in doesn't do anything. Cause and effect are not necessarily linearly proportional.

- 7.42 This concept of wisdom of crowds, that knowledge might be—knowledge about the price of a vegetable is distributed amongst all consumers and all producers in a system. It is not contained within any one head. And so, likewise, we could say the national identity is not necessarily contained in one document in one person. It is actually distributed, and we have to amalgamate it to understand what it is. That's not to say that there are not common elements; there are, but it's also true there's a lot of difference in national identity as we move from region to region, individual to individual.
- 7.43 Classic top-down diffusion, as in theories of nationalism from the classical period of 1980s and '90s, involves intentionality and top-down diffusion. Like a government, the President gives the order, it goes to the bureaucrats, they execute, and the military carries out orders. A military is very hierarchical and top-down. A market is very bottom-up, peer-to-peer. What gets produced at what price is something that emerges from below, not from above. So there are different kinds of phenomena.
- 7.44 If you think about a school of fish or a flock of birds, a flock of birds has collective behavior. If a predator comes in and attacks the flock, the flock will move shape in certain ways. The flock will have a direction. It'll be moving in one direction, not because there's a lead bird with the master plan. This is not a military. There are a small set of rules: you have to keep a certain distance from each bird, you react in a certain way when there's a predator—out of those very small set of simple rules comes the flock-like behavior. The collective level property emerges from simplicity below.
- 7.45 Likewise, as Yves Deloye, one of the theorists of nationalism from below would argue, "What we see is the emergence of a national identification that is on the whole an unintended result." This idea of something that is self-organizing that emerges through unintended consequences.
- 7.46 Again, that doesn't mean there isn't intentionality. Of course, there is. Of course, there is nation-building and the intention of making Italians and making Frenchmen. However, it depends on the country. It depends on the time. Sometimes, the top-down state-led intentionality is more important. Other times, the emergent bottom-up is more important. It's arguable that in a consumer mass society, the emergent bottom-up component becomes more important.
- 7.47 An example comes from an exercise carried out by the British supermarket chain, Marks & Spencer, which had something it called the Landscape Portrait. It asked people what images represented Britain to them, and they had over 400 images that were selected—everything from a cup of tea talking about the weather, Bank holidays, love of pubs, stiff upper lips, saying sorry, moaning, a whole bunch of things.

- 7.48 The point here is we're not just talking about the Constitution, the monarchy, the BBC, one symbol, or even a handful of symbols; we're talking about hundreds of symbols, again, illustrating from a consumer perspective how there are many different aspects of particularity, everyday life, things that appear in everyday life that people associate with the nation in different ways.
- 7.49 So then the nation is emerging on the basis of this very wide range of symbols rather than from something, a hymn sheet that says, "These are the British values. These are the monarchical symbols. This is the national identity." No, actually, people have very varied ideas of what is important to them in the national identity.
- 7.50 What that also is connected with is, again, sticking to this idea of multivocality, people reading different things into the same symbol, people having different national identities based on which social group, which region, which ideology they belong to. Let's take a survey conducted by the BBC in 2018 about English identity. There's a whole series of symbols that people were asked to rate as how important they were in their English national identity: the countryside, stiff upper lip, sporting events like rugby or football, English history and heritage, poetry, literature and art, Christianity, and this phrase, "diverse cultural life."
- 7.51 If we look at the mean ratings, countryside and history got the highest rating of 3.2 out of 4. Christianity actually was rated relatively low at 2.4, 2.2, thereabouts. But what was, in my view, particularly interesting is the variation by characteristic. How strongly do the following contribute to your English identity? The English countryside—if you're White British, 82% said the English countryside contributed strongly to their sense of being English. Non-White British people, 50%. So still 50%, but there's a big difference between White and non-White Britons in the importance of the English countryside as a symbol that is meaningful to them in their English identity.
- 7.52 Or we'll take the phrase, "England's diverse cultural life—that's important to 62% of Remain voters, people who voted to remain in the European Union. It's important for only 38% of Leave voters, people who voted to leave the European Union. So we have this symbol that is much more meaningful to one group of voters than another group of voters.
- 7.53 England's Christian tradition is meaningful to 64% of British people who identify as Christian and is meaningful to only 16% of English people who identify as having no religion. Sixty-four [percent] versus 16%, a massive difference in the importance of England's Christian tradition as something people are attached to in their English identity.
- 7.54 History and heritage, more important to older people and White English people compared to younger people and non-White English people. There's some other interesting ones, one of which is this idea of plain speaking. That's much more important to people in the north of England and to those who voted Leave than it is to

people in London or those who voted Remain. There's a 15 to 20 point gap between those two.

- 7.55** This is illustrating how, depending on the group you belong to—age group, religious group, ethnic group, ideology—you're going to have a somewhat different lens that is refracting light from various symbols to your eyes. You're going to have a different view of those different symbols. You're going to assign more weight, let's say, to the English countryside if you are a White English person than if you are a member of an ethnic minority.
- 7.56** Now, one of the reasons for that might be that White British people are more likely to visit the countryside. They're more likely to live in small villages. Ethnic minorities are more likely to live in large cities. But even when we take that out of the equation, the rural-urban, that doesn't really explain this. The attachment to the countryside is simply stronger amongst White English people than amongst non-White English people.
- 7.57** There are other interesting symbols that might differ along the lines of ethnicity. It's interesting that certain symbols, like the National Health Service in Britain, which is the healthcare system, is seen as an important symbol of national identity across ethnic lines. But there are other symbols that are valued more highly. The royal family is actually valued more highly by non-White British people than by White British—sorry, the royal family is valued more highly by White British than by minority British people.
- 7.58** But then you have other interesting symbols such as racial appearance. If we take a phrase like "pale skin, blue eyes, red or light hair"—that is actually a symbol of Britishness that is valued more by British Sikhs, a non-White group, than by White British people. We can speculate as to why that is. There is clearly a difference. In fact, British Sikhs are more similar to people who voted to leave the European Union in their view of this symbol than people who voted to remain, but who are White British. So ethnicity and ideology play a role in how one thinks about symbols.
- 7.59** If we look at the American case, we can see something very similar. The question here is: How American do you feel when thinking about the following symbols? American history, the armed forces, the American countryside, pickup trucks, and cowboys. American history gets the highest rating on average, 71 out of 100. The Army: 67 out of 100, pickup trucks and cowboys are around 49 out of 100. Okay, fine.
- 7.60** We can also look at another set of symbols: national parks, the diverse mix of groups, immigrants and alternative neighborhoods. National parks: 67 out of 100, diverse mix of groups: 58, immigrants: 48, alternative neighborhoods: 45. Different sports: baseball, football, basketball, hockey—baseball and football score higher than basketball, which scores higher than hockey.
- 7.61** What's interesting is when we break down these results by, for example, partisanship. You can see substantial differences, say, between Democrats and Republicans, most notably on symbols such as cowboys and pickup trucks, which, if you take Republicans,

cowboys get a 62, pickup truck is a 61 out of 100. For Democrats, those numbers are around 40, so 20 points lower.

7.62 There is, however, agreement on the importance of American history. It's higher for Republicans at 0.8 compared to 66 for Democrats, but it's still high for both parties. The armed forces: 77 for Republicans, 59 for Democrats, still both reasonably high. National parks are rated relatively high by both partisans. But if we take alternative neighborhoods, Democrats rate that as being more important to their sense of being American. Immigrants: for Democrats, that's more important for their sense of being American than for Republicans.

7.63 Likewise, the diverse mix of groups in America: Democrats identify with that more when they—it says, "How American do you feel when thinking about the diverse mix of groups in the country?" Democrats are more likely to say, "That diversity is important to my Americanness" than Republicans. It's just showing then that partisan affiliation, like ideology, refracts national identity. It tells you which symbols are more salient for national identity.

7.64 There are also ethnic differences, too, particularly between White and Black Americans. Cowboys have a score of only 28 out of 100 from Black Americans, a score 52 for White Americans, 53 for Latino Americans. Black Americans identify much less than Latino and White Americans with cowboys, and likely something similar with pickup trucks and with the American countryside. Again, Latinos and Whites are relatively similar on a lot of these questions, Blacks differ more. For example, the American countryside, only 42 out of 100 for Black Americans, but 64 for Latinos, 66 for White Americans.

7.65 To try and summarize all of this and to wrap up, I've talked about everyday nationalism, which is a new school of thought that emerges in the 2000s, that is a critique of the classical theories of nationalism, be they modernist or ethnosymbolist. The critique is that the classical theorists emphasize the state, for modernists, or cultural intellectuals, for ethnosymbolists. They emphasized intentionality, institutions, the production of nationalist messages, and the distribution of those messages from the core to the periphery down the scale. That is a lot of what the nationalism theory was talking about in the '80s and '90s.

7.66 What that misses, according to this school, is the unconscious, the background, the ordinary, the mundane ways in which the nation reproduced, not produced, but reproduced over time and maintained. The fact that it is not just produced from one central node and transmitted, but it's produced from many different nodes, and there's a peer-to-peer element to this.

7.67 It means that the nation emerges through this feedback loop between producers and consumers who are multiple. It emerges through many different channels, not just the state, but through, for example, consumerism, popular culture. It means that the

national identity that exists in the minds of the consumers is different from that of any one object, constitution, or list.

- 7.68** It means that national identity varies from person to person, but certainly from group to group, be those groups, regional, ethnic, or ideological. The ideological one is probably increasingly important, arguably. It has always been important. As John Hutchinson notes, the Whigs interpreted English history very differently from the Tories. So there's always been a degree to which national identity is contested within a country. But perhaps in a more polarized system with a less unified education system, less unified or less powerful state-led nationalism, the emergent consumer-led nationalism becomes more important.
- 7.69** So thinking about national identity as a complex system, like a flock of birds rather than a top-down machine like a robot or a military. A robot, you turn it off, the thing is finished. But with a forest, you cut down a tree, the forest is still going. With a flock of birds, you take out the so-called lead bird, the flock will continue and reconfigure.
- 7.70** So [it's] this idea of the national identity as an emerging complex system with feedback loops between producers and consumers and differences between members of the nation in how they perceive the nation. Of course, the more polarized the society, the more variegated and varied the national identity is. Therefore, it makes less and less sense to talk about a singular American national identity.
- 7.71** You can see how conflicts can emerge over something like Cracker Barrel replacing its logo; it can become a cause célèbre because that symbol is tied to other symbols within a conservative Southern or Republican version of American national identity that has a stake in that symbol. Or in the case of the English flag and the way it's being used now in terms of protests against illegal immigration [compared to] the way it has been appropriated in the past, perhaps by more liberal elements in pop culture, for example, in British hip-hop or amongst the Mods in the 1960s. A particular symbol can be given different meanings and can be appropriated in different ways.
- 7.72** This is to say then that bottom-up popular construction of nationhood is going on. The nation can change through fads and through peer-to-peer influence, not just because the leaders of the Irish Easter Rising decide that they can't push a secular nationalism anymore, and they have to move to a more Gaelic Catholic nationalism, so it's the decision of a small number of men, that's actually not necessarily going to be how the national identity shifts and changes. It might shift and change from below in ways that we can't be 100% sure; we can't predict with certainty. There may be some catalyzing event, there may be some tipping point that can suddenly shift the nature of what it means to be French or Filipino or American or so on.
- 7.73** And likewise, the question of which symbols will be salient, which will be emotionally resonant in a population may change suddenly over time. Certain events, certain moments can suddenly change this dynamic. Thank you.

- 7.74 In terms of bottom-up assertion, how does it really happen? How do these groups tend to self-organize to take over these symbols, so much so that counter movements end up accepting that meaning, even if it's just to disapprove that meaning? You have to accept that meaning in order to disapprove it in that way. So how does that really happen? And then what happens if state-down nationalism or meaning on symbols opposes the emerging bottom-up assertion of a meaning on the same symbol? Has that ever happened and what would that mean?
- 7.75 Good questions as to how these appropriations happen. If you take something like the use of the English flag, this soccer tournament, this Euro '96 tournament, where people started waving England flags to support the England team, and that became an accepted thing to do even amongst left-leaning liberal people, who made that decision? I don't know. I don't know how it happened, or maybe it just happened by accident. That was a moment where this symbol suddenly became detoxified, so-called. Now, did the far right like that happening? Maybe not, but maybe they couldn't resist that.
- 7.76 We have another situation now where, let's say, the England flag is being flown as a protest against illegal immigration. Undoubtedly, there will be people who are on the left liberal side who don't like that. It's not obvious. I mean, they could suddenly wield the England flag at a pride parade, perhaps as a cultural strategy. Would that work or not? It's hard to say. I mean, it's hard to say how these things emerge.
- 7.77 The Canadian trucker protest with the waving of the Canadian flag, which had been a symbol of the state and had a more left liberal, not entirely, but it had a little bit more of that flavor to it. It was wielded by the truckers. You could see that those in the left liberal part of the spectrum were quite offended that what they thought of as their symbol was being wielded by people that they opposed.
- 7.78 I think what that's revealing is as you're getting ideological division within a society, that's going to play out in terms of how the national identity is shaped. I mean, these things are not necessarily—they may be conscious. There may be a PR campaign. Those campaigns might work; they might fail. They can fail, too. Very often, though, these things are spontaneous, and they happen in a fit of absence of mind, and things come to be associated with the flag.
- 7.79 I think with the American flag now, maybe some people would say that flying the American flag used to be everywhere. Likewise with the Canadian flag, too, particularly if you go into rural areas or cottages, maybe when you have a movement like the trucker movement in Canada, maybe people become more self-conscious about flying the flag, the ones who take it in. So there are these shifts that seem to occur somewhat spontaneously.
- 7.80 That's all I can say is that I think there definitely are people who are very put out by the way flags are used by people they don't like. But it's not obvious what they can do about it. They can try and re-appropriate the symbol. I'm trying to think of where that's

happened, and I'm struggling. I'm sure someone can come up with an example. It doesn't seem to be that common. It seems like these symbols shift in different ways.

- 7.81** I mean, it's funny because even something like the Confederate flag, it seemed in the '60s and '70s, it was more acceptable that that was a badge of Southern pride. Rock bands like Lynyrd Skynyrd would have it. It didn't have the same associations—I mean, it did have the same associations, but it didn't seem to have the same toxic polarizing effects as it does when that flag is challenged and has to be taken down from statehouses in the South. It's no longer seen as acceptable to have at country fairs. It suddenly becomes a political hot-button issue. Then the people who are still flying the Southern flag are going to be even more explicitly labeled with a particular political coloring.
- 7.82** So yeah, there's this whole world of deviance and norm. It's linked to how norms are created in society. The norm against homosexuality starts to fade, whereas norms against racism emerge, become stronger. Sometimes they're pushed back. Sometimes talking about immigration is seen as racist, and you can't talk about immigration. That's a norm. Maybe then people revolt against that. The norm has to retreat.
- 7.83** So there's this whole literature on deviance and norms and how this is really a law of the jungle in which people assert cultural norms. It's something similar has happened, they assert, and if they're accepted, then that becomes the new normal. So if somebody flies the British flag in a certain way or the English flag, it takes on a meaning and that becomes the meaning until the next move in the chess game of culture, which can maybe shift the meaning of that symbol over time.

Lecture 8: Nationalism and Populism

At a glance — Nationalism and populism and the connection between them.

- 8.1** This lecture will feature discussion around nationalism and populism. What is the connection between these two words, these two phenomena? Populism has, of course, been talked about more and more in the news for the past 10 years, certainly. What does that have to do with nationalism? Or are they the same thing? How are they related?
- 8.2** In the course, even in the first lecture of the course, we talked about nationalism as an "-ism," as an ideology, amongst other -isms like socialism, liberalism. One of the principles of nationalism is that the nation, the people, should be the bearers of political power rather than the ruler—particularly a foreign ruler, but in any case, rather than a particular ruler. So the people and their will are the bearers, the proper bearers of political power.
- 8.3** And that often led to the ousting of monarchs or foreign elites. In the case of monarchs, think about the French Revolution, getting rid of the king. In terms of foreign elites, that's seceding from empires like the Austro-Hungarian or the Ottoman Empire. Expelling the foreign elite to govern yourself is central to the whole principle of the idea of nationalism. Because the idea that the people should govern is one thing.
- 8.4** The question then becomes, who are "the people?" This was a question the French revolutionaries faced, what do you do with foreign citizens? Do they belong to the French nation anymore? People who are ideologically not aligned to the revolution, do they belong? What about those who are outside the religious and ethnic majority of the country? All of these questions around defining the people emerge once you declare that the people should have sovereignty, which you tend to in the case of nationalist revolutions. It raises a lot of questions around membership in the nation.
- 8.5** Nationalism, and now we move to populism. What is the difference? What are the similarities? According to Margaret Canovan, who's written a canonical work on populism, populism in democratic societies is best seen as an appeal to, "'the people,' as against the established power structure and the dominant ideas and values of society." Canovan theorized that populism could be a threat to democracy, but it could also renew democracy by bringing in new voices and new ideas, new political parties. It was known in her work, she saw populism as the shadow of democracy.
- 8.6** But in any case, both populism and nationalism, you can see talk about "the people" a lot. That you should trust the people. The people should be the bearer of sovereignty, not the elites. There is then a discussion of what is the relationship between these concepts? De Cleen and Stavrakakis in the 2017 piece, influential piece, argued that populism is about a vertical dimension between the elite up there and the people or the plebs down here, whereas nationalism is a horizontal dimension between us and

them over there, outsiders to the nation. So the vertical dimension: the populist versus the elite; the horizontal dimension is: the nation versus outsiders. That's the distinction.

- 8.7** But this has been problematized by writers such as Rogers Brubaker, who was actually also an important theorist of nationalism, as we saw with his books *Nationalism Reframed*, and *Citizenship and Nationhood in France and Germany*, which we've talked about. He said it's not actually so easy to neatly distinguish this vertical dimension and the horizontal dimension because there are different versions of populism and different versions of nationalism. Some versions of nationalism look very similar to some versions of populism and vice versa. The use of the term "the people" can be used to delineate, yes, the elite from the people, but also can be used to delineate the nation from those who are not members of the nation.
- 8.8** Often with nationalism, not always, but often there is an implied critique of some elite within your own society. Nationalists will often have a critique of an elite within their own society. If you think about, say, the English nationalism of the late 18th, early 19th century, which was somewhat critical of French influence in the English elite. It is nationalism, but it is equally critical of trends within a particular elite. It's not so easy to neatly disentangle these two dimensions.
- 8.9** But equally, there is arguably some worth in thinking about populism and nationalism as being at least somewhat distinct, perhaps. One way of trying to think that through is to say, "Can we have an elitist nationalism? Can we have a populist anti-nationalism?" Those are some questions that we're going to ask.
- 8.10** What is populism? I have shared a stage with Jan-Werner Müller, who's written a very useful book on populism called *What is Populism?* There are a couple of elements. One, of course, is being against the elite. Now, there's always the question of which elite, but anti-elitism is a feature of populism.
- 8.11** Being impatient with pluralism, different interest groups and parties squabbling for their interests within a democracy in perhaps a game of give-and-take, of accommodation. That messy accommodation of pluralist democracy is anathema to some populists or many populists who believe that there's a will of the people and it's being frustrated by those elites and special interests who don't have the will of the people at heart, and who are pushing the country away from its own will.
- 8.12** So there's this totalizing moralistic invocation of the people. That is, there's the real people, and then there are the people who are traitors or who are frustrating the will of the people or scapegoat minorities who are frustrating the will of the people. There are these broad brush generalizations. There's the virtuous people and there's the corrupt elite.
- 8.13** Cas Mudde has this concept of populism also as what he calls a "thin-centered ideology." You can have religious populism, anti-religious populism. You can have left-wing populism, right-wing populism. Populism can adapt itself to many different

ideologies. It's a very thin-centered ideology. But that doesn't mean it has no substance whatsoever. It does have a substance. The question is really what populism is. Is it this totalizing view? There's a black and white, there's the good people, and there's the bad elite. Now, that elite might be a right-wing elite, it might be a left-wing elite. Is that what populism is about?

- 8.14** This impatience with pluralism, this desire for monism, for a singular will, arguably can lead to illiberalism, can arguably lead to a desire to say, "We want to sweep away all the rules, all the norms of liberalism and democracy, which are frustrating the popular will. These that have been concocted by the elites to tie to and distract the will of the people." And the populace will stand instead for the spirit or the popular will. And then the populist leader will say that, "I am the incarnation of the popular will, and I will do your bidding against the corrupt establishment."
- 8.15** There's also a critique that says in populism, there's a tendency— recall when we said with the founding of the nation, say in the French Revolution—you have to define who the people are. It may be that certain categories of people are excluded from who are "the people." Ethnic and religious minorities, ideological dissenters, may be excluded from the definition of "the people" by populists.
- 8.16** The idea here is that sometimes the part of the population stands in for the whole, and there's exclusion of segments of the population from who are the people. So the populists represent the nation in the image of a part. Typically, the ethnic majority, typically maybe more the working class and not the middle class or the elite. It's this impatience with the accommodations and constraints of pluralist liberal democracy that has led some to argue that populism is a threat to liberal democracy, and prefer simplicity over the messy complexity of liberal democracy.
- 8.17** The last thing I want to say is there is a literature that has explored the relationship between three concepts: democracy, nationalism, populism. We've already talked about how nationalism and populism invoke the people. Democracy, too, is about majority rule. It's about the people ruling and not the elite. And so there is a question of how closely linked these terms democracy, nationalism, and populism are.
- 8.18** There are a number of liberal writers who have made the argument that democracy is a threat to liberalism and that it leads to violence. That in order to mobilize voters in a democracy, often politicians will resort to emotional appeals, whipping up war fever, for example, or resorting to broad-brush characterization of outsiders or of elites. There is a debate within the democracy literature, within the nationalism literature, and the populism literature, and there's a lot of overlap between these three, but they're not exactly the same.
- 8.19** One question is: Isn't populism really just about democracy? People who don't like populism don't like the majoritarian principle in democracy, which says that the majority rules. These are people who lost out in that equation, so they're just anti-

democratic. What's wrong with talking about the American people, or the Korean people?

- 8.20** What we see here is that in populist movements, there can be a focus on excluding certain elements in the population. Now, that might be an economic elite. So Occupy Wall Street: left-wing populist movement demonizing people who work in financial services or the very rich, the 1%. Is that okay? Should there be a focus on the 1%? There's a question there. If the 1% really is using crony capitalism to extract rents and is not contributing positively to the nation, there shouldn't be a problem in focusing on that group and criticizing them.
- 8.21** Now, you might say, "Well, the criticism has to be proportional. It has to be evidence-based. It can't just be broad-brush and emotional. But emotions are part of politics. They are part of political campaigns. The idea that we want to expunge all emotion from political campaigns is ridiculous. People are partly emotional beings. We have to have emotion in politics and not just cold reason. With a lot of these questions, it's a question of what is too much and what is moderate.
- 8.22** It's also worth saying that many populist movements have become established parties. The Democratic Party in the United States begins as Jacksonian democracy— a populist revolt against the elite becomes an established party. That pattern—another party, the Canadian New Democratic Party, the main left-wing party, started out as a Western-based populist party.
- 8.23** There is this tradition of populist parties bringing in new sets of voters into the electorate, their interests, which had been excluded. That's a renewal democracy. I mean, you could argue, for example, that extending the franchise to the working class, which happened in Britain in 1867 and 1885, is populism. It's bringing in voters that have been outside the system into the system. But surely we would say that that is an advance for democracy. So that arguably populist appeal where you're trying to bring in new segments of the population can be viewed as a threat to democracy, but also as a renewal of democracy.
- 8.24** Now, in terms of who populism identifies as the enemy. Sometimes this can be the economic elite, so the business and financial elite. Sometimes it can be the established political elite, special interests, and legislators and representatives of the political elite can be targeted. Sometimes cultural elites, intellectuals, writers seen as unpatriotic. Sometimes ethnic minorities, religious minorities, again, in that cultural dimension. We have these three dimensions within populism: economic, political, and cultural.
- 8.25** But equally, when we're talking about populism, one of the questions is, what are we talking about? Are we talking about a type of leader, a type of style, a type of political institution? For example, there are populist parties. These are third-party movements like the Reform party in Britain, the AfD in Germany, Bernie Sanders in the United States. These are leaders or parties that are in some way outside the establishment.

Now, they may be third-party movements, as with the Reform party in Britain. They may be outsider leaders like Bernie Sanders or Donald Trump in the United States, who may be seen as outside the party establishment. They may be leaders of a movement, a mass grassroots movement, Juan Perón, Hugo Chávez, Venezuela. Sometimes we have a populist leader, sometimes we have a new populist party.

- 8.26** But equally, you could imagine a mainstream party going populist, if you like— in terms of the issues that they're talking about. If they're talking about large-scale redistribution of wealth, that's sometimes seen as a populist issue. Or restricting immigration, that's sometimes seen as a populist issue. Or it could be a style more emotional than rational: dressing like the every man, Nigel Farage drinking a beer at a pub, that's seen as somewhat popular. How you dress, the language you use. Do you swear? That's seen as populist.
- 8.27** There are many different dimensions here. One is structural in terms of where you fit within the party system. Another is stylistic. There's a question of what the socioeconomic composition of a particular movement or party is. If it tends to be more lower class or working class, then that sometimes is seen as more populist as well.
- 8.28** It seems, therefore, that we have aspects of populism, but we also have degrees, so you can be more or less populist. Gordon Brown did use—Tony Blair, they would talk about the British people. Gordon Brown did use the term British workers. There is some populist language that's used, even by mainstream politicians. We might want to think of a sliding scale of more or less populist, rather than, "You are either a populist or not a populist." Of course, populism can be used as a smear and a slur, as well as, "Oh, they're just a populist. They can be discounted."
- 8.29** The Guardian had a graph where they looked at a whole range of countries from the year 1998 to 2020, and they tried to color in how populist the political leadership has been in these countries over time. Venezuela, Ecuador, Bolivia, these are South American countries. Generally, left-wing populism has been dominant in Latin America. Latin America has arguably been in the forefront of populist-style politics for much longer than other societies. Again, that's not to say there haven't been populist periods in other countries over time. There certainly have been. But it's just to say that we might be able to devise a classification system.
- 8.30** It's worth saying, too, that within the classification of countries and time periods, we see, for example, Chávez and Maduro as rated very populist. Erdoğan, who's a religious Islamist figure, which is interesting. You could have a religious populist as well, left-wing populist like Maduro and Chávez. Then, of course, right-wing populist figures, Viktor Orbán—even though Orbán is a member of a mainstream established party. And even somebody like a Tony Blair gets a higher populist rating than, say, Angela Merkel, who got a zero on this particular rating for populism. I don't know if that's a good thing.

- 8.31** Müller argues that populism is not strictly about emotion over reason. It's not strictly about having a lower class image or composition as opposed to an upper class composition. Nor is it strictly about certain policies such as your attitudes to redistribution of wealth, protectionism versus free trade, use of the military, or immigration. It's really a mix of all of these factors. If you have enough of these intersecting factors to push you over a threshold, then you count as populism.
- 8.32** We even see populism around free market economics, arguably with Milei in Argentina. This is to say that even something like being in favor of free market economics and government spending, which has been typically associated with economic elites, that also can be an ideology that can be wedded to populism. This, again, speaks to that point about the thin-centred nature that populism is very adaptable to other ideologies: left, right, neoliberal, religious, et cetera.
- 8.33** Nationalism, too, to some degree, is thin-centred and adaptable. We have left-wing nationalism, right-wing nationalisms. So Scottish nationalism, Quebec nationalism have been identified with the left. English nationalism, American nationalism with the right, for example. Secular nationalisms of the French Revolution, for example, and certainly Zionism in its early days, religious nationalism. Equally, we do have religious nationalism, the BJP in India is an example of that. We have these different variants of populism and of nationalism. Left-wing populism: Bernie Sanders, Jeremy Corbyn. Right-wing populism: Farage, AfD, so on.
- 8.34** One of the questions we might ask is, "Okay, so to what extent can we say—". One way of getting a read on whether populism and nationalism are coterminous or not is to say, "Can we have elite, or elitist forms of nationalism, and anti-nationalist forms of populism?" I'm going to talk about elitist and elite nationalism in a minute.
- 8.35** You'll recall in previous lectures, we talked about the emergence of nations and how sometimes—at least in the ethnosymbolist account—groups of scholar intellectuals and—in the modernist account—ruling elites were central in propounding the sense of national consciousness into a population. So that presumes an elite-led process. And so it's very difficult to say that nationalism— certainly the origin of nations—is populist, when what we're talking about is elites trying to awaken consciousness in a population.
- 8.36** Can we think, however, of anti-nationalist populism? And I think that's much more difficult. However, I mentioned ISIS before, Islamic State, as a very emotional religious movement that was very opposed to nations. Because religions—universal proselytizing religions like Islam and Christianity—theologically, in many cases, are opposed to nationhood. So fundamentalist Islam, the ISIS version of fundamentalist Islam, wanted to erase national borders, which they felt were human constructions that went against the wishes of the prophet for a unified community of the faithful, the umma. So you could kind of call ISIS a kind of anti-nationalist populism at a stretch.

- 8.37** But certainly, we see more examples of elitist nationalism. Certainly, prior to the 20th century, I mentioned the formation of national movements, the role of intellectuals, the role of bureaucrats, for example, in Turkish nationalism. The role of different kinds of elites in the formation of nations. Compiling dictionaries, folk tales, national histories, that was the work of intellectual elites.
- 8.38** Equally, if we look at a number of nationalist movements, particularly separatist ones. Take the Scottish National Party, the Parti Québécois in Quebec, Sinn Féin IRA in Ireland, Plaid Cymru in Wales—these are movements in which academics, writers, and intellectuals play a very large role. They are oriented towards the left. They are typically quite elite in their composition. Now, they may have a support base that spans a range of different classes. But you wouldn't say that these are populist movements that were anti-elite. The Scottish Nationalists may be opposed to the Westminster elite, but fundamentally, they are led by Scottish elites. It's very difficult, I think, to make the case that these are populist national movements.
- 8.39** If we look across history, we can see that most nationalist movements, if we're going into the 18th, 19th century in Europe, were led by educated elites, the upper strata of society, culturally, politically. But in some cases, you saw, as in Serbia, the Serbian Independence Movement of the 1820s was led by a pig farmer. Sometimes you get a more popular type of nationalism emerging, but that was relatively unusual. Maybe that's getting towards the populist end. Anti-landlord, anti-aristocratic nationalisms did exist, but very often you had a certain elite which was leading these movements.
- 8.40** More recently, the rise of populist nationalism seems to be connected to the desire to criticize the establishment. In criticizing the establishment to devise a new form of national identity, I mentioned Sri Lanka and the way the Sinhala Only movement emerged out of a process of political contestation—as did the BJP in India—challenging the existing elite in a populist way. What that also means is, well, "We're going to challenge the congress domination of India, but we're also going to attack their conception of Indian national identity as not being about Hinduism. We're going to inject Hinduism into the conception of national identity." And so along with the populism comes a different version of nationalism.
- 8.41** However, what we've said is that some nationalisms are actually elite-led, if not elitist. The early Polish nationalism was conceived of Polish elites, really thought only of the educated as being members of the nation. They didn't even consider the peasants to be part of the nation at all. So very early conceptions of nationalism were explicitly elitist in many cases.
- 8.42** We've now moved to a situation where we have populist nationalisms, which are casting doubt on the loyalty of elites in general. That's a big change, I think. One way of interpreting this is that populism comes first, the criticism of the existing elites comes first, and that gives a different shape to the national identity, which may be more ethnic majoritarian, for example—may be more religious in the case of Ireland moving

away from the non-sectarian nationalism towards the more Gaelic Catholic, "ethnic" nationalism.

- 8.43 We can look at the case of Latin America, where populism has been a more dominant mode of politics for longer. Why is that the case? One reason might just be something quite mundane that: if government is corrupt, if economies aren't doing well, there's going to be more critique of the establishment. If the establishment is corrupt, then they're going to be criticized for being corrupt. It's not surprising in a society where things don't work very well that you're going to get more populism—especially when you have a narrow elite or party competition is quite narrow.
- 8.44 Michael Lind argues that politics in Latin America isn't necessarily so much about left and right, I mean, though it is, but it's also about an oscillation between periods of populism, followed by an exhaustion and a return to technocracy, followed by a period of populism. You have these different moods and waves of politics, populism being one mode, technocracy, another mode.
- 8.45 Each time there's a shift—remember we talked about the lenses of nationalism and how different ideological lenses refract different symbols. They force you to pay attention to different symbols of nationhood. With each turn of the ideological wheel, we get a reframing of nationhood.
- 8.46 One example in Latin America has been the shift to the left. The shift to populism has often been accompanied by a shift to a more indigenous—an upgrading of symbols of indigenusness in national identity. Rafael Correa, Hugo Chávez, Evo Morales all wanted to say—there was an implied sense that the indigenous or part indigenous majority had been excluded from power by the relatively white Spanish-descendant majority. Again, part of the populist critique was a reframing of nationalism. It shows how populism and nationalism are linked, but they're not exactly the same thing.
- 8.47 What about populism in the West? Which is probably the reason we're talking about populism is that we are living, even now, we're living through what's known as the populist moment, the post-2014 rise of populist parties, populist leaders across Western Europe and North America. What's the reason for that? There are a number of different arguments.
- 8.48 One is that this is really about economics and about globalization, modernization, deindustrialization; and that leaves behind the working class or people in rural communities who are left behind by the global economy, modern digital economy, and they're revolting at their economic dispossession.
- 8.49 There's then a cultural set of theories which make the argument that value change, ethnic change, multiculturalism, identity loss, because of these cultural changes, has led to the rise of right-wing populism.

- 8.50** Then there's a third set of theories which put more emphasis on the decline of mass membership institutions like churches, labor unions, or mass membership political parties as community institutions, and people are no longer loyal to these inherited traditional institutions. Therefore, the connection between the people and the ruling class elites has attenuated and frayed. That's led to a loss of trust in established institutions and established democracy and elites. We have three different arguments about the cause of the rise of national populism.
- 8.51** We also have questions around whether right-wing populism has any connection to fascism or not. There seems to be a split between the far-right or extreme-right, defined as, if you like, a throne and altar, anti-democratic, "Let's go back to the days before liberal democracy," and the populist right, which accepts democracy, accepts the rules of elections, doesn't harken back to a time before democracy, when you had fascist rulers that ruled without the constraint of legislatures.
- 8.52** The neo-fascist, extreme right family of parties, including, say, Golden Dawn in Greece, this family of parties is typically associated with countries that were relatively late to democratize. Eastern Europe, Greece would be another example of this, maybe to some extent, Spain. Countries where there may be nostalgia for a pre-democratic age. In a weak sense, France, because France has also got a monarchical tradition—hasn't been a continuous democracy the same way as Britain or the United States, for example.
- 8.53** You also have an older set of issues around social conservatism, religion, family values; and a newer set of cultural issues around immigration, Islam, and the ethnic composition of nationhood. If we look at what's happened across Europe in terms of voting, there've really been two waves of right-wing populism.
- 8.54** The first involved a relatively small number of countries, large countries, but relatively small numbers: Austria, Belgium, France, Italy. From the mid or late 1980s to the early 2000s, there was a roughly tripling of support for parties like the Northern League in Italy, the Freedom Party in Austria, or the Vlaams Blok in Belgium. You had a first wave rise of support for the populist right in Western Europe, but only in certain countries.
- 8.55** There was really no significant populist right party in Germany, in Britain, Sweden, only in certain countries. There were arguments made, "Well, Germany had the Nazis, so they can never have a populist right party. Sweden, they're too liberal. They're never going to have a populist right party. Britain, first-past-the-post election system, they're never going to have a populist right party." One by one, all of these exceptions have fallen in the second wave, which is the post-2014 wave.
- 8.56** Just to say what happened in 2014, we had the European elections. This is at a time of rising immigration across the Mediterranean, which culminated in the 2015 migrant crisis, in late 2015. What we see in 2014 is that in Britain, the UK Independence Party reached 27% of the vote in the European elections in 2014. Danish People's Party, 27%.

National Front in France, 25%. Austrian Freedom Party, 20%. These were quite unprecedented numbers. We're starting to see in 2014 then the emergence of an increased vote share for populists.

- 8.57** Now, the European elections, the elections to the European Union were seen as perhaps a place where people could express their true sentiments—it didn't really matter very much. I mean, yes it did, the people who were elected did take their seats in the European Parliament, but the European Parliament doesn't really have a lot of power over everyday life. People could be seen to vote expressively.
- 8.58** Also with a proportional representation system, small parties found it easier to get representation in the European elections than in national parliament elections. So the UK Independence Party, its previous vote share in national elections had been 3.1%; in the 2014 European election, 27%. That shows you these elections were an important sounding board for these sentiments.
- 8.59** The other thing to note is it wasn't just Italy, France, Austria, Belgium, the traditional places where the populist right had done well. It was across a much wider range of countries, including, for example, Britain, which had been seen as an exception.
- 8.60** Moving forward to the 2020s, what we can see is that the far-right family of political parties, populist-right family of political parties, increased its share of the vote in domestic elections very substantially between 2014 and 2018, '19, and so on, and has maintained retained or increased that vote share.
- 8.61** What explains the rise of the populist right since 2014? I mentioned those three theories. One is that it's about the economy, maybe the economic crash—2007, 2008 financial crisis—de-skilling, deindustrialization, globalization, free trade. Could it be the continued withering away of people's attachments to union, church, political party, established political parties like the Christian Democrats, Social Democrats, or in this country, the Labor Party, and the Conservative Party? Simply because the party memberships had dwindled so much; the Union memberships, the Church memberships, had dwindled. Or was it to do with cultural shifts, immigration?
- 8.62** Before we get to looking at immigration and the connection between immigration and the rise of national populism, it's worth considering questions in the British Election survey that are meant to tap a purely populist dimension, rather than necessarily a nationalist dimension. So take this question, "The people, and not politicians, should make our most important policy decisions." That's one of several questions that tap this populist dimension.
- 8.63** The share that agree with that statement that, "The people, not politicians, should make the most important decisions," was highest for the UK Independence Party—which is a right-wing populist party—got 68% of UKIP voters agreed with that statement. 56% of people who voted to leave the European Union agreed with that statement.

- 8.64** However, if we look by party vote, 49% of Labour voters agreed with that statement, and only 38% of Conservative voters agreed with that statement. Now, granted, the Conservatives were in government at the time, but it shows that it's not so easy to assign the left-right dimension to layer that on top of the populist-antipopulist dimension. That actually, voters for a left-wing party, Labour in this case, are substantially more populist than voters for a right wing party, which is the Conservatives.
- 8.65** Parties like the Greens, 47% of Green Party voters agreed with this populist statement. Even the Liberal Democrats, 39%, that's higher than the Conservatives at 38%. This is just to say that there are different dimensions going on in the populist dimension about who should be making decisions, the people or the politicians. That's not something that neatly falls along a left-right dimension.
- 8.66** Here's another example. What annoys you most about the American elite? This is a small survey, one that I conducted, actually. If we compare Donald Trump, Trump voters, and Hillary Clinton voters in 2017, a smaller share of Clinton voters said, "American elites don't annoy me," than Trump voters. So there were more Trump voters who were not annoyed by the American elite than Clinton voters. Now, there's not a statistical significance here, but it just shows that there's actually no difference in the degree of anti-elitism between Trump and Clinton voters on this measure.
- 8.67** Where is the difference between the attitudes towards the elite among Trump and Clinton voters in 2017? The difference is this: it's not whether they like the elite or don't like the elite, it's really about why they don't like the elite. 54% of Clinton voters said, "We don't like the elite because they're rich and powerful." Only 27% of Trump voters said, "We don't like the elite because they're rich and powerful." So Clinton voters are more populist left than Trump voters.
- 8.68** But then if we take the statement, "They are politically correct," 34% of Trump voters, just 9% of Clinton voters say they don't like elites because they're politically correct. And I think what this speaks to is there's a different type of person in mind among Trump voters and Clinton voters when they think about who the elite is. Trump voters dislike more the cultural elite. Clinton voters more the economic elite. It's not really a matter of elitism versus populism, so much as a matter of which elite you dislike more.
- 8.69** Getting back to that question about what predicts support for populist parties or populist leaders. One theory is that it's about culture and immigration. If we want to explain right-wing populism, certainly, we have to look at attitudes to immigration. The economic theory would say, "No, it's really about the left behind, and people who are poor feel left behind in the global economy;" left behind by the new high-tech modernized economy.
- 8.70** There's a graph which we can look at, which looks at attitudes to immigration among white Americans from "increase immigration a lot" to "reduce immigration a lot." Then

we have people's income from under \$15,000 a year to over \$150,000 a year. What the graph shows is there is essentially no difference that is statistically significant between very rich and very poor white Americans in their likelihood of supporting Donald Trump. The economic theory that poorer people are going to support Donald Trump more than rich people doesn't get a lot of support from this large-scale survey data from the American National Election Study.

8.71 However, if we look at people who want to increase immigration a lot, only 1 in 10 support Donald Trump; and amongst those who want to reduce immigration a lot, over 8 in 10 support Trump. So this would suggest that attitudes to immigration are overwhelmingly dominant in explaining support for Donald Trump, whereas personal economic circumstances make no difference. And that would suggest the cultural theory does a better job of explaining support for right-wing populism than economic theories.

8.72 We can do the same chart for Brexit vote from the British election study. We can see that those who say, "Many more immigrants should be allowed into Britain," have effectively a zero chance of voting to leave the European Union, whereas those who say, more or less, "We should have no more immigration," have over an 8 in 10, or about an 8 in 10 chance of voting to leave the European Union.

8.73 The difference between those who make the most money, over £60,000, and the least money, under £15,000, is significant, unlike in the case of the United States. So poorer people in Britain were more likely to vote to leave the European Union. But the gap between the richest and poorest is only about 10 to 15 points, whereas the gap between those who most oppose and most support immigration is 80 points. So even though there is some support for the economic theory in this graph. Actually, the immigration-led theory is much more powerful, as it was in the American case.

8.74 Other reasons we might expect that trends in immigration have been more meaningful are that if we look, for example in Britain, at net migration levels from the 1980s through to even into the 2020s, but certainly up to the Brexit vote, rising net migration levels led to more coverage in the media of immigration, led to more people saying immigration is the most important issue facing the country.

8.75 If you said immigration was the most important issue facing the country, which approximately 40% of those who voted to leave the European Union did, then clearly that inclined you much more to national populism. What we saw actually was that Brexit voters were not particularly redistributionists. They didn't care that much about redistributing wealth. They cared very centrally about immigration.

8.76 We see that same kind of pattern across Europe. With the peak of the migrant crisis in late 2015, we saw the number of European citizens saying immigration was the top issue, breaking 50%, and at the same time, we see populist right parties surging—the AfD in Germany, very closely tied to the immigration issue. It seems as though

immigration was very much the issue that drove right-wing populism in the populist moment. Whereas if we look at the 2007-2008 economic crisis, there was no upsurge in right-wing populism as a result of the financial crisis. It seems, therefore, that trends in immigration more closely correlate with support for right-wing populists.

- 8.77** It's different when we talk about left-wing populism. Left-wing populism arguably may have much more to do with the economy and with inequality. It's also the case when we talk about immigration attitudes. Do you want more immigration, less immigration, the same? That's the attitude.
- 8.78** There's a second dimension which we call salience. That is, okay, "You think immigration should be reduced a lot, but how important an issue is immigration to you on this list of 10 issues?" Well, compared to the economy and health care or the pandemic or any other set of issues, if immigration is number 5, 6, 7 after foreign policy in the economy, even if you think immigration should be reduced, that's not going to make much difference then to voting patterns.
- 8.79** What we see is, in this article by Dennison and Geddes, across 10 West European countries, well, 9 of 10 West European countries, they found a relationship between rising numbers of immigrants, the share saying that immigration is the most important issue, and the percentage vote for populist right parties. So there seems to be a relationship between the rising salience, the rising number of people saying immigration is the most important issue facing the country, and vote for the populist right. That is the strongest predictor of voting trends for the populist right in Western Europe.
- 8.80** That relationship is there, but it's not as clear in the U.S. case. But prior to the election of Trump, the salience of immigration, the number of Republican voters saying immigration is the most important issue facing the U.S., was the highest it had ever been since that question had been asked in the 1930s, somewhere between 10 and 20%. So it's not 40% as it was in Britain before the Brexit vote, but it was still at a higher level than it had ever been since records had been kept. So even in the U.S. case, immigration played a very important role in the rise of Trump to first gaining the Republican nomination and then winning the presidency. And arguably, something similar occurred in the 2024 election when immigration was the top issue for Republican voters.
- 8.81** This then raises the question of: As Europe's population becomes more diverse, does that mean we're going to see continued support for populist right parties? There were some who said, "Well, this rise of populism after 2014, that's a blip. It'll go away." We haven't seen that. Not only haven't we seen that, we've seen populism spread to Portugal with Chega. We've seen populism in Spain. We may begin to see populism in Ireland.

- 8.82** Some of the real outlier cases are possibly joining this European trend, and we're seeing numbers for populist right parties that we've never seen before. An example would be the National Front in France when it won 18% of the vote in 2001. A million protesters came out on the streets. Again, the sentiment might have been, "Well, this is a toxic party. We're going to protest them getting 18% of the vote in the runoff, presidential runoff." But now with Marine Le Pen and the RN, there's a chance that they may actually win over 50% of the vote. They were in the low 40s last time. In Austria, the FPÖ has reached 49% of the vote. The numbers that we're seeing for populism now are much higher than we've seen in the past. Populism has spread to a much wider range of countries.
- 8.83** If it is tied to immigration, the question is why immigration is key, and not the economy? Is there something about immigration? Is it pressure on public services? There are those who make the argument that the continued diversification of Europe's population will keep the issue of immigration salient. Now, of course, if immigration levels drop off, then we might expect to see populism drop.
- 8.84** One of the debates—a lot of this depends on why you think national populism is rising. If you think it is tied to actual immigration levels and it's tied to the issue of immigration, then this is something a mainstream party could, in theory, deal with by becoming restrictive on immigration—like the Danish Social Democrats who seem to successfully have seen off the threat of populism in a way that is much less the case across other Western countries.
- 8.85** If this is about an issue, if mainstream parties are willing to address this issue, then maybe they can limit the appeal of populist parties or populist leaders. That would then suggest that the norms of acceptable debate, the norms that exist within mainstream parties, could be a constraining force. If those norms will not allow mainstream political figures or parties to restrict immigration and lower immigration, then that will continue to provide an opportunity for populist parties and leaders to survive.
- 8.86** The other view, which would say, "Well, immigration isn't the main issue." The other view would say it's deindustrialization, it is loss of political trust, that are the drivers of populism. Actually, by talking about immigration, if the mainstream parties start to talk about restricting immigration, that will only help the populist right.
- 8.87** This is the so-called mainstreaming theory that this is supply-driven, and if you talk about immigration, then you're only going to help the populist right. The question then becomes, well, try and change the subject to talking about the economy or other things. Whereas the cultural theory would say that if you try and change the subject and avoid talking about immigration, you are only going to inflame populist sentiment even more. You're going to provide an opportunity for part—if you don't address the issue of immigration, the populists are going to address the issue of immigration.

- 8.88** There's a debate here, really, on what you see as the cause of the rise of right-wing populism. Depending on how you diagnose that, you will then have a different solution for how to see off the challenge of populism.
- 8.89** It's worth saying that the foreign-born share of Europe's population and of the American population is at levels that are arguably unprecedented. This is one reason that if you believe that immigration is at the core of the populist phenomenon, then this would suggest that this is a feature and not a bug of Western politics, and we're likely to see a continuation of the populist moment, which is now 10 years old.
- 8.90** Another phenomenon we see is a division within party politics. Now, in the U.S. case, it's a first-past-the post political system. We have two major parties. The right-wing party has become more of a populist party. This is partly the nature of Western politics, where we've been shifting from the old economic left-right to the more cultural, open-closed, or globalist-nationalist dimension. The degree to which politics starts to revolve around cultural issues, such as immigration, if that continues, then we're likely to see parties of the right become more associated with populism than parties of the left.
- 8.91** Now, that's not to say this will last forever. It may be the case, particularly if economies stagnate, that economic issues might become important as well. The more there's a debate over tax, and spend, and economic stagnation, the more that would bring the system back towards the older politics of left-right, in which there's division within the elite and division within the mass of the working class along ideological lines. That would tend perhaps to deflect or weaken the populist moment.
- 8.92** In terms of differences across place and time, we've talked about right-wing populism in the West. Again, there's right-wing populism, there's left-wing populism. It may be that populism is different depending on which part of the world we're in. In parts of the world where government doesn't work very well—that tend to be poor, where there's a corrupt police force—perhaps we can think there would be more of that Latin American pattern of an oscillation between voting in populist to turf out the corrupt elite. If the populists make a mess of the economy or get out of control, you vote technocrats back in to rein them in. That might be the pattern that we see in developing countries.
- 8.93** In Eastern Europe, there's a more recent autocratic past prior to democracy. There's nostalgia among some people for the old communist system and a suspicion of the market economy. And so that kind of neo-fascist, extreme right element is more important, arguably, in politics than it would be, say, in established democracies. The role of history, the role of the question of democracy, they matter less, arguably, in Western Europe, that have a less turbulent past.
- 8.94** In Western Europe, the question is much more then around immigration multiculturalism, and the rise of the populist right in the West seems to be linked to that issue. One place you can see this is Germany, where the old East Germany votes

for the AfD at a higher rate than West Germany. But if we look at immigration levels, parts of West Germany that have a higher immigration tend to have—I'm talking about regions within West Germany—they tend to be higher AfD voting areas. The immigration issue is very important for AfD voting in the West. In the East what you see is the legacy of the past and of history. East Germany doesn't have as high immigration as the West, so immigration—

- 8.95** Now, there is this question of to what extent—if people are concerned about immigration, is it because immigration is happening in their city and town, or is it because immigration is happening at the national level? A lot of the research we find is that people are much more concerned about what's happening at the national level than at the local level. Most people say, "Immigration is not much of a problem in my local area." Most people say, "Immigration is a problem at the national level."
- 8.96** It's incorrect to simply say, "Well, this area doesn't have any immigrants. Why are they voting for immigration restrictionist parties? Why would they care?" People tend to vote on the basis of how they think their nation is doing in the world, this notion of imagined community rather than face-to-face community. That's one way of understanding this relationship.
- 8.97** So simply saying, well, "East Germany doesn't have a lot of immigrants, therefore, why are they voting for anti-immigrant parties?" It could be the case that people in East Germany are thinking nationally. It could be the case that they are thinking of the communist past, the excesses of the left. There are many reasons why East Germany might vote the way they do as compared to West Germany.
- 8.98** So just to conclude, we've talked about nationalism and populism, that populism has a lot in common with nationalism and also with democracy, because populism is, like those two, focused on the people as the bearers of power and legitimacy in the system. The question of who the people are that should be the bearers of power is a question for nationalism and for democracy.
- 8.99** There is an overlap between nationalism and populism, but equally, we've seen that they aren't perfectly overlapping. There are elitist, non-populist forms of nationalism, like Quebec nationalism and Scottish nationalism. There may even be populist forms of anti-nationalism, like ISIS, that are possible. They're not exactly the same concept.
- 8.100** We looked at the rise of national populism in the West since 2014. The competing theories for the rise of national populism, that is: the more economic, the more cultural, the more political. The role of immigration connected more to that cultural theory as a key policy issue in the rise of Western national populism. Depending on how you see, and what you see as the important force driving the rise of national populism, you'll take a different view as to what political elites need to do to combat or see off the rise of national populism.
- 8.101** Thank you.

